

Getting out the Vote: When Can Firms Politically Mobilize Their Workers? *

Max Kagan
Columbia Business School

September 14, 2026

[LINK TO LATEST VERSION](#)

Abstract

Can firms shape the political behavior of their employees in support of their strategic goals? The workplace is a political sphere where employees are routinely exposed to political messages, including guidance on their employers' preferred political outcomes. This has led to claims that firms are "political machines" that can mobilize employees to turn out to vote in support of their political goals. Linking millions of LinkedIn worker profiles with administrative voter records and their company's campaign finance disclosures, I find that the potential of firms to mobilize employees to turn out to vote in strategically important elections is real but contextually limited. In state and local elections, employees at firms engaged in election-related corporate political activity turn out to vote at 1.86 percentage points higher rates. However, mobilization effects are dependent upon the timing of elections, the extent of shared material stakes between firms and employees, and whether elections are partisan. Turnout effects are smallest in high-turnout presidential elections and larger in lower-salience off-year and off-cycle elections, and they are larger for ballot questions with high material stakes for employees. While I find effects in non-partisan ballot question races, I do not find evidence that firms' support for specific partisan candidates can affect turnout in races for the U.S. House of Representatives. These results suggest that the political mobilization of employees constitutes a real, but contextually bounded strategic resource for firms' pursuit of strategic goals.

Keywords: employee mobilization, constituency building, corporate political activity, nonmarket strategy

*I thank Kate Odziemkowska and Tim Werner for helpful comments, as well as audiences at the Academy of Management, Columbia Business School, IE Business School, Rice, the SRF Conference, the University of Michigan, and UT Austin. This work was supported by the U.S. National Science Foundation's Learning the Earth with Artificial Intelligence and Physics (LEAP) Science and Technology Center (STC) (grant #2019625), as well as the Institute for Humane Studies. This research used the Savio computational cluster resource provided by the Berkeley Research Computing program at the University of California, Berkeley (supported by the UC Berkeley Chancellor, Vice Chancellor for Research, and Chief Information Officer), as well as Bridges-2 at the Pittsburgh Supercomputing Center through allocation SOC260009 from the Advanced Cyberinfrastructure Coordination Ecosystem: Services & Support (ACCESS) program, which is supported by U.S. National Science Foundation grants #2138259, #2138286, #2138307, #2137603, and #2138296. The Politics at Work project (politicsatwork.org) received financial support from the University of Maryland and the University of Michigan. Any opinions, findings, and conclusions or recommendations expressed in this material are those of the author and do not necessarily reflect the views of the U.S. National Science Foundation or any other supporting organization.

1 Introduction

Researchers have long recognized the importance of the workplace in shaping workers' political behavior. Early theorists recognized the potential for the material conditions of employment to shape workers' politics (Marx 1852, 1867), and scholars working across a wide range of disciplines have also identified the potential for workplace socialization to affect workers' political attitudes and behaviors (Allport 1954; Budd et al. 2018; Hurst and Lee 2025; Mazumder and Yan 2023; Mutz and Mondak 2006; Pateman 1970; Perrow 1993; Straus 2025).

In addition to the material conditions of employment and over-time socialization, workers are also exposed to explicit political messages from their employers. Survey show that workers routinely receive communication about their employers' preferred political outcomes, and even explicit guidance about how the firm would like them to vote (Avenancio-León et al. 2026; Frye et al. 2025; Hertel-Fernandez 2017, 2025; Stuckatz et al. 2025). These findings have led some to argue that firms can serve as “political machines” (Hertel-Fernandez 2017), “vote brokers” (Frye et al. 2025), or “electoral monopolies” (Avenancio-León et al. 2026) that can mobilize workers to vote in support of their preferred outcomes. While these studies have tended to focus on the *political* consequences of firms' attempts to mobilize their employees, they also suggest that firms could reap *strategic* benefits by politically mobilizing their employees to increase their political power and influence. But despite surveys showing that workers routinely receive political messages from their employers, it is not clear whether or when such efforts correspond to actual changes in workers' behavior.

In this paper, I first explain why firms may seek to politically mobilize their workers and how doing so may unlock strategic benefits as firms seek to compete in the nonmarket domain. Mobilizing workers to turn out could directly impact election results in certain cases. In addition to workers' own votes, they can also influence the votes of friends, family, and neighbors (Hurst et al. 2025; Nickerson 2008). Workers can also engage in broader types of civic campaigns, such as by contacting lawmakers or speaking out in public as part of broader constituency building measures (Lord 2000). In addition to directly affecting political outcomes which are decided via election, firms' ability to influence worker's votes can also be an important source of leverage and influence over policymakers who care about maintaining public support (Bombardini and Trebbi 2011; Katic and Hillman 2023). I then identify several plausible scope conditions for when firms may be better able to mobilize their workers to turn out to vote: the timing of

elections, the extent to which the election issues implicate workers' material concerns, and whether or not the election is partisan in nature.

To test whether firms can actually politically mobilize employees votes, as well as the plausibility of potential scope conditions, I assemble new large-scale data covering thousands of firms and millions of employees. This includes campaign finance data spanning federal, state, and local elections, as well as linked administrative data that link tens of millions of workers with official administrative records of their voting turnout history (see Frake et al. 2026; Kagan et al. 2026).

I first focus on ballot questions (i.e., referenda) which are held in U.S. states and local jurisdictions and which differ across timing and the extent to which they implicate workers' material interests. I gather data on all state ballot questions held between 2016 and 2024, as well as selected local elections in states with publicly-accessible campaign finance data. I then collect data on corporate spending in these elections to identify politically active firms, and identify nearly 800,000 workers at 1,617 politically active firms across 303 elections in 39 states. Using stacked difference-in-differences (Cengiz et al. 2019) to compare workers at politically active "treated" firms with similar control workers matched on geography, industry, political party, age, and gender, I find that workers turn out at 1.86 percentage points higher rates in elections in which their employers are politically active. The turnout increase is smallest in high-turnout presidential elections and larger in off-year and off-cycle elections. In addition to timing, the content of ballot questions also significantly moderates the effect of turnout increases. Turnout increases are largest for ballot questions which have large material implications for workers themselves and are smaller in cases where firms are politically active but the implications for workers are unclear or nonexistent.

This suggests that firms can mobilize workers to turn out in support of firms' political goals on ballot questions, which are discrete one-off policy proposals rather than partisan elections. To evaluate whether firms are able to politically mobilize workers in partisan political contexts, I conduct a similar analysis of voter turnout in elections for the U.S. House of Representatives from 2014 to 2022. I look at 808 publicly-traded companies with corporate political action committees (PACs) which donate to House candidates during this period. Across these companies, I analyze voting turnout for over 3 million workers in 376 House districts. Using the de Chaisemartin and D'Haultfœuille (2023) difference-in-difference estimator to account for the staggered and non-absorbing nature of firms' decisions to start or stop funding specific House candidates, I find no clear evidence that worker turnout is affected by firms'

decisions to start or stop funding local House candidates.

Taken together, these results suggest that workers can constitute a valuable political asset for firms' pursuit of their nonmarket strategy goals within certain contexts. However, the scope of firms' ability to affect employees' political turnout is limited. While earlier scholarship often expresses fears that firms could undermine democracy by manipulating employees to vote against their interest, these results suggest that employees' tend to support firm strategic priorities only within fairly narrow nonpartisan policy domains where employees and firms share mutual interests.

This paper aims to make several contributions. First, it integrates findings from political science, economics, and sociology into management research, uncovering important new insights about firm political mobilization of workers. Whereas studies in cognate disciplines have tended to focus on the consequences of firms' political mobilization of workers for individual workers or for democratic representation, I adopt a firm-centric lens and consider the implications for firm strategy. In so doing, I identify an important set of scope conditions which suggest that the potential for firm mobilization of workers is real, but constrained. Second, this study contributes to literature on nonmarket strategy by identifying that rank and file employees can support firms' corporate political activity. While existing research in and around nonmarket strategy has often viewed employees as a constraint to be managed (Burbano 2021; Hurst and Lee 2025; McKean and King 2024; White et al. 2025), this study affirms the strategic potential of employees to contribute to firms' political strategies and ultimately their overall performance. Third, this study responds to growing calls for management and organizational scholarship to consider broader societal outcomes, including the significance of the workplace for democracy (Barley 2007, 2010; Battilana et al. 2025; Flammer et al. 2025).

2 Theory and Related Literature

2.1 The Workplace as a Political Sphere

The idea that the workplace is a political sphere is nothing new. Organizational scholars have long recognized the potential of the workplace to shape workers' political views. A lengthy tradition of scholarship emphasizes class dynamics and the ways in which the material and economic conditions of employment constitute a key driver of political consciousness (Marx 1852, 1867). In addition to sociological and political economy work that emphasizes material and economic considerations, research

has also established that the workplace functions as an important social arena that can contribute to political socialization of workers. Unions constitute one obvious source of influence, and a number of studies have debated the extent to which unions are able to shape political attitudes and behavior (Flavin and Hartney 2015; Frymer and Grumbach 2021; Hertel-Fernandez 2025; Leighley and Nagler 2007; Yan 2025). Other scholars have theorized that the collaborative nature of workplace interactions can lead to lasting reductions in intergroup prejudice towards stigmatized groups (Allport 1954; Paluck et al. 2019; Pettigrew and Tropp 2006). More recently, scholarship has considered the potentially unique role of the workplace in an era of heightened political polarization and investigated the extent to which workers may be exposed to members of the opposing political party while at work (Chinoy and Koenen 2024; Colonnelli et al. 2025; Frake et al. 2026; Mutz and Mondak 2006; Mutz 2025). Additionally, other studies go beyond the walls of the firm to consider how workplace political socialization may affect workers in ways that impact society more broadly, such as by considering how formal and informal institutions can affect workers' civic engagement and democratic participation (Abrams et al. 2011; Budd et al. 2018; Hurst et al. 2025; Mazumder and Yan 2023; Pateman 1970; Perrow 1993).

In addition to over-time socialization, workers are also exposed to explicitly political messages from their managers and supervisors. Anecdotal reports abound of workers being told by their bosses how they should vote, and even being forced to attend political rallies, meetings, or other events. In the 2012 U.S. Presidential election, Republican candidate Mitt Romney explicitly called upon allies in the business community to explain to their workers why they should support him and the Republican party. Multiple business leaders responded by sending letters to their entire employee base warning that a Democratic victory would result in harms to their business, including the loss of jobs, and consequently urging employees to support the Republican party (Frye et al. 2025; Hertel-Fernandez 2018). In the 2016 election, supervisors at a U-Haul location in Arizona required workers to attend a rally supporting Republicans, while casino bosses in neighboring Nevada offered employees paid time off and free box lunches to attend Democratic party caucuses (Frye et al. 2025; Hertel-Fernandez 2018). In the decade since then, the size and scope of companies' political involvement has grown dramatically. Whereas media reports regarding employee mobilization were once dominated by conservative-leaning CEOs contacting employees to urge them to vote for the Republican party, there has been a growing trend for many companies and CEOs to issue public pronouncements of support for progressive social policies associated with the Democratic party (Chatterji and Toffel 2019; Chung et al. 2025; Hurst 2023; McKean

and King 2024; Melloni et al. 2023).

Scholars have gone beyond collecting anecdotal reports to gather systematic evidence of the extent to which firms communicate with their workers about politics. While precise figures differ from survey to survey, a picture emerges that clearly suggests that firms routinely attempt to politically mobilize their workers. In the mid-2010s, Hertel-Fernandez (2018) found that nearly half of managers reported attempting to recruit workers into politics, and that 33% of managers gave their employees explicit political guidance that went beyond generic or nonpartisan encouragement to vote or get involved. While Hertel-Fernandez found that only about one in four employees reported being on the receiving end of political message, a more recent survey by Frye et al. (2025) found that nearly half of all U.S. employees had experienced some exposure to political messaging from a workplace superior. In current working papers, Stuckatz et al. (2025) and Avenancio-León et al. (2026) report similar findings: Stuckatz et al. find that 41% of U.S. employees are aware of their employers' corporate political activities and 28% were personally subject to mobilization attempts, while Avenancio-León et al. find that 68% of employees reported that their employer communicates to them about politics.

These studies typically paint worker political mobilization in a negative light, citing normative concerns about power imbalances in the workplace between managers and their employees. While they note that explicit coercion appears almost unheard of in the United States, these studies express concerns that firms can constitute “political machines” (Hertel-Fernandez 2018), “vote brokers” (Frye et al. 2025) or “electoral monopsonies” (Avenancio-León et al. 2026) that can put undue and illegitimate pressure on individual workers and even subvert the overall democratic process. Without minimizing these normative social concerns, these striking claims do also give rise to other questions when viewed from a more firm-centric lens. If firms' influence over their employees can be powerful enough to strike fears about democracy itself—or even, as one recent working paper claims, plausibly have altered the results of U.S. presidential elections (Avenancio-León et al. 2026)—it is reasonable to ask whether, when, and how firms can benefit from deploying this tool.

2.2 Corporate Political Activity

Why might firms want to mobilize employees, and why do they care about politics in the first place? Strategy research emphasizes that firms' ability to shape the nonmarket environment is a major

component of performance and strategic success (Baron 1995a,b, 2012). A key aspect of the nonmarket environment is government policy that is shaped by the political process. As such, firms deploy a variety of corporate political activity (CPA) measures to attempt to influence political outcomes to their own advantage (Hillman and Hitt 1999; Hillman et al. 2004).

An influential theoretical framework posits that CPA measures function within a “market for public policy” wherein firms offer useful resources that are valued by policymakers in exchange for securing policymakers’ support in advancing their policy goals (Bonardi et al. 2005; Dorobantu et al. 2017; Grossman and Helpman 1994; Hillman et al. 2004; Lenway et al. 2022; Mellahi et al. 2016). Most research into CPA focuses on the exchange of two types of resources: money (i.e., campaign finance) and information (i.e., lobbying) (Bombardini and Trebbi 2020; Garlick et al. 2025; Hall and Deardorff 2006; Katic and Hillman 2023).

While it has received far less scholarly attention than lobbying and campaign finance, public support is also a valuable resource for policymakers (Katic and Hillman 2023). Policymakers—regardless of whether they are elected or appointed—are accountable to the public and care about public support. As a result, firms can gain an advantage if they are able to successfully mobilize members of the public to demonstrate support for their preferred policies. Organizing large groups to engage in costly actions—such as attending public meetings, organizing protests or rallies, sending letters to policymakers, or turning out to vote—can convey to policymakers that firms’ preferred outcomes have a broad base of support. These costly signals can thus signal to policymakers that they can benefit from delivering favorable policies or suffer costs if they fail to do so.

A growing body of CPA research focuses on how firms can demonstrate public support by mobilizing or building constituency groups. Within this “constituency building” literature, Walker (2012) and Walker and Rea (2014) examine how firms organize grassroots lobbying campaigns that target the public in general, while Wen et al. (2024) focus on how rideshare companies mobilize their customers (i.e., platform users). Related research highlights other methods companies can use to shape public policy through public-facing strategies (Kollman 1998), such as the strategic allocation of corporate philanthropy (Luo et al. 2018; Kaul and Luo 2023; Seo et al. 2021) or CEO activism on sociopolitical issues (Chatterji and Toffel 2019; Hou and Poliquin 2023; McKean and King 2024; Poliquin and Hou 2025). Others study firm partnerships with social activist groups and non-governmental organizations (Dorobantu and Odziemkowska 2017; Gama and Gatignon 2025; Odziemkowska and McDonnell 2024).

Murphy et al. (2024) offer a rich account of these processes, analyzing how firms construct “bootlegger and Baptist” coalitions with values-driven external stakeholders to build broader political support.

2.3 Employees as a Strategic Political Asset

As the constituency building literature explains, public support can be a valuable strategic asset for firms within the market for public policy. Research into constituency-based strategies that mobilize public support in pursuit of firm goals have largely focused on *external* constituencies, such as public grassroots campaigns, customer outreach, or partnerships with social movements. By contrast, *internal* constituencies—i.e., a firms’ own employees—have been largely absent from studies of CPA, despite recognition that employees do constitute a core firm constituency (Keim and Zeithaml 1986).

To the extent that employees do feature within research into CPA in any capacity, studies have focused on specialized, elite, or otherwise atypical types of employees. Specialized employees such as professional lobbyists (Jia 2018) or “government affairs” staff (Hall and Sun 2026) play a role in CPA as part of their professional responsibilities to conduct outreach policymakers. Firms may also take advantage of employees who have informal ties with influential policymakers (Haveman et al. 2017; Jia et al. 2022; Wei et al. 2023) or who are themselves “revolvers” who formerly served in government positions (Egerod and Hollenbach 2024; Katic and Kim 2024). Additional studies looking at specific types of employees focus on the role of employees’ personal political donations to campaigns and political parties. Investigations into employee donors have found that these individual employees frequently allocate their donations in ways that appear to reflect firm strategy rather than solely their personal political allegiances or ideology (Barber IV and Blake 2026; Teso 2025). Firms publicize their donation patterns to their employees so that employees are aware of which candidates their employer supports (Li 2018), and employees respond by increasing their donations to firm-supported candidates (Babenko et al. 2020; Stuckatz 2022a,b; Stuckatz et al. 2025; Teso 2025). Firms, in turn, appear to substitute donations from individual executives for donations from firm-level political action committees (PACs) when political candidates issue public pledges to refuse funding from corporate PACs (Richter and Werner 2017). However, because these studies focus on political donations, they only capture a small proportion of most firms’ workforce.¹

¹Under the United States’ campaign finance disclosure regime, only donors who give more than \$200 during a two-year election cycle are subject to public reporting requirements. As a result, public disclosure of donors is limited to individuals who are typically older and wealthier (Bonica and Grumbach 2025). Within a corporate context, this means that studies of employees

Typical rank and file employees have received comparatively little attention. This is surprising for several reasons. First, rank and file employees are far more numerous than employee donors or lobbyists. Given the centrality of employees as a key firm stakeholder, their absence from studies of CPA is striking. Second, even while most research into constituency-building has focused on external constituencies, it was also long recognized that internal constituencies may be an especially promising and attractive political asset for firms. Whereas research into external coalition management often highlights the difficulties of managing these ad hoc arrangements (Murphy et al. 2024; Walker 2012, 2014; Wen et al. 2024), employees are often assumed to be a “naturally aligned” constituency (Keim and Baysinger 1988) that is predisposed to being sympathetic and aligned with their firms’ political goals, (Keim and Zeithaml 1986; Lord 2000). Furthermore, employees can be organized cheaply and easily through standard firm communication channels (Hertel-Fernandez 2017, 2018). Workers can even be required to participate in political events as a condition of their employment (Secunda 2010). Third, firms’ political mobilization appears to be a growing phenomenon that has received increased attention in both media and in recent academic research. Employers’ coercion of workers for political ends was a standard feature of 19th century machine politics in the United States, and remains extremely common in electoral systems around the world, especially in less consolidated democracies and transitional regimes (Mares and Zhu 2015; Mares and Young 2016; Frye et al. 2014, 2019, 2025). Although employers in the United States do not appear to use some of the more coercive tactics found in less democratic regimes, scholars have documented that firms routinely use a variety of methods and messages to communicate their preferences to workers, including tactic or implicit threats about the loss of jobs or deterioration of working conditions (Hertel-Fernandez 2018). Given how common it is for workers to face political communication from their managers and supervisors, it is surprising that the strategic potential of such communication has been largely overlooked by strategy and management scholars.

2.4 Why Employees’ Votes Matter

How and why might employees political influence be strategically useful for companies? Why should firms invest resources or care how their employees’ political behavior? Employees can support firms’ strategic political goals in several ways (Hertel-Fernandez 2018). The constituency mobilization

not only capture a very small proportion of overall employees, but also a skewed and unrepresentative subset (Kagan et al. 2026; Stuckatz 2022a; Teso 2025).

literature documents a broad range of methods by which citizens can influence policy. For example, constituents can contact their legislators, submit comments to regulatory agencies, attend public hearings and community meetings, and attempt to persuade their neighbors by distributing fliers, knocking on doors, or speaking out using traditional or social media (Kollman 1998; Murphy et al. 2024; Walker and Rea 2014).

In addition to these measures often associated with social movements, employees can also make an impact through turning out to vote in elections. First and most directly, votes can shape political outcomes which are decided by elections. Election results affect which politicians serve in public office, which in turn affects whether policies favorable to firms are enacted. In “direct democracy” elections—i.e., ballot questions, referenda, or plebiscites—election results can directly determine which policies get enacted. For large firms and/or those with highly geographically concentrated employee bases, the potential for employees to vote as a block and deliver specific election outcomes can be a source of power (Bombardini and Trebbi 2011). In addition to the weight of employees themselves, the political influence of the workplace may “spill over” into workers’ families, friends, and neighbors (Hurst et al. 2025; Nickerson 2008), magnifying the impact.

While not all companies may be able to deliver enough votes to affect national elections, some firms may be able to make a difference in tight election contests. Hertel-Fernandez (2018) reports one Florida real estate executive who reached out to Republican (but not Democratic) employees to urge them to vote in the 2000 Presidential election (189). Given that his firm employed 8,000 employees and the ultimate margin of victory in the state was only 527 votes, the executive claims—not implausibly—that his actions could have swung the election in favor of George W. Bush. While this example may be atypical, even smaller firms may be able to make a significant difference in election results in lower-turnout elections, such as state and local contests.

Second, the weight of employees’ votes can provide firms with greater access to and influence over politicians. Within the market for public policy, policymakers respond better to firms which can deliver valuable goods. For example, studies have shown that legislators are more willing to schedule meetings with organizations whose representatives have personally donated to their re-election campaigns (Kalla and Broockman 2016), and that firms can also curry favor with policymakers by giving to charities in their home districts (Bertrand et al. 2020). Firms which can plausibly mobilize large numbers of votes could thus also benefit from greater access to policymakers. Suggestive evidence from Bombardini and

Trebbi (2011) suggest that firms with more employees are able to use their employee votes as leverage to gain access to politicians (see also Bombardini and Trebbi 2025).

2.5 When is Mobilization More Effective?

Existing research has focused on documenting that employee mobilization occurs and discussing the potential consequences for individual voters and for democratic functioning writ large. But shifting to a firm-centric lens raises a different set of questions: namely, when might we expect firms' attempts at mobilization to be more or less effective?

Longstanding theories of voting turnout model individual voters' decision whether or not to vote as a function of the costs and benefits (Downs 1957; Riker and Ordeshook 1968). In any given election, some voters will vote regardless, and some will never vote. However, there exist some population of voters for whom the decision whether or not to vote is marginal. Different characteristics of elections may likely affect the number of marginal voters and how open they may be to persuasion.

2.5.1 Election Timing

Elections vary in timing in important ways that affect the political and societal contexts. Unlike in some other democracies (e.g., Australia), turnout in the United States is not mandatory, and citizens thus can choose whether or not to vote. Whether or not citizens choose to vote depends in large part upon when elections are held. Quadrennial presidential elections draw the highest rates of turnout. Typically, over 60% of the voting-age population turns out to vote in presidential elections (e.g., 2016, 2020, and 2024). By contrast, turnout is lower in midterm elections, which feature elections for Congress but not for president. In state and local elections which occur in odd years or outside of the November election day window, turnout can be dramatically lower, even in single-digit percentages. As a result, the potential for firms to mobilize their workers will likely depend upon the "slack": i.e., the number of marginal and persuadable voters who exist among their workers. In high-turnout Presidential years, there may simply be few workers who could be persuaded to vote who were not already planning to do so.

2.5.2 Employee Material Stakes

Experimental work demonstrates that messages which emphasize the material stakes and importance of voting can increase voting turnout (Bursztyn et al. 2023; Huber et al. 2022). Voters who receive additional information—such as a message from their employer telling them about an important issue or reason to vote—these voters may be marginally likely to vote.

For firms, an implication is that firms' mobilization attempts are likely to be more successful at increasing turnout when the firms' reasons for engaging in corporate political activity overlap with employees' own material interests. This is not necessarily always the case. Firms' engagement corporate political activity may target goals that are not necessarily shared by workers. For example, firms may wish to build relationships with politicians across the political spectrum, while workers would prefer to only support politicians who share their political affiliation (Li 2018). Firms may also advocate for specific policy priorities that benefit the firm or its managers, but do not necessarily benefit workers. Some of the most common ballot question issues concern legalization and regulation of “sin” industries such as gambling and cannabis. In these cases, it is easy to see how casino workers and pot shop employees would be aligned with their employer in favoring more advantageous regulation. Yet in other cases, policy issues may be valued by the firm but lack a clear connection to employees well-being. For example, a change to businesses taxes might be opposed by business, but have limited salience for workers. Finally, some cases may actually pit employees and their employers against one another (e.g., on issues related to labor rights).

2.5.3 Partisan vs. Non-Partisan

Rational choice models of voter behavior theorize that one of the biggest impediments to voting turnout is the informational cost of deciding how to vote (Downs 1957; Grimmer et al. 2026). Because most citizens are not well-informed about public policy (Delli Carpini and Keeter 1996), voters tend to fall back upon cognitive heuristics to aid with decision-making (Chaiken et al. 1989; Gavetti et al. 2005). For most voters, partisanship constitutes a useful cognitive heuristic to aid with decision-making (Lupia 1994; Popkin 1994). For most adult Americans, party attachment is a durable social identity (Elder and O'Brian 2022; Green et al. 2002) that structures candidate choice (Campbell et al. 1960). Research finds that most adult American voters have strong and consistent partisan identities (Boxell et al. 2024).

Rather than partisanship simply being an aggregation of policy preferences, contemporary research views partisanship as a strong, core social identity (Ashforth and Mael 1989; Tajfel 1970). Partisanship is such a strong social identity that in many cases, voters will even change their policy views and ideological stances to match their partisanship rather than the other way around (Barber and Pope 2019; Dias and Lelkes 2022; Green et al. 2002; Lenz 2012), and may even vote against their direct material interests when doing so would conflict with their partisan identity (Jares and Malhotra 2024).

As a result, the marginal informational value and persuasive capacity of firm stances may be far lower in races where workers can fall back on partisan identity in deciding whether and how to vote. Firm mobilization is likely to be most effective at increasing turnout in political settings where workers lack other convenient sources of information or decision-making heuristics. In cases where partisan cues are absent—such as within-party primaries or non-partisan ballot question races—voters struggle to identify how to vote (Colao et al. 2026) and are generally more open to persuasive messages (Kalla and Broockman 2018). In these types of races where traditional partisan cues are absent, political endorsements from firms may be especially persuasive in motivating workers to turn out to vote (Lupia 1994; Lupia and McCubbins 1998). While scholars have typically emphasized the role of civil society advocacy groups as endorsers (e.g., Arceneaux and Kolodny 2009; Broockman et al. 2024), there is no reason to think that a trusted employers' political endorsement might not also influence individual workers' political attitudes and behavior. Especially on questions involving industry regulation, taxes tied to employment, or the continued operation of a local facility, employees might reasonably defer to the recommendations of their employer. By contrast, firms' messages may be unsuccessful at persuading workers in higher-salience partisan races, where voters already have access to partisan cues to help their decision-making calculus.

Firms' mobilization may also be more successful in non-partisan political contexts simply because political messages which are not explicitly partisan have the potential to reach more workers. Cross-partisan messages—i.e., a manager encouraging Democratic employees to vote for a Republican or vice versa—are likely to fall on deaf ears, as existing research shows cross-partisan persuasion is very rare (Broockman and Kalla 2023; Kalla et al. 2018), including in the workplace context (Chinoy and Koenen 2024; Yan 2025). As a result, partisan appeals are likely limited to those who already belong to the party or the small minority of workers who are independent and do not already lean towards a certain party.²

²Most nominally “independent” American voters in fact consistently lean towards one party or the other (Keith et al. 1992;

By contrast, a message which advocates for a specific policy rather than voting for a certain party has the potential to reach all voters. This matters because most workplaces are politically mixed. Despite earlier research which posited that organizations have a coherent organizational political ideology (Gupta et al. 2017), recent research highlights that the most organizations are politically heterogeneous and include employees across the political spectrum who are unlikely to share unified policy views (Frake et al. 2026; Kagan et al. 2026).

3 Empirical Setup

Prior studies have used surveys to document the extent to which managers and supervisors target workers with political messaging at work (Avenancio-León et al. 2026; Frye et al. 2025; Hertel-Fernandez 2017, 2018; Stuckatz et al. 2025). To assess whether these efforts are actually successful at changing workers' opinion, these studies have also relied upon survey measures to ask workers if outreach had caused them to change how they voted in the past (e.g., Avenancio-León et al. 2026; Hertel-Fernandez 2018). Unfortunately, self-reported recall of past voting behavior is notoriously inaccurate (Ansolabehere and Hersh 2012). To better measure whether firms' political activity is associated with increased political mobilization among employees, I instead rely upon actual validated administrative voting records. I am able to do this because voting turnout is a matter of public record in the United States. Although voting *choices* (i.e., the actual ballot) are secret, researchers can see whether any registered voter casts a ballot in any given election.

My empirical strategy thus involves first identifying firms which engage in corporate political activity across different types of elections. To do this, I collect comprehensive public records of firms' campaign finance activity across federal, state, and local U.S. elections. While external corporate spending is not a perfect proxy for firms' internal mobilization, prior work indicates that workers are highly aware of their firms' political stances, including whether and how their firm engages in political spending (Avenancio-León et al. 2026; Li 2018; Stuckatz et al. 2025). I then link firms' corporate spending with individual-level data which links workers' employment history with administrative turnout records, assembled as part of the Politics in the U.S. Workplace research initiative (politicsatwork.org, see Frake et al. 2026; Kagan et al. 2026). Using difference-in-differences that account for unique aspects of federal,

Klar 2014).

state, and local election calendars, campaign finance, and geography (Cengiz et al. 2019; de Chaisemartin and D’Haultfœuille 2023), I test to see whether workers’ voting turnout increases in elections in which their firm is politically active.

4 Data

4.1 Different Types of Elections

I focus on two different types of elections that differ across the dimensions identified in Section 2.5. First, I look at ballot questions. Ballot questions are a form of direct democracy practiced in U.S. states and local governments which ask voters to directly approve or reject policies. Ballot questions differ along several dimensions that can shed light on potential scope conditions. First, ballot questions differ in timing. Some are fielded alongside high-turnout presidential elections or midterms in November, while others are fielded in off-cycle odd years or other months. They also differ significantly across issue areas. Some ballot questions involve core issues with high stakes for both firms and employees (e.g., planning permissions for construction projects or legalization of industries), while others involve issues that have little to do with firms and their workers (e.g., abortion bans or changes to electoral procedures). Finally, ballot questions are non-partisan. This is not to say that ballot questions are non-ideological or that some ballot questions are not associated with one political party’s policy positions. However, unlike candidate elections, there is no simple partisan label for voters deciding whether or how to vote on a ballot question.

By way of contrast, I also consider partisan elections for the U.S. House of Representatives. Unlike ballot questions, these elections are held uniformly in November of every even year. They do not map to specific policy issues, but instead ask voters to choose between a Republican and Democratic presidential candidate (or a third party).

4.2 Data Sources

4.2.1 Corporate Political Activity

Ballot Measures To identify firm which engage in CPA on ballot measures, I start with the universe of all state ballot questions which took place between 2016–2024. I collect campaign finance data from the

National Institute on Money in Politics (now OpenSecrets) to identify corporate contributors to ballot measure committees. I supplement my state-level coverage with ballot measures from Washington and Colorado, where municipal campaign finance disclosures are available through state-level portals and were scraped programmatically, and from El Paso, TX and Jackson County, MO, identified through manual searches of Ballotpedia’s local ballot measure coverage.³

Campaign contribution records are based upon self-reported data. Donors provide their name and contact information, and the ballot question campaigns report to relevant state authorities. Unfortunately, campaign finance regulations enforce no standards on reporting which require contributors to produce a consistent name or identifier, which can lead to confusion across name variants, subsidiary-parent relationships, and other sources of ambiguity (Shanor et al. 2022). Additionally, contribution records in all states do not always reliably distinguish between individual contributors, for-profit companies, other political campaigns, advocacy groups, and other types of contributors. To produce standardized names focused on only for-profit companies, I use an LLM-assisted pipeline to identify corporate contributors. Full details of this production pipeline are described in Appendix D.

House Elections For House elections, I collect records on donations by corporate political action committees (PACs) from Open Secrets. Whereas linking ballot committee donors requires manual matching, I am able to rely upon an existing PAC-to-Compustat match published by Christensen et al. (2022, 2023).

4.2.2 Employment Histories

Individual workers’ employment histories come from Revelio Labs, which aggregates worker turnout histories from LinkedIn. Data from Revelio are increasingly used for research in management and organizational studies, as well as other social science disciplines (e.g., Briscoe and DesJardine 2026; Hurst et al. 2025; Mohliver and Raines 2024; Wang and Zhang 2026).

4.2.3 Voter Records

To understand these workers’ political behavior, I rely upon administrative data records in the form of U.S. voter files. In the United States, individuals’ vote turnout are a matter of public record. Voter file data

³Ballotpedia covers local elections in the 100 largest municipalities.

contain details of registered voters’ turnout history, partisan affiliation, and demographic information (Hersh 2015). However, voter files contain no information on employment, which has historically limited their use in management and strategy research. I overcome this limitation by relying upon detailed individual-level microdata from the Politics at Work project (politicsatwork.org), an ongoing research initiative linking employment records to administrative voter files.⁴ The voter file I use comes from L2, a nonpartisan data vendor, and contains approximately 180 million registered voters with their complete turnout history across all election types.

4.2.4 Election Maps

The House election research design depends upon workers being correctly assigned to the House district in which they were eligible to vote in each election. To ensure that voters are mapped to the correct House district in each election, I rely upon district shapefiles from the Census Bureau’s TIGER/LINE releases. In most cases, House districts remain constant from 2012-2020, with a significant number of districts being re-drawn in 2022 following the decennial Census, and a smaller number of House districts in certain states were re-drawn during the 2010s mid-decade due to court decisions.

4.3 Panel Construction

4.3.1 Worker Data: Linking Employment Records with Voting Records

Revelio Labs and the L2 voter file lack a common joining key, such as a social security number or date of birth. Furthermore, names on LinkedIn may differ from legal names recorded in voting records. To merge the two, I use the ensemble fuzzy matching procedure described in Kagan et al. (2026) and Frake et al. (2026) as part of the Politics in the U.S. Workplace (politicsatwork.org). Kagan et al. and Frake et al. make use of both longstanding record linkage methods (Enamorado et al. 2019; Enamorado 2021; Fellegi and Sunter 1969) as well as newer LLM-enabled methods (Ornstein 2025).⁵ Because of the enormous scale of potential matches, this procedure means first partitioning potential matches by location circa 2024. In other words, the procedure takes registered voters who were registered to vote in a particular metropolitan statistical area (MSA) in 2024 and attempt to match them with workers who

⁴Other Politics at Work research projects include Hurst et al. (2025); Frake et al. (2026); Kagan et al. (2026); White et al. (2025).

⁵Alternative, more deterministic approaches involve iterated matching with increasingly less stringent matching requirements and appear to yield broadly similar conclusions (Chinoy and Koenen 2024).

reported their employment location in the same MSA. This reduces the scale of required comparisons while preserving theoretically plausible matches. Second, matching is carried out using probabilistic record linkage following Enamorado et al. (2019), which weights multiple matching fields (name, gender, approximate age) by their discriminatory power. Third, the initial probabilistic match is supplemented with a machine learning approaches using large language model embeddings (Ornstein 2025) to capture name variations that string distance measures would miss. The matching procedure is described in detail in Kagan et al. (2026) and Frake et al. (2026) as well as in Frake et al. (2025).

Because the House election analysis requires assigning each worker to the congressional district in which they were registered at each election, I recover contemporaneous addresses from L2’s archived voter-file snapshots. For each election in the 2014–2022 window, I select the state-specific snapshot nearest to election day and join it to the analysis panel on L2’s persistent voter identifier (LALVOTERID), yielding the residential address at which each worker was registered at the time of each election (Appendix E.4 reports the specific snapshot used for each state and election). I then assign each address to a congressional district by performing a point-in-polygon spatial join against the Census Bureau’s TIGER/Line congressional district shapefiles for the appropriate redistricting cycle. For L2 snapshot vintages missing geographic coordinates, I resolve the voter’s census block from a later coordinate-bearing vintage and assign the census block to the appropriate congressional district.

4.3.2 Linking Workers with Companies

Ballot Questions State campaign finance data use non-standardized names and, since many politically active companies are private, lack commonly-used identifiers (e.g., Compustat’s gvkey), I implement a four-tier human-in-the-loop matching cascade involving multiple manual and fuzzy matching techniques. My method relies upon conventional string distance matches to capture minor name variants, semantic embeddings which can capture variants such as abbreviations (Dasanaik 2026; Ornstein 2025), and finally, the knowledge embedded within large language models (LLMs).⁶ I describe the procedure in

⁶These methods have different strengths and trade-offs. String distance can retrieve obvious variants and minor typos such as “Microsoft Co.” vs. “Microsoft Corp.” vs. “Microsotf” [sic]. Semantic similarity relies upon high-dimensional embeddings and so is often able to retrieve far more distant text strings: for example, “BofA” vs. “Bank of America.” Finally, LLMs contain massive amounts of knowledge about the world can impressively match subsidiaries and even map companies across M&A or name changes (especially very large commercial models as opposed to smaller local or open weight models). For example, modern LLMs are well aware that “Instagram,” “Meta,” “WhatsApp,” and “Facebook” all refer to the same corporate parent. As a result, LLMs can effectively evaluate and review the performance of other matching methods. A growing literature now demonstrates that LLMs dramatically outperform human coders on wide range of tasks (Bermejo et al. 2025; Choi et al. 2026).

Appendix D.

House Elections Linking worker records with corporate PACs is comparatively straightforward. Revelio’s mapping contains standardized corporate identifiers, including Compustat GVKEY for publicly-traded companies. To link companies with their PAC, I use the FEC-to-Compustat crosswalk produced by Christensen et al. (2022, 2023). Within the PAC linkages provided by Christensen et al., 905 PAC committees give to at least one House candidate during 2014–2022 and have a non-zero number of matched workers from the Revelio-L2 merge. Because some corporations have multiple PACs associated with different subsidiaries, these 905 PACs map to 808 unique companies.⁷

4.3.3 Matching

For ballot questions, within each state $\times$ election episode, I match treated employees to control voters using coarsened exact matching (Iacus et al. 2012). Control voters are drawn from a donor pool of employees in the same state whose employers do not mobilize on any ballot measure in the state at any point in the sample. Treated and control workers are assigned to cells defined by partisanship, gender, four-digit NAICS industry, and ten-year age band, with band boundaries at ages 30, 40, 50, 60, 70, and 80. Treated workers in cells without an eligible control are dropped from the estimation sample. Where a cell holds more than ten eligible controls per treated worker, I retain ten controls per treated worker, drawn at random with a fixed seed. Each treated worker receives a weight of one, and each retained control in cell s receives $(n_s^T / n_s^C)(N^C / N^T)$, where n_s^T and n_s^C count treated and retained control workers in the cell and N^T and N^C count them across the episode, so that the weighted control distribution across cells reproduces the treated distribution. Firms with fewer than ten matched treated workers in an episode are excluded from that episode.

⁷86 companies are associated with more than PAC. These include operating conglomerates whose subsidiaries retain their own committees after acquisition, e.g., AT&T (AT&T, DIRECTV, WarnerMedia) and Berkshire Hathaway (nine subsidiary committees). Others are investment firms whose portfolio companies each maintain a committee (e.g., the Carlyle Group and KKR).

Table 1: Ballot Measure Sample: Overall Composition

Unique firms	1,868
Unique ballot measures	303
Statewide	264
Local	39
States	39
Local jurisdictions (in 4 states)	24
Unique elections (jurisdiction $\times$ date)	168
Year range	2016–2024
Firm $\times$ measure pairs	3,034

Table 2: Ballot Measure Sample: Worker Characteristics

	Treated	Control	Std. Diff.	Equiv. p
N (person-episodes)	1,659,392	5,304,954		
Unique voters	786,321	2,840,527		
<i>Demographics</i>				
Age	49.9 (14.7)	49.9 (14.7)	−0.002	<0.001
Female	0.485	0.484	0.001	<0.001
Male	0.515	0.516	−0.001	<0.001
<i>Partisanship</i>				
Lean Democrat	0.530	0.529	0.001	<0.001
Lean Republican	0.410	0.411	−0.002	<0.001
Independent	0.061	0.060	0.002	<0.001
<i>Employment</i>				
Seniority (1–7)	2.6 (1.6)	2.7 (1.6)	−0.040	<0.001

Notes: A single voter can appear in multiple episodes if their employer contributed to more than one ballot measure; person-episodes is the unit of analysis. Seniority is the Revelio Labs 1–7 scale. Standard difference is difference in means divided by the pooled standard deviation. Equivalent p -value is from two one-sided t -tests (TOST) equivalence procedure (Spenkuch et al. 2023); the reported value is the larger of the two one-sided p -values, under the null that the standardized difference exceeds ± 0.1 standard deviations. $p < 0.05$ indicates that equivalence within the ± 0.1 SD margin can be confirmed.

Table 3: Ballot Measure Sample: Firm Characteristics

<i>Panel A: Summary Statistics</i>						
Characteristic	Firms (N)	Mean	Median	SD	Min	Max
Linked workers per firm $\times$ state	3,004	1,322	128	5,179	1	81,918
Estimated measures per firm	1,868	1.6	1.0	1.4	1	18
<i>Panel B: Industry Composition</i>						
Industry	Firms		%			
Construction (23)	233		12.5			
Professional Services (54)	220		11.8			
Manufacturing (31–33)	211		11.3			
Finance & Insurance (52)	185		9.9			
Health Care (62)	152		8.1			
Real Estate (53)	131		7.0			
Accommodation & Food (72)	97		5.2			
Retail Trade (44–45)	89		4.8			
Agriculture (11)	79		4.2			
Wholesale Trade (42)	77		4.1			
Mining & Extraction (21)	74		4.0			
Utilities (22)	64		3.4			
Arts & Entertainment (71)	61		3.3			
Information (51)	55		2.9			
Educational Services (61)	44		2.4			
Transportation (48–49)	38		2.0			
Public Administration (92)	32		1.7			
Admin & Waste Services (56)	21		1.1			
Management of Companies (55)	3		0.2			
Other Services (81)	2		0.1			

Notes: In Panel A, some firms are active in multiple states.

Table 4: Ballot Measure Sample: Ballot Measure Characteristics

	<i>N</i>	%
<i>Policy type</i> (all 303 measures)		
Industry Regulation	46	15.2
Electoral & Governance	42	13.9
Education	41	13.5
Tax & Fiscal	37	12.2
Social & Civil Rights	32	10.6
Environment / Energy	27	8.9
Other	22	7.3
Healthcare	21	6.9
Labor & Employment	19	6.3
Housing & Land	15	5.0
Project / Bond	1	0.3
<i>Material stake</i> (2,888 firm × measure pairs)		
High	348	12.0
Medium	1,296	44.9
Low	1,244	43.1
<i>Election timing</i> (all 303 measures)		
Presidential	147	48.5
Midterm	96	31.7
Off-year	39	12.9
Other	21	6.9

Notes: Policy type and material stake categories are defined in Appendix F. Policy type is assessed for each ballot measure. Material stake is firm-specific and is defined for each firm × episode pair. Presidential, midterm, and off-year elections occur in November; “Other” includes all non-November elections.

Table 5: Corporate PAC Sample: Composition

Corporate PACs (employer-linked)	905
Compustat parents (clustering unit)	825
Employer records	2,471
Workers	3,452,268
Worker-elections	8,750,637
House districts	376
States	49
Elections (2014–2022)	5

Notes: The analysis universe is the 905 employer-linked corporate PACs that fund at least one House candidate during 2014–2022. All counts are from the estimation sample after the ten-worker firm-cell floor and stable-map restriction.

Table 6: Corporate PAC Sample: Firm Characteristics

	<i>N</i>	Mean	Median	SD	Min	Max
Distinct employer IDs per PAC	905	8.4	4.0	14.3	1	201
Distinct employees per firm	801	8,899	3,035	18,163	12	201,186
Employee worker-years per firm	801	23,569	7,953	47,652	25	505,098
House districts funded per PAC, by map	905	92.6	43.0	125.5	1	770
Employee worker-years in funded districts per firm	801	9,252	1,285	27,049	0	303,583
House candidates funded per PAC	905	83.1	39.0	110.3	1	709
House candidates already funded by 2012 per PAC	905	58.6	23.0	91.9	0	645
Candidate relationships begun, 2014–2022, per PAC	905	58.2	32.0	70.2	0	392
Candidate relationships ended, candidate still running, per PAC	905	38.7	20.0	44.7	0	261
House candidates funded per district	905	1.02	1.00	0.06	1.00	2.19
Democratic House candidates funded per PAC	905	31.9	13.0	45.9	0	282
Republican House candidates funded per PAC	905	51.2	25.0	67.2	0	430

Notes: *N* is the number of units each statistic is computed over. Giving rows are per PAC (905); workforce rows are per company (801), because a company may sponsor several PACs and aggregating to the company de-duplicates workers. House giving is direct candidate contributions (FEC type 24K) to two-party House candidates. “Already funded by 2012” looks back to cycles 2008–2012; “relationships ended” counts a candidate a committee funded and then did not fund at the next election while that candidate was still running.

Table 7: Corporate PAC Sample: Worker Characteristics

	<i>N</i>	Mean	Median	SD	Min	Max
Age	1,640,120	53.2	53.0	14.4	20	100
Female	1,632,458	0.423	0.000	0.494	0	1
Male	1,632,458	0.577	1.000	0.494	0	1
Lean Republican	1,642,277	0.447	0.000	0.497	0	1
Lean Democrat	1,642,277	0.503	1.000	0.500	0	1
Independent	1,642,277	0.050	0.000	0.218	0	1
Seniority (1–7)	1,642,277	2.80	2.00	1.55	1	7

Notes: Statistics are for treated workers, defined as those whose employer’s PAC funds a House candidate in the worker’s district. Demographics are from the enriched voter panels (step-06), which cover a subset of states; partisanship is from the worker panel and covers the full sample.

4.4 Variables

4.4.1 Independent Variable: Employer Political Activity

For the main ballot measure and House election analyses, the treatment variable is defined for each individual workers' employer. A worker is treated if they were employed at a politically active firm. For ballot questions, this treatment applies to all workers in the state or local jurisdiction in which the measure is up for a vote. For House elections, treatment is assigned to workers employed at the firm and who also reside in the district where the firm supports a candidate.

4.4.2 Outcome (Dependent) Variable: Worker Turnout

I define *turnout* by whether a worker turned out to vote in a particular election. L2 records vote turnout in each state snapshot but does not distinguish between cases in which a voter was eligible to vote but declined and cases in which a voter was not eligible (e.g., because they were not yet 18 or were registered to vote in another state at the time). To disambiguate between registered voters who declined to vote and those who were not registered, I use the registration date and code elections prior to the registration date as missing rather than failure to turn out to vote.

4.4.3 Moderating Variables

Ballot Question Election Timing My sample includes ballot questions which were fielded in elections held at different points in the electoral calendar. Ballot questions are most commonly held in November during even years, either coinciding with quadrennial Presidential elections or midterm elections. Other elections are held in November of “off-cycle” years (i.e., odd years) and a small number are held at other points throughout the calendar (i.e., not November). Baseline turnout differs dramatically depending upon timing. Presidential-year turnout can exceed 70% in many states, while midterm turnout is somewhat lower and off-cycle elections or those not held in November can be as low as 10–20%. I define four different timing dummy variables: Presidential-year Novembers, midterm Novembers, odd-year Novembers, and elections held in other periods.

Ballot Question Material Stake For ballot questions, I measure the extent to which a ballot question proposal has a potential material effect on employees' jobs, income, or working conditions. I code this

using a multiple LLM coding agents and rate each firm $\times$ ballot question on a 1–10 scale, as well as a categorical grouping into high (7–10), medium (4–6), and low (1–3). Appendix F describes the full coding procedure.

Ballot Question Policy Domain I define a ballot measure’s *policy type* as its primary substantive policy domain. I classified each measure from its description using a ten-category codebook. Appendix F provides the full procedure.

4.4.4 Other Variables

Worker Partisanship Partisanship is used to match treated workers with potential controls, as well as in split-sample analyses of turnout effects in partisan House elections. Because prior literature suggests that most unregistered or putatively “independent” voters display consistent “lean” towards one of the two major U.S. parties—and because voters in some states do not register by party—I use imputed partisanship measures based upon the method described by Frake et al. (2026) and Kagan et al. (2026), which is turn based upon techniques developed by (Brown and Enos 2021). These imputed measures incorporate official party registration in the majority of the states, along with past voting history in partisan primaries. In cases where explicit partisan labels are entirely absent, the method relies upon Bayesian forecasts that incorporate local geography and demographics.

Worker Age Individual workers’ age relies upon official dates of birth from the L2 voter file.

Worker Gender Individual workers’ gender comes from L2.

Employer NAICS Codes I rely upon Revelio’s industry classifications for firms. Revelio assigns NAICS codes to each employer. When aggregating multiple subsidiaries of the same firm, NAICS codes may differ across different subsidiaries.

5 Ballot Questions

5.1 Estimation Strategy

My sample consists of 303 unique ballot measures. Because these elections took place across 168 unique elections across 39 states which differ in terms of timing, they do not follow a common unit-time structure. Because of differences in election timing and state-by-state election schedules, I do not aggregate across all elections. Instead, I use the stacked difference-in-differences approach of Cengiz et al. (2019). This means that turnout in a specific election is compared with prior elections which took place in the same state and in the same timing period—presidential elections with prior presidential elections, midterms with prior midterms, etc.

I fit the following weighted linear probability model:

$$Y_{is\tau} = \beta (D_{is} \times \text{Post}_{s\tau}) + \alpha_{is} + \lambda_{s\tau} + \varepsilon_{is\tau}, \quad (1)$$

where $Y_{is\tau}$ equals one if voter i in episode stack s votes in relative election period τ ; D_{is} indicates that the voter belongs to the treated cohort in that stack; and $\text{Post}_{s\tau}$ equals one at the treatment election ($\tau = 0$) in the headline window, $\tau \in \{-3, -2, -1, 0\}$. Because different election families (i.e., timing) have very different levels of turnout (i.e., Presidential years vs. off-cycle), I define each stack's relative unit time only for elections of the same type (for example, a 2022 midterm election would be compared with 2018, 2014, and 2010). The terms α_{is} and $\lambda_{s\tau}$ are voter-by-stack and stack-by-relative-period fixed effects, respectively.

I estimate equation (1) by weighted least squares, carrying forward the matching weights and rescaling them so that each episode stack receives equal total weight. The coefficient β is therefore the pooled average treatment effect on turnout at the treatment election. Standard errors are clustered by firm and episode stack.

5.2 Results

5.2.1 Main Results

Table 8 presents my results. Employees at politically active firms turn out to vote at 1.86 percentage points higher rates than matched employees. While the overall effect is positive and significant, context

Table 8: Employee Mobilization and Voter Turnout: Stacked Difference-in-Differences

	<i>Dependent variable: turnout</i>			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Treated $\times$ Post	0.019*** (0.003)	0.009*** (0.003)	0.000 (0.005)	0.012*** (0.003)
... $\times$ Midterm (vs. presidential)		0.013*** (0.005)		
... $\times$ Off-cycle (vs. presidential)		0.026 (0.016)		
... $\times$ Other timing (vs. presidential)		0.026 (0.022)		
... $\times$ Stake score (1–10)			0.005*** (0.002)	
... $\times$ Medium stake (vs. low)				0.004 (0.005)
... $\times$ High stake (vs. low)				0.049*** (0.015)
Num. Obs.	19,193,668	19,193,668	19,193,668	19,193,668
N treated workers	786,321	786,321	786,321	786,321
N control workers	2,840,527	2,840,527	2,840,527	2,840,527
N states	39	39	39	39
N ballot questions	303	303	303	303
N active firms	1617	1617	1617	1617
Voter $\times$ Episode FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Episode $\times$ Period FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Clustering		Firm + Episode		

Notes: * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$. Each column reports a stacked difference-in-differences regression on the combined statewide and local sample. Column 2 uses presidential-year November as the timing reference and retains midterm November, off-cycle November, and all other election dates. Columns 3–4 restrict to episodes with a classified treated firm–measure stake; the continuous interaction is the change per one-point increase on the 1–10 scale, and the categorical specification uses low stake as the reference.

significantly moderates the effect. The effect is smaller in high-salience presidential elections, where turnout is already high and firms may have limited headroom to turn out additional marginal voters. Column 2 shows that this effect is larger in elections which occur outside of the quadrennial Presidential cycle. Relative to presidential elections, the effect is 1.3 percentage points larger in midterm elections. The off-cycle and non-November interactions are also positive, but their confidence intervals include zero. In addition to timing, the content of the issue also appears to matter. Ballot questions with high material stakes for employees have larger turnout effects, as seen in Column 3 and 4.

Appendix A.3 reports the event-study form of this specification. Neither pre-period coefficient is distinguishable from zero.

5.2.2 Additional Results

Appendix A reports a number of additional analyses. Figure A2 depicts the marginal effects shown in Table 8 (i.e., election timing and material stake), as well as additional marginal effects. I find no significant differences by geography (i.e., state vs. local elections) or the origin of the ballot question (i.e., whether they were placed on the ballot as a result of a citizens' petition or referred by the state legislature). I also find no effect of workers' seniority, as measured by Revelio's 1–7 seniority measure.

As a supplement to the material stake analysis, I also classify ballot questions into ten separate issue domains. Appendix F documents the coding rules I use to classify ballot measures by issue. The results appear mostly consistent with material stake serving as an important moderator, although with ten separate dummy variables, few marginal effects differ from one another at conventional significance levels. Issue domains where firms and workers are unlikely to share clear material stakes, such as social and civil rights questions, have the smallest estimated marginal effect on turnout, whereas the largest is for environmental and energy questions, many of which involve permitting or project approvals that have the potential to create jobs for workers.

5.2.3 Supplementary Analysis: Direction of Vote

Finally, I also conduct additional suggestive analysis about the *direction* of the vote. Because ballots are secret, I cannot definitively say that increased worker turnout meant that workers voted in the direction favored by their firm. Because individual employees' votes can never be observed, I focus on

precincts (voting tabulation districts), and compare across neighboring precincts which differ in the proportion of treated workers. Because workers of any particular firm are unlikely to ever constitute significant portion of a given election precinct (which typically range from 1,000–2,000 voters), the effect of individual workers is likely to be small, but when one considers the potential for secondary persuasion effects to “spill over” (i.e., from workers to family members and close neighbors), it is possible that detectable effects could be found at the precinct level.

Precinct-level data are available in seven and include 31 ballot questions. I define the treatment variable as the number of politically active workers as a share of the total number of ballots cast on a measure. I exclude measures where firms mobilize on both sides of an ballot question. I compare across all precincts within a state, using Conley spatial-HAC standard errors to account for spatial autocorrelation. When comparing all precincts within a state, the effect is 4.13 and is statistically significant. However, across-precinct differences may be driven in large part by residential sorting among different types of workers. In a more restricted sample, which limits comparisons to adjoining (neighboring) precincts to better account for residential sorting, the effect size falls to 0.20, just outside the conventional 5% significance threshold ($p = .054$). While these results are cross-sectional and associational rather than causal, they are consistent with workers’ mobilization manifesting not just as additional *turnout*, but also potentially shifting vote shares in favor of firms’ preferred outcomes. Full results and details are available in Appendix B.

6 House Elections

6.1 Estimation Strategy

My analysis of House elections is limited to publicly-traded firms with a political action committee (PAC). Because the types of companies which have an established PAC differ from politically inactive companies by definition (they are more politically active), my analysis focuses not on comparing between companies with PACs and companies without PACs, but instead exploits spatial and temporal variation in companies’ giving among companies that do have PACs. During the sample period (2014-2022), companies with corporate PACs give to an average of 58 distinct candidates for the U.S. House of Representatives (see Table 7). Because House members are assigned to one of 435 geographical districts, this means that some workers at firms with PACs are exposed to political activity because their firm

gives to a candidate in their district, whereas reside in a district in which their firm does not donate in the local race.

Figure 1 displays the extent of PAC funding in each district from 2014 to 2022. Darker shades denote districts where candidates received support from a greater number of unique PACs. Some districts receive consistently large numbers of donations. For example, Oregon's 2nd district (in the east of the state) received among the highest number of corporate PAC donations because Greg Walden, a Republican, was chair of the Committee on Energy and Commerce until 2020.

Identification comes from *changes* in firms' PAC donations within a district from election to election. Figure 2 shows, for each pair of consecutive elections, where corporate PACs start funding a House district they had not funded in the previous election (left) and where they stop (right).

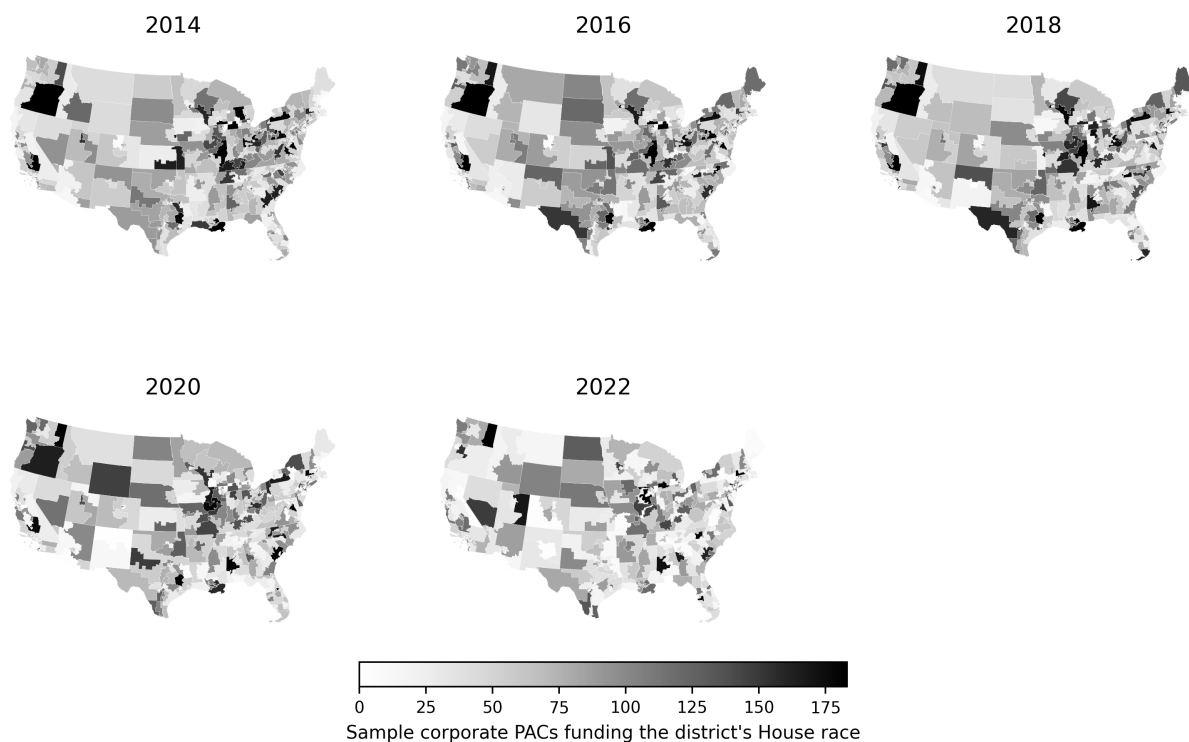


Figure 1: Committees funding each House district's race, by election. Per-district count of corporate committees that gave to the district's House candidate in each cycle. Lower 48 only; Alaska, Hawaii and DC are dropped for the equal-area frame.

To estimate the effect of PAC spending on employee turnout, I target the following specification,

$$y_{it(f,d)} = \beta D_{it} + \mu_i + \lambda_{dt} + \varepsilon_{it}, \quad (2)$$

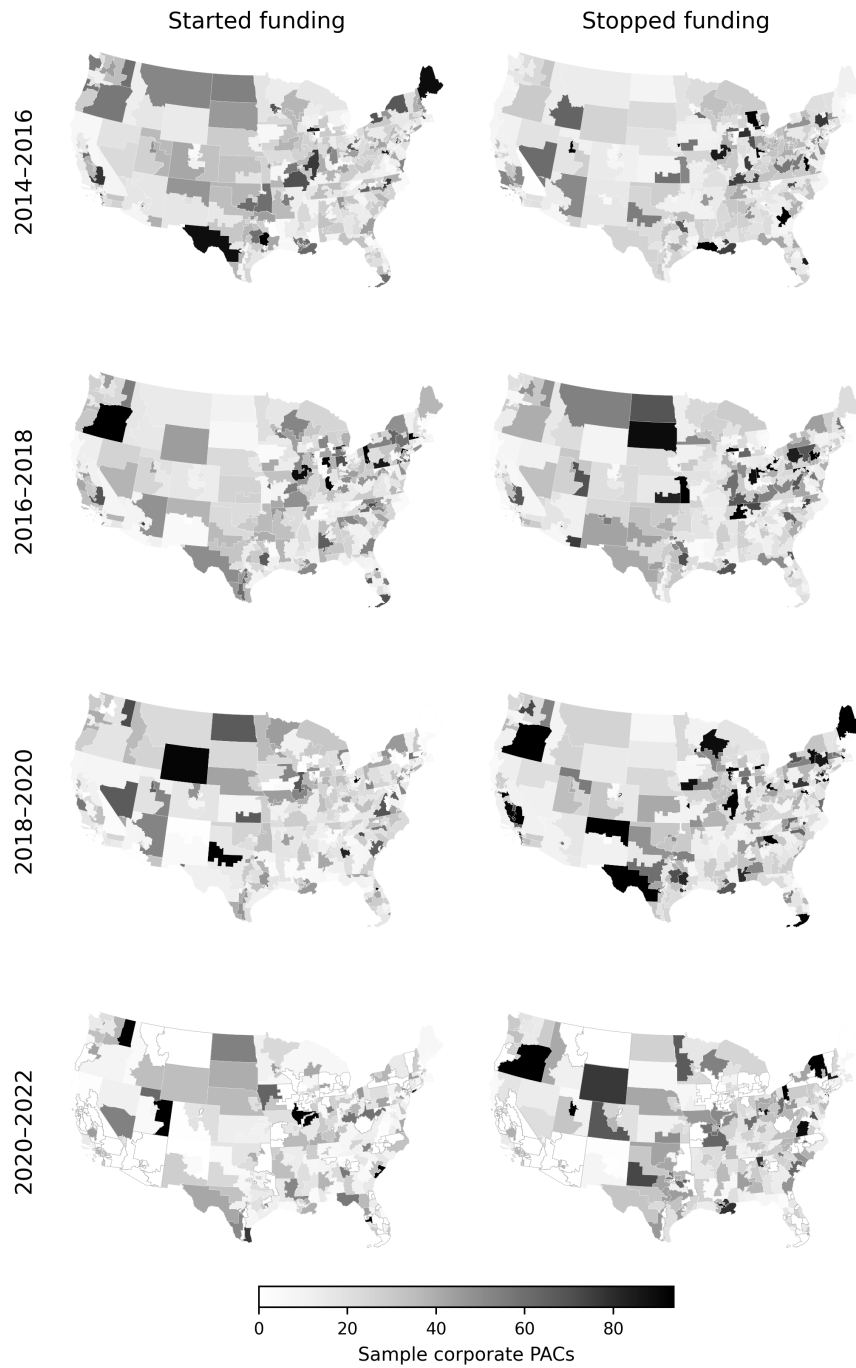


Figure 2: Committees starting and stopping funding by House district. Left: committees funding the district's race this election that did not fund it at the previous election. Right: committees that funded it at the previous election and not this one. Shared scale. For 2020–2022, districts are counted only where the incumbent ran again under the same district number; the others (left blank) are redrawn seats. Lower 48 only.

where $y_{it} \in \{0, 1\}$ reflects whether worker i at firm f and living in district d votes in election t , D_{it} is a treatment indicator,⁸ μ_i and λ_{dt} are worker and district $\times$ election (race) fixed effects, respectively, and ε_{it} is an error term. By including district $\times$ election (race) fixed effects, I limited the comparison to workers residing in the same House district, to account for race-specific competitive dynamics. Because treatment status is both staggered and non-absorbing (i.e., corporate PACs can and do start and stop donating to candidates in a given district), I estimate Equation 2 via the de Chaisemartin and D’Haultfoeuille (2023) difference-in-difference estimator, which is built around “switchers.”⁹ As in Equation 2’s, comparisons are limited to workers within the same district. My main reported specification focuses on “entries”—i.e., firms which begin funding a district having not done so in the previous election, but I also report “exits” and the pooled effect across both entries and exists. Because the de Chaisemartin and D’Haultfoeuille (2023) estimator does not directly admit fixed effects, I include a nonparametric time district time trend in lieu of λ_{dt} . Standard errors are clustered at the company level; I limit my sample to firm $\times$ district cells with at least ten workers.

6.2 Main Results

Table 9 reports the main estimates. Across entry events (i.e., when a PAC begins funding a candidate in a worker’s district), exits (i.e., when a PAC stops funding a candidate in a district), and pooled across both, all estimated effects are close to zero and insignificant.

6.3 Additional Results

6.3.1 Partisan Alignment

The main specification considers the potential turnout effect across all workers. However, workers who belong to the opposing party relative to the candidate that their firm supports may not be motivated to turn out, while those who belong to the same party as the candidate may be more likely to turn out. To account for this, I replace β in Equation 2 with four separate dummy coefficients for each combination of workers’ party and the party of the candidate. Table 10 displays the results; partisan (mis)alignment does not alter the main results.

⁸Worker i ’s treatment status is technically given by $D_{f(i,t)d(i,t)t}$, which I abbreviate to D_{it} for simplicity.

⁹A firm-district is a switcher at t if $D_{fdt} \neq D_{fd,t-1}$.

Table 9: Employee turnout and the firm's PAC entry into the employee's own congressional district

	<i>Dependent variable: turnout</i>		
	(1) Entries	(2) Exits	(3) Pooled
Effect on turnout (pp)	-0.26 (0.25)	0.73 (0.76)	0.57 (0.64)
Observations	7,075,505	7,075,505	7,075,505
Workers	2,108,563	2,108,563	2,108,563
House districts	376	376	376
Elections	5	5	5
States	49	49	49
Compustat parents	765	765	765
Switching units	77,866	383,419	461,285

Notes: All columns are estimated with the de Chaisemartin and D'Haultfoeuille (2023) switching estimator. Column (1) includes firm–districts that switch into funding. Column (2) includes firm–districts that switch out of funding. Column (3) pools both. Standard errors are clustered at the Compustat parent company. * $p < 0.05$; ** $p < 0.01$; *** $p < 0.001$. Two-sided, from the coefficient and its clustered standard error.

Table 10: The turnout effect by the funded candidate's party and the worker's partisan lean, pooled over entries and exits

	<i>Dependent variable: turnout</i>			
	Democratic candidates		Republican candidates	
	(1) Democrats	(2) Republicans	(3) Democrats	(4) Republicans
Effect on turnout (pp)	-0.05 (0.34)	-0.23 (0.46)	0.31 (0.48)	0.71 (0.91)
Observations	2,638,034	1,701,482	2,231,549	2,540,703
Workers	819,930	514,671	702,342	742,456
House districts	375	375	376	376
Elections	5	5	5	5
States	49	49	49	49
Compustat parents	749	751	759	759
Switching units	108,648	56,144	103,187	167,725

Notes: All columns are estimated with the de Chaisemartin and D'Haultfoeuille (2023) switching estimator. All columns pool both entries (firm–districts which switch into funding) and exits (firm–districts which switch out of funding). Standard errors are clustered at the Compustat parent company. * $p < 0.05$; ** $p < 0.01$; *** $p < 0.001$.

6.3.2 Alternative Samples to Account for Endogenous Selection Into Treatment

A worker's treatment status may change for two reasons. First, it may change as a result of the worker's own decision to change employers or to move across district lines. Second, it may change as a result of a firm's decision to start or stop giving to a particular candidate in a particular district. One concern is that firm's decisions about which candidate to support may be in some way endogenous if it is related to firms' expectations of how their employees may react. Li (2018) shows that PAC's spending allocations are constrained by the partisan preference of firm employees. While her study focuses on elite donor employees—who arguably have far more leverage and visibility—it is also possible that firms may consider the partisanship of their employees within a certain district in deciding whether or not to support a candidate.¹⁰

To better account for this potential endogenous selection into treatment, I re-fit Equation 2, disaggregating based upon multiple mechanisms by which treatment may occur. First, in Column (2), I look only at treatment changes which occurred because workers moved across district lines, rather than firms deciding to start or stop funding candidates. Second, I look at House members who move committee assignments to join (or leave) committees with oversight over a firm's specific industry, another plausibly exogenous driver of firms' donation behavior (Fouirnaies and Hall 2018; Powell and Grimmer 2016). To determine which committees are relevant for different industries, I adopt the measure designed by Teso (2025) (see also Bertrand et al. (2020)) and identify important committee for each industry (2-digit NAICS as those which receive the largest lobbying from companies in that industry. As such, Column (3) shows only changes in treatment status which are induced by a House representative joining or departing a committee assignment with oversight over a specific industry.¹¹ Appendix C.5 describes the committee-assignment events behind Column (3). Results are shown in Table 11.

6.4 Other Results

Appendix Figure A6 plots the entries estimate by election relative to entry. Appendix C.2 reports an alternative triple-difference specification that also compares the same firm's workers across districts

¹⁰In all likelihood, this would seem to bias results in favor of finding a positive effect. Presumably, firms would be more likely to support candidates who are likely to be popular among their employees who reside in their district, rather than supporting candidates who are unpopular among their employees.

¹¹Following Teso (2025), for important general committees without specific industry relevance (i.e., Appropriations and Energy and Commerce), I use subcommittee assignments.

within a state. Appendix C.3 reports two further sample restrictions, one excluding firms that also fund a Senate candidate in the worker’s state and one limited to races in which the sitting member stood again. Results are consistently insignificant.

Table 11: Employee turnout by the mechanism that changed exposure

	<i>Dependent variable: turnout</i>		
	(1) Firm entry / exit	(2) Employer change	(3) Committee role
Effect on turnout, entries (pp)	-0.27 (0.25)	0.63 (0.48)	-0.03 (0.31)
Effect on turnout, exits (pp)	0.84 (0.77)	-0.06 (0.40)	-0.15 (0.45)
Effect on turnout, pooled (pp)	0.67 (0.66)	0.20 (0.31)	-0.09 (0.27)
Observations	6,806,595	4,864,568	6,767,788
Workers	2,019,481	1,504,617	2,007,574
House districts	376	376	376
Elections	5	5	5
States	49	49	49
Compustat parents	765	786	765
Switching units	439,231	27,716	458,789

Notes: All columns are estimated with the de Chaisemartin and D’Haultfoeulle (2023) switching estimator. Column (1) includes workers for whom the change in treatment status occurs because a firm begins or ends funding a race in their district. Column (2) includes workers whose treatment status changes because workers move districts. Column (3) includes districts where the incumbent in the district joins a committee with relevance for a specific company. Standard errors are clustered at the Compustat parent company. * $p < 0.05$; ** $p < 0.01$; *** $p < 0.001$.

7 Discussion and Conclusion

Researchers have long recognized the importance of the workplace as a political arena. Recent studies have highlighted that the influence of the workplace on workers is not necessarily just limited to material conditions, economic factors, or socialization from peer exposure, but also can come about from explicit political messaging. Recent studies have even argued that firms can mobilize workers’ for their own political goals, and that firms can thus function as “political machines” (Hertel-Fernandez 2017), “vote brokers,” (Frye et al. 2025), or “electoral monopsonies” (Avenancio-León et al. 2026). These studies have tended to emphasize the normative consequences of this behavior for politics, but these claims also suggest that the political mobilization of employees can have strategic significance in supporting firm’s corporate political activity efforts and their nonmarket strategy overall.

I explain why this might be the case. By mobilizing their employees to turn out to vote, firms

can not only potentially shape electoral outcomes, but they can also gain a valuable currency—i.e., votes—that can be translated into influence over and access to policymakers. While previous work has emphasized constituency building targeted at external constituents, I explain why internal constituencies (i.e., workers) can also unlock strategic benefits for firms.

Using linked data covering campaign finance, individual workers’ histories, and administrative records of voting turnout, I find that firms do have the capacity to mobilize their workers, but that this capacity is context-dependent. Across 303 ballot questions in 39 states, workers at firms that contributed to a ballot-question campaign turned out at rates 1.86 percentage points higher than matched workers at firms that did not. In elections for the U.S. House of Representatives, a firm’s PAC beginning to fund the candidate in a worker’s own district has no detectable effect on that worker’s turnout (−0.26 percentage points).

Several factors appear to moderate the extent to which firms can succeed at mobilizing their workers. First, election timing. The increase in turnout is smallest in presidential-year November elections, when baseline turnout is already high. In lower-turnout elections, firm’s capacity to increase turnout appears larger. Second, the material stakes facing employees also can affect the extent of employee mobilization. In elections where there are ballot questions with high stakes for employees, turnout increases are 4.93 percentage points higher than in low-stakes elections. Third, I do not find clear evidence of turnout increases in partisan elections. Because partisan identity is a strong social identity (Green et al. 2002) that shapes voters’ decisions in candidate elections (Campbell et al. 1960; Lupia 1994), the employer mobilization has little marginal capacity to increase turnout, even when firms support a candidate who belongs to the same party as workers.

These findings have several implications. First, they can speak to the strategic implications of firms’ political mobilization of employees by identifying clear scope conditions. Previous work has suggested that employers can act as political machines, vote brokers, or electoral monopsonies (Hertel-Fernandez 2017; Frye et al. 2025; Avenancio-León et al. 2026), but have not necessarily identified when such efforts may be more or less successful. Adopting a firm-centric perspective can, on the one hand, provide potential guidance on when we might expect firms’ mobilization efforts to be more or less successful as a tool of nonmarket strategy. On the other hand, it can also assuage potential concerns that employer mobilization can have outsized impacts on democratic governance or lead to the wholesale coercion of individual workers. This evidence suggests that firms’ mobilization is quite limited and depends in large

part on overlapping interests between employees and firms, rather than employers exploiting unequal power relations.

Second, these results reinforce the potential importance of employees as a stakeholder for non-market strategy. To the extent that employees feature in studies of nonmarket strategy, they are often discussed not as a strategically beneficial resource, but as a constraint on firm behavior (Burbano 2021; Hurst and Lee 2025; McKean and King 2024; White et al. 2025). When employees do play a role in corporate political activity, it is often only highly specific types of employees who occupy specific roles as corporate lobbyists or who are wealthy elite donors who channel funds to politicians in support of their firms' political goals. By highlighting the potential for firms to mobilize their employees for political aims, this study thus repositions employees as a strategic asset alongside external constituencies.

Third and finally, these results speak to a growing body of literature that considers how organizations in general—and firms in particular—can affect broader societal challenges (Barley 2007, 2010; Battilana et al. 2025; Flammer et al. 2025). By linking firm strategy and organizational behavior with an important discussion of the political significance of the workplace occurring in other disciplines, these findings can build upon a growing body of work which considers the role of corporations vis-a-vis societal challenges.

References

- Abrams, S., Iversen, T., and Soskice, D. (2011). Informal Social Networks and Rational Voting. *British Journal of Political Science*, 41(2):229–257.
- Allport, G. W. (1954). *The Nature of Prejudice*. Addison-wesley edition.
- Ansolabehere, S. and Hersh, E. (2012). Validation: What Big Data Reveal About Survey Misreporting and the Real Electorate. *Political Analysis*, 20(4):437–459.
- Arceneaux, K. and Kolodny, R. (2009). Educating the Least Informed: Group Endorsements in a Grassroots Campaign. *American Journal of Political Science*, 53(4):755–770.
- Ashforth, B. E. and Mael, F. (1989). Social identity theory and the organization. *The Academy of Management Review*, 14(1):20–39.
- Avenancio-León, C. F., Barbalau, A., Hou, C., and Piccolo, A. (2026). Firms as Electoral Monopsonies.
- Babenko, I., Fedaseyev, V., and Zhang, S. (2020). Do CEOs Affect Employees’ Political Choices? *The Review of Financial Studies*, 33(4):1781–1817.
- Barber, M. and Pope, J. C. (2019). Does Party Trump Ideology? Disentangling Party and Ideology in America. *American Political Science Review*, 113(1):38–54.
- Barber IV, B. and Blake, D. (2026). Mixing Motives: Political Donations by Corporate Executives. *Organization Science*.
- Barley, S. R. (2007). Corporations, Democracy, and the Public Good. *Journal of Management Inquiry*, 16(3):201–215.
- Barley, S. R. (2010). Building an Institutional Field to Corral a Government: A Case to Set an Agenda for Organization Studies. *Organization Studies*, 31(6):777–805.
- Baron, D. P. (1995a). Integrated strategy: Market and nonmarket components. *California Management Review*, 37(2):47–65.
- Baron, D. P. (1995b). The Nonmarket Strategy System. *MIT Sloan Management Review*.
- Baron, D. P. (2012). *Business and Its Environment*. Pearson, Boston, 7th edition edition.
- Battilana, J., Beckman, C. M., and Yen, J. (2025). On Democratic Organizing and Organization Theory. *Administrative Science Quarterly*.
- Bermejo, V. J., Gago, A., Gálvez, R. H., and Harari, N. (2025). LLMs outperform outsourced human coders on complex textual analysis. *Scientific Reports*, 15(1):40122.
- Bertrand, M., Bombardini, M., Fisman, R., and Trebbi, F. (2020). Tax-exempt lobbying: Corporate philanthropy as a tool for political influence. *American Economic Review*, 110(7):2065–2102.
- Bombardini, M. and Trebbi, F. (2011). Votes or money? Theory and evidence from the US Congress. *Journal of Public Economics*, 95(7-8):587–611.
- Bombardini, M. and Trebbi, F. (2020). Empirical Models of Lobbying. *Annual Review of Economics*, 12(Volume 12, 2020):391–413.
- Bombardini, M. and Trebbi, F. (2025). The Political Power of Firms.
- Bonardi, J.-P., Hillman, A. J., and Keim, G. D. (2005). The Attractiveness of Political Markets: Implications for Firm Strategy. *The Academy of Management Review*, 30(2):397–413.
- Bonica, A. and Grumbach, J. M. (2025). Old money: Campaign finance and gerontocracy in the United States. *Journal of Public Economics*, 249:105451.
- Boxell, L., Gentzkow, M., and Shapiro, J. M. (2024). Cross-Country Trends in Affective Polarization. *Review of Economics and Statistics*, 106(2):557–565.
- Briscoe, F. and DesJardine, M. R. (2026). Seeking Greener Pastures: Employee Turnover Following Corporate Stakeholder Violations. *Academy of Management Journal*, page amj.2024.0243.
- Broockman, D. E. and Kalla, J. L. (2023). When and Why Are Campaigns’ Persuasive Effects Small? Evidence from the 2020 U.S. Presidential Election. *American Journal of Political Science*, 67(4):833–849.
- Broockman, D. E., Kaufman, A. R., and Lenz, G. S. (2024). Heuristic Projection: Why Interest Group Cues May Fail to Help Citizens Hold Politicians Accountable. *British Journal of Political Science*, 54(1):69–87.

- Brown, J. R. and Enos, R. D. (2021). The measurement of partisan sorting for 180 million voters. *Nature Human Behaviour*, 5(8):998–1008.
- Budd, J. W., Lamare, J. R., and Timming, A. R. (2018). Learning about Democracy at Work: Cross-National Evidence on Individual Employee Voice Influencing Political Participation in Civil Society. *ILR Review*, 71(4):956–985.
- Burbano, V. C. (2021). The Demotivating Effects of Communicating a Social-Political Stance: Field Experimental Evidence from an Online Labor Market Platform. *Management Science*, 67(2):1004–1025.
- Bursztyn, L., Cantoni, D., Funk, P., Schönenberger, F., and Yuchtman, N. (2023). Identifying the effect of election closeness on voter turnout: Evidence from swiss referenda. *Journal of the European Economic Association*, 22(2):876–914.
- Campbell, A., Converse, P. E., and Stokes, D. E. (1960). *The American Voter*. John Wiley & Sons, Inc., New York.
- Cengiz, D., Dube, A., Lindner, A., and Zipperer, B. (2019). The Effect of Minimum Wages on Low-Wage Jobs. *The Quarterly Journal of Economics*, 134(3):1405–1454.
- Chaiken, S., Liberman, A., and Eagly, A. H. (1989). Heuristic and systematic information processing within and beyond the persuasion context. In *Unintended Thought*, pages 212–252. The Guilford Press, New York, NY, US.
- Chatterji, A. K. and Toffel, M. W. (2019). Assessing the Impact of CEO Activism. *Organization & Environment*, 32(2):159–185.
- Chinoy, S. and Koenen, M. (2024). Political Sorting in the U.S. Labor Market: Evidence and Explanations.
- Choi, D., Peskoff, D., and Stewart, B. M. (2026). Fine-tuned large language models can replicate expert coding better than trained coders: A study on informative signals sent by interest groups. *Political Science Research and Methods*, pages 1–19.
- Christensen, D. M., Jin, H., Sridharan, S. A., and Wellman, L. A. (2022). Hedging on the Hill: Does Political Hedging Reduce Firm Risk? *Management Science*, 68(6):4356–4379.
- Christensen, D. M., Morris, A., Walther, B. R., and Wellman, L. A. (2023). Political information flow and management guidance. *Review of Accounting Studies*, 28(3):1466–1499.
- Chung, S. H. B., Odziemkowska, K., and Piazza, A. (2025). Threading the Needle of Corporate Activism: How Firms Frame Their Stances on Polarizing Social Issues. *Academy of Management Journal*, page amj.2023.0237.
- Colao, J., Broockman, D. E., Huber, G. A., and Kalla, J. L. (2026). Issues, Endorsements, and Vote Choice: A Panel Study of Congressional Primary and General Elections. *American Journal of Political Science*.
- Colonnelli, E., Neto, V. P., and Teso, E. (2025). Politics at Work. *American Economic Review*, 115(10):3367–3414.
- Dasanaïke, N. (2026). Pre-Trained Language Models as Zero-Shot Tools for Social Science Research.
- de Chaisemartin, C. and D’Haultfœuille, X. (2023). Two-way fixed effects and differences-in-differences with heterogeneous treatment effects: A survey. *The Econometrics Journal*, 26(3):C1–C30.
- Delli Carpini, M. X. and Keeter, S. (1996). *What Americans Know about Politics and Why It Matters*. Yale Univ. Press, New Haven, 3. [pr.] edition.
- Dias, N. and Lelkes, Y. (2022). The Nature of Affective Polarization: Disentangling Policy Disagreement from Partisan Identity. *American Journal of Political Science*, 66(3):775–790.
- Dorobantu, S., Kaul, A., and Zelner, B. (2017). Nonmarket strategy research through the lens of new institutional economics: An integrative review and future directions. *Strategic Management Journal*, 38(1):114–140.
- Dorobantu, S. and Odziemkowska, K. (2017). Valuing Stakeholder Governance: Property Rights, Community Mobilization, and Firm Value. *Strategic Management Journal*, 38(13):2682–2703.
- Downs, A. (1957). *An Economic Theory of Democracy*. New York : Harper and Brothers.
- Egerod, B. and Hollenbach, F. M. (2024). How many is enough? Sample Size in Staggered Difference-in-Differences Designs.
- Elder, E. M. and O’Brian, N. A. (2022). Social Groups as the Source of Political Belief Systems: Fresh Evidence on an Old Theory. *American Political Science Review*, pages 1–18.
- Enamorado, T. (2021). A Primer on Probabilistic Record Linkage. In *Handbook of Computational Social Science, Volume 2*. Routledge.

- Enamorado, T., Fifield, B., and Imai, K. (2019). Using a Probabilistic Model to Assist Merging of Large-Scale Administrative Records. *American Political Science Review*, 113(2):353–371.
- Fellegi, I. P. and Sunter, A. B. (1969). A Theory for Record Linkage. *Journal of the American Statistical Association*, 64(328):1183–1210.
- Flammer, C., Malhotra, N., and Loch, C. (2025). Call for Papers—Management Science Special Issue on Business and Its Interrelationship with Democratic Resilience, Geopolitics, and Society in a Time of Change. *Management Science*, 71(9):ix–x.
- Flavin, P. and Hartney, M. T. (2015). When Government Subsidizes Its Own: Collective Bargaining Laws as Agents of Political Mobilization. *American Journal of Political Science*, 59(4):896–911.
- Fouirnaies, A. and Hall, A. B. (2018). How Do Interest Groups Seek Access to Committees? *American Journal of Political Science*, 62(1):132–147.
- Frake, J., Hurst, R., and Kagan, M. (2025). Replication Data for: Political segregation in the US workplace.
- Frake, J., Hurst, R., and Kagan, M. (2026). Political segregation in the US workplace. *Nature Human Behaviour*, pages 1–19.
- Frye, T., Reuter, O. J., and Szakonyi, D. (2014). Political Machines at Work Voter Mobilization and Electoral Subversion in the Workplace. *World Politics*, 66(2):195–228.
- Frye, T., Reuter, O. J., and Szakonyi, D. (2019). Hitting Them With Carrots: Voter Intimidation and Vote Buying in Russia. *British Journal of Political Science*, 49(3):857–881.
- Frye, T., Reuter, O. J., and Szakonyi, D. (2025). *Workplace Politics: How Politicians and Employers Subvert Elections*. Oxford Scholarship Online Political Science. Oxford University Press, New York, NY.
- Frymer, P. and Grumbach, J. M. (2021). Labor unions and white racial politics. *American Journal of Political Science*, 65(1):225–240.
- Gama, M. A. B. and Gatignon, A. (2025). Cross-Sector Relational Realignments after an Institutional Crisis: Checking the Instrumentalization of Corporate-Nonprofit Partnerships. *Academy of Management Journal*, page amj.2023.0677.
- Garlick, A., Junk, W. M., and Brown, H. (2025). How Lobbying Matters. *Annual Review of Political Science*, 28(1):457–475.
- Gavetti, G., Levinthal, D. A., and Rivkin, J. W. (2005). Strategy making in novel and complex worlds: The power of analogy. *Strategic Management Journal*, 26(8):691–712.
- Green, D., Palmquist, B., and Schickler, E. (2002). *Partisan Hearts and Minds: Political Parties and the Social Identities of Voters*. Yale University Press.
- Grimmer, J., Hersh, E., and Westwood, S. (2026). How to Measure the Burdens of Voting.
- Grossman, G. M. and Helpman, E. (1994). Protection for sale. *The American Economic Review*, 84(4):833–850.
- Gupta, A., Briscoe, F., and Hambrick, D. C. (2017). Red, blue, and purple firms: Organizational political ideology and corporate social responsibility: Organizational Political Ideology and Corporate Social Responsibility. *Strategic Management Journal*, 38(5):1018–1040.
- Hall, A. B. and Sun, A. L. (2026). Investing in Political Expertise: The Remarkable Scale of Corporate Policy Teams.
- Hall, R. L. and Deardorff, A. V. (2006). Lobbying as legislative subsidy. *American Political Science Review*, 100(1):69–84.
- Haveman, H. A., Jia, N., Shi, J., and Wang, Y. (2017). The Dynamics of Political Embeddedness in China. *Administrative Science Quarterly*, 62(1):67–104.
- Hersh, E. D. (2015). *Hacking the Electorate: How Campaigns Perceive Voters*. Cambridge University Press, New York, NY.
- Hertel-Fernandez, A. (2017). American employers as political machines. *The Journal of Politics*, 79(1):105–117.
- Hertel-Fernandez, A. (2018). *Politics at Work: How Companies Turn Their Workers into Lobbyists*. Oxford University Press, New York, NY, United States of America, 1st edition edition.
- Hertel-Fernandez, A. (2025). Civic Organizations and the Political Participation of Cross-Pressured Americans: The Case of the Labor Movement. *American Political Science Review*, 119(3):1173–1189.

- Hillman, A. J. and Hitt, M. A. (1999). Corporate Political Strategy Formulation: A Model of Approach, Participation, and Strategy Decisions. *The Academy of Management Review*, 24(4):825–842.
- Hillman, A. J., Keim, G. D., and Schuler, D. (2004). Corporate political activity: A review and research agenda. *Journal of Management*, 30(6):837–857.
- Hou, Y. and Poliquin, C. (2023). CEO Activism and Public Mobilization. *SSRN Electronic Journal*.
- Huber, G. A., Gerber, A. S., Biggers, D. R., and Hendry, D. J. (2022). Can Raising the Stakes of Election Outcomes Increase Participation? Results from a Large-Scale Field Experiment in Local Elections. *British Journal of Political Science*, 52(4):1635–1650.
- Hurst, R. (2023). Countervailing Claims: Pro-Diversity Responses to Stigma by Association Following the Unite the Right Rally. *Administrative Science Quarterly*, 68(4):1094–1132.
- Hurst, R., Kagan, M., Lee, M., and Frake, J. (2025). Organizational Civic Culture: Workplaces as Engines of Democratic Participation.
- Hurst, R. and Lee, S. R. (2025). Filtering the Right: Diversity Claims and Political Sorting.
- Iacus, S. M., King, G., and Porro, G. (2012). Causal inference without balance checking: Coarsened exact matching. *Political Analysis*, 20(1):1–24.
- Jares, J. A. and Malhotra, N. (2024). Policy Impact and Voter Mobilization: Evidence from Farmers’ Trade War Experiences. *American Political Science Review*, pages 1–23.
- Jia, N. (2018). The “Make and/or Buy” Decisions of Corporate Political Lobbying: Integrating the Economic Efficiency and Legitimacy Perspectives. *Academy of Management Review*, 43(2):307–326.
- Jia, N., Zhao, B., Zheng, W., and Lu, J. (2022). No Free Lunch After All: Corporate Political Connections and Firms’ Location Choices. *Organization Science*, 33(2):650–670.
- Johnson, J., Douze, M., and Jegou, H. (2021). Billion-Scale Similarity Search with GPUs. *IEEE Transactions on Big Data*, 7(3):535–547.
- Kagan, M., Frake, J., and Hurst, R. (2026). VRscores: A New Measure and Data Set of Workforce Politics Using Voter Registrations. *Organization Science*, 37(2):444–465.
- Kalla, J., Rosenbluth, F., and Teele, D. L. (2018). Are You My Mentor? A Field Experiment on Gender, Ethnicity, and Political Self-Starters. *The Journal of Politics*, 80(1):337–341.
- Kalla, J. L. and Broockman, D. E. (2016). Campaign contributions facilitate access to congressional officials: A randomized field experiment. *American Journal of Political Science*, 60(3):545–558.
- Kalla, J. L. and Broockman, D. E. (2018). The Minimal Persuasive Effects of Campaign Contact in General Elections: Evidence from 49 Field Experiments. *American Political Science Review*, 112(1):148–166.
- Katic, I. V. and Hillman, A. (2023). Corporate Political Activity, Reimagined: Revisiting the Political Marketplace. *Journal of Management*, 49(6):1911–1938.
- Katic, I. V. and Kim, J. W. (2024). Caught in the Revolving Door: Firm-Government Employee Mobility as a Fleeting Regulatory Advantage. *Organization Science*, 35(1):281–306.
- Kaul, A. and Luo, J. (2023). From Social Responsibility to Social Impact: A Framework and Research Agenda.
- Keim, G. and Baysinger, B. (1988). The Efficacy of Business Political Activity: Competitive Considerations in a Principal-Agent Context. *Journal of Management*, 14(2):163–180.
- Keim, G. D. and Zeithaml, C. P. (1986). Corporate Political Strategy and Legislative Decision Making: A Review and Contingency Approach. *The Academy of Management Review*, 11(4):828–843.
- Keith, B. E., Magleby, D. B., Nelson, C. J., Orr, E. A., and Westlye, M. C. (1992). *The Myth of the Independent Voter*. University of California Press.
- Klar, S. (2014). Identity and Engagement among Political Independents in America. *Political Psychology*, 35(4):577–591.
- Kollman, K. (1998). *Outside Lobbying: Public Opinion and Interest Group Strategies*. Princeton University Press.
- Leighley, J. E. and Nagler, J. (2007). Unions, Voter Turnout, and Class Bias in the U.S. Electorate, 1964–2004. *The Journal of Politics*, 69(2):430–441.

- Lenway, S., Schuler, D., Marens, R., Werner, T., and Green, C. (2022). The Evolving Political Marketplace: Revisiting 60 Years of Theoretical Dominance Through a Review of Corporate Political Activity Scholarship in *Business & Society* and Major Management Journals. *Business & Society*, 61(5):1416–1470.
- Lenz, G. S. (2012). *Follow the Leader?: How Voters Respond to Politicians' Policies and Performance*. Chicago Studies in American Politics. University of Chicago Press, Chicago, IL.
- Li, Z. (2018). How internal constraints shape interest group activities: Evidence from access-seeking PACs. *American Political Science Review*, 112(4):792–808.
- Lord, M. D. (2000). Corporate Political Strategy and Legislative Decision Making: The Impact of Corporate Legislative Influence Activities. *Business & Society*, 39(1):76–93.
- Luo, J., Kaul, A., and Seo, H. (2018). Winning us with trifles: Adverse selection in the use of philanthropy as insurance. *Strategic Management Journal*, 39(10):2591–2617.
- Lupia, A. (1994). Shortcuts Versus Encyclopedias: Information and Voting Behavior in California Insurance Reform Elections. *American Political Science Review*, 88(1):63–76.
- Lupia, A. and McCubbins, M. D. (1998). *The Democratic Dilemma: Can Citizens Learn What They Need to Know?* Political Economy of Institutions and Decisions. Cambridge Univ. Press, Cambridge, repr edition.
- Mares, I. and Young, L. (2016). Buying, Expropriating, and Stealing Votes. *Annual Review of Political Science*, 19(1):267–288.
- Mares, I. and Zhu, B. (2015). The Production of Electoral Intimidation: Economic and Political Incentives. *Comparative Politics*, 48(1):23–43.
- Marx, K. (1852). The Eighteenth Brumaire of Louis Bonaparte. *Die Revolution*.
- Marx, K. (1867). Das kapital: Kritik der politischen ökonomie. In *Der produktionsprozess des kapitals*, volume 1. Verlag von Otto Meissner, Hamburg.
- Mazumder, S. and Yan, A. N. (2023). What Do Americans Want from (Private) Government? Experimental Evidence Demonstrates that Americans Want Workplace Democracy. *American Political Science Review*, pages 1–17.
- McKean, A. E. and King, B. G. (2024). When ideologies align: Progressive corporate activism and within-firm ideological alignment. *Strategic Management Journal*, 45(12):2459–2518.
- Mellahi, K., Frynas, J. G., Sun, P., and Siegel, D. (2016). A review of the nonmarket strategy literature: Toward a multi-theoretical integration. *Journal of Management*, 42(1):143–173.
- Melloni, G., Pataconi, A., and Vikander, N. (2023). Cashing in on the culture wars? CEO activism, wokewashing, and firm value. *Strategic Management Journal*, 44(13):3098–3121.
- Mohliiver, A. and Raines, G. (2024). How Social Upheaval Shaped DEI Hiring Practices.
- Murphy, M. J., Walker, E., and Jia, N. (2024). The Art of Blending Stakeholders: “Bootlegger and Baptist” Coalitions in Corporate Constituency-Building. *Academy of Management Review*, page amr.2020.0538.
- Mutz, D. C. (2025). The persistence of cross-cutting discussion in a politicized public sphere. *Proceedings of the National Academy of Sciences*, 122(42):e2516942122.
- Mutz, D. C. and Mondak, J. J. (2006). The workplace as a context for cross-cutting political discourse. *The Journal of Politics*, 68(1):140–155.
- Nickerson, D. W. (2008). Is Voting Contagious? Evidence from Two Field Experiments. *American Political Science Review*, 102(1):49–57.
- Odziemkowska, K. and McDonnell, M.-H. (2024). Ripple effects: How collaboration reduces social movement contention. *Strategic Management Journal*, 45(4):775–806.
- OpenSecrets (2026). Ballot measure campaign finance data. <https://www.opensecrets.org/ballot-measures>.
- Ornstein, J. T. (2025). Probabilistic Record Linkage Using Pretrained Text Embeddings. *Political Analysis*, 0:1–12.
- Paluck, E. L., Green, S. A., and Green, D. P. (2019). The contact hypothesis re-evaluated. *Behavioural Public Policy*, 3(02):129–158.
- Pateman, C. (1970). *Participation and Democratic Theory*. Cambridge University Press, Cambridge.
- Perrow, C. (1993). *Complex Organizations: A Critical Essay*. McGraw-Hill Humanities Social, New York, NY.

- Pettigrew, T. F. and Tropp, L. R. (2006). A meta-analytic test of intergroup contact theory. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 90(5):751–783.
- Poliquin, C. and Hou, Y. (2025). Policymaker Responses to CEO Activism. *Organization Science*.
- Popkin, S. L. (1994). *The Reasoning Voter: Communication and Persuasion in Presidential Campaigns*. University of Chicago Press, Chicago, IL.
- Powell, E. N. and Grimmer, J. (2016). Money in exile: Campaign contributions and committee access. *The Journal of Politics*, 78(4):974–988.
- Raffee, J., Fehder, D., and Teodoridis, F. (2022). Revealing the revealed preferences of public firm and top executives: A new database from credit card spending. *Strategic Management Journal*, 43(10):2042–2065.
- Rambachan, A. and Roth, J. (2023). A More Credible Approach to Parallel Trends. *Review of Economic Studies*, 90(5):2555–2591.
- Revelio Labs (2024). Revelio Labs Data Dictionary. <https://www.data-dictionary.reveliolabs.com/methodology.html#sampling-weights>.
- Richter, B. K. and Werner, T. (2017). Campaign Contributions from Corporate Executives in Lieu of Political Action Committees. *The Journal of Law, Economics, and Organization*, 33(3):443–474.
- Riker, W. H. and Ordeshook, P. C. (1968). A Theory of the Calculus of Voting. *American Political Science Review*, 62(1):25–42.
- Secunda, P. M. (2010). Addressing Political Captive Audience Workplace Meetings in the Post-Citizens United Environment. *Yale Law Journal Online*, 120.
- Seo, H., Luo, J., and Kaul, A. (2021). Giving a little to many or a lot to a few? The returns to variety in corporate philanthropy. *Strategic Management Journal*, 42(9):1734–1764.
- Shanor, A., McDonnell, M.-H., and Werner, T. (2022). Corporate political power: The politics of reputation & traceability. *Emory Law Journal*, 71(2):153–216.
- Spenkuch, J. L., Teso, E., and Xu, G. (2023). Ideology and Performance in Public Organizations. *Econometrica*, 91(4):1171–1203.
- Straus, G. (2025). The Effect of Income on Turnout: Evidence from Public Salary Records and Administrative Voting Data.
- Stuckatz, J. (2022a). How the Workplace Affects Employee Political Contributions. *American Political Science Review*, 116(1):54–69.
- Stuckatz, J. (2022b). Political alignment between firms and employees in the united states: Evidence from a new dataset. *Political Science Research and Methods*, 10(1):215–225.
- Stuckatz, J., Werner, T., and Justesen, M. K. (2025). Money in Politics at Work.
- Tajfel, H. (1970). Experiments in Intergroup Discrimination. *Scientific American*, 223(5):96–102.
- Teso, E. (2025). Influence-Seeking in U.S. Corporate Elites’ Campaign Contribution Behavior. *Review of Economics and Statistics*, 107(3):685–696.
- Walker, E. T. (2012). Putting a Face on the Issue: Corporate Stakeholder Mobilization in Professional Grassroots Lobbying Campaigns. *Business & Society*, 51(4):561–601.
- Walker, E. T. (2014). *Grassroots for Hire: Public Affairs Consultants in American Democracy*. Business and Public Policy. Cambridge University Press, New York.
- Walker, E. T. and Rea, C. M. (2014). The political mobilization of firms and industries. *Annual Review of Sociology*, 40(1):281–304.
- Wang, S. and Zhang, L. (2026). Organizational Diversity Database: An Open Data Set on Firm Racial and Gender Composition. *Strategy Science*.
- Wei, Y., Jia, N., and Bonardi, J.-P. (2023). Corporate Political Connections: A Multidisciplinary Review. *Journal of Management*, 49(6):1870–1910.
- Wen, Y., Walker, E., and Yue, L. Q. (2024). By the People and for the People: The Double-Edged Effects of Platform User Mobilization on Public Policies. *Academy of Management Discoveries*.
- White, J., Hurst, R., and Kagan, M. (2025). Corporate Political Stances and Employee Turnover.

Yan, A. (2025). The Minimal Effects of Union Membership on Political Behavior. *Quarterly Journal of Political Science*, 20(4):537–568.

Appendix Table of Contents

Ballot Questions	A3
A Ballot Questions: Additional Results	A3
A.1 Sample Composition	A3
A.2 Marginal Effects by Moderator	A4
A.3 Event Study	A8
A.4 Leave-One-State-Out	A8
B Ballot Questions: Direction of Vote (Precinct Analysis)	A10
B.1 Variables	A10
B.2 Estimation Strategy	A10
B.3 Results	A11
House Elections	A14
C House Elections: Additional Analyses	A14
C.1 Event Study: PAC Entries	A14
C.2 Alternative Specification: Triple Difference	A15
C.3 Senate Co-Funding and Incumbent Continuity	A16
C.4 Event Studies by Mechanism	A17
C.5 Changes in Committee Assignments	A18
Data Construction and Coding	A19
D Case and Company Identification	A19
D.1 Campaign Universe and Case Selection	A19
D.2 Contributor-to-Employer Matching	A19
D.3 Matching Results	A22
E Panel Construction	A24
E.1 Data Sources	A24
E.2 Production Person-Year Pipeline	A24
E.3 Election-Level Pipeline for Multidate States	A26
E.4 House Elections: L2 Snapshot Vintages	A26
F Ballot Measure Classification	A28
F.1 Material Stake Classification	A28
F.2 Policy Type Classification	A30
G Precinct Vote-Direction Construction	A32
G.1 Precinct-Level Returns: Sources and Coverage	A32
Inventories	A33

H	Ballot Measure Inventory	A33
H.1	State Ballot Measures	A33
H.2	Local Ballot Measures	A43
H.3	Measures in the Precinct-Level Sample	A46

A Ballot Questions: Additional Results

A.1 Sample Composition

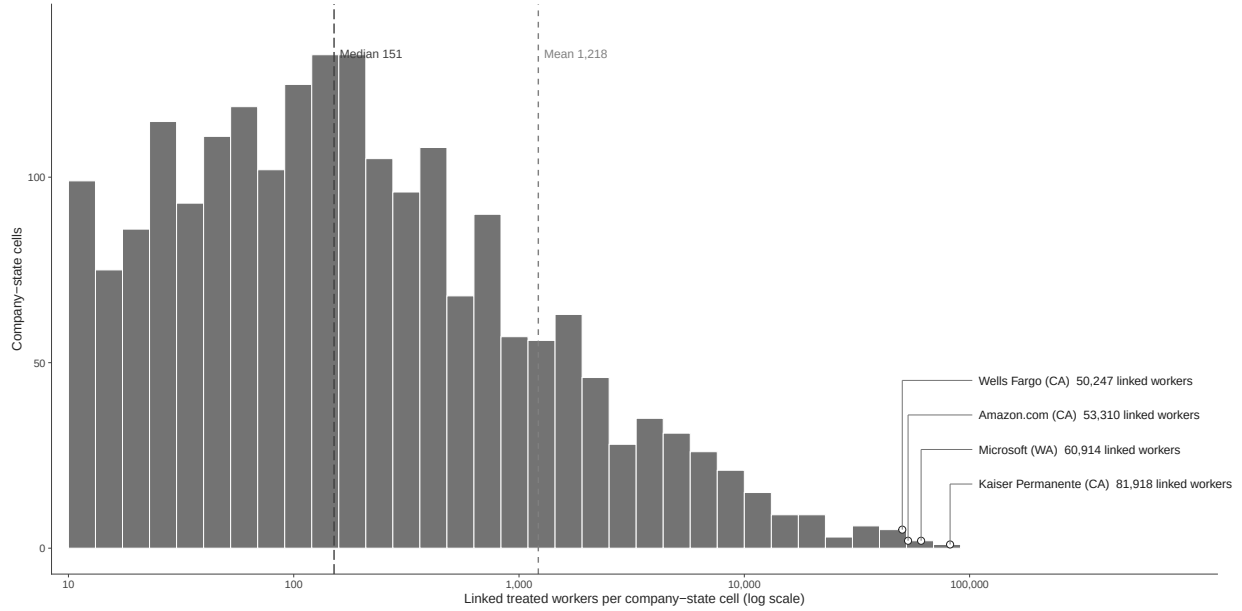


Figure A1: Distribution of linked treated workers across company-state cells.

Notes: The histogram contains 2,071 company-state cells with at least 10 distinct linked treated workers. The horizontal axis is logarithmic. Identical local and statewide cells are counted once. Vertical lines mark the median and mean; labels identify the 4 cells with more than 50,000 linked workers.

A.2 Marginal Effects by Moderator

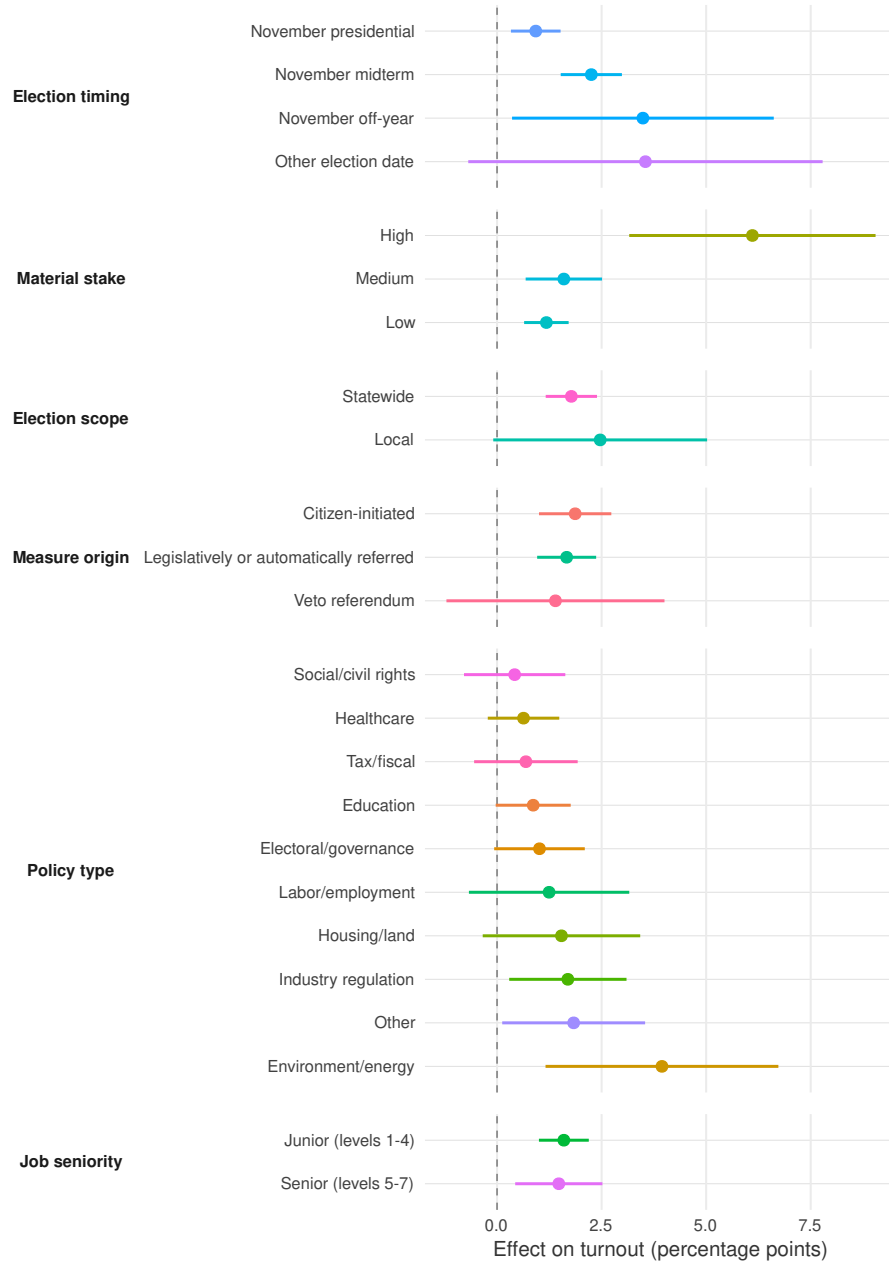


Figure A2: Marginal treatment effects. Panels report effects by election timing, material stake, election scope, how the measure reached the ballot, policy type, and job seniority. Every panel is estimated without a reference category, so each point is the effect for that group rather than a difference from an omitted one. Points are marginal effects on turnout in percentage points; bars report 95% confidence intervals. Job seniority splits the Revelio 1–7 scale at level 5. Three panels rest on restricted samples and are not directly comparable to the others: material stake retains only episodes with a classified treated firm–measure stake, measure origin only the statewide episodes the origin corpus covers, and job seniority only workers with Revelio seniority data, with stack weights renormalized after that restriction.

Table A1: Employee Mobilization and Voter Turnout by Election Scope

	<i>Dependent variable: turnout</i>
	Election scope
Treated $\times$ Post (statewide)	0.018*** (0.003)
... $\times$ Local (vs. statewide)	0.007 (0.013)
Num. Obs.	19,193,668
N treated workers	786,321
N control workers	2,840,527
N states	39
N ballot questions	303
N active firms	1617
Voter $\times$ Episode FE	Yes
Episode $\times$ Period FE	Yes
Clustering	Firm + Episode

Notes: * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$. This table compares the estimated effect of political involvement on ballot measures on worker turnout between statewide elections and local elections.

Table A2: Employee Mobilization and Voter Turnout by Policy Type

	<i>Dependent variable: turnout</i>
	Policy type
Treated × Post (social/civil rights)	0.008 (0.006)
... × Labor/employment (vs. social/civil rights)	0.008 (0.013)
... × Tax/fiscal (vs. social/civil rights)	0.003 (0.010)
... × Industry regulation (vs. social/civil rights)	0.017* (0.010)
... × Electoral/governance (vs. social/civil rights)	0.002 (0.009)
... × Education (vs. social/civil rights)	0.006 (0.007)
... × Healthcare (vs. social/civil rights)	0.004 (0.008)
... × Environment/energy (vs. social/civil rights)	0.037** (0.016)
... × Housing/land (vs. social/civil rights)	0.011 (0.011)
... × Other policy type (vs. social/civil rights)	0.010 (0.011)
Num. Obs.	19,193,668
N treated workers	786,321
N control workers	2,840,527
N states	39
N ballot questions	303
N active firms	1617
Voter × Episode FE	Yes
Episode × Period FE	Yes
Clustering	Firm + Episode

Notes: * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$. This table compares the estimated effect of firm political involvement on ballot measures on worker turnout across issue areas. Includes both statewide and local ballot questions. Standard errors are clustered by firm and episode. Social/civil rights is the omitted policy category.

Table A3: Heterogeneous Treatment Effects: Job Seniority

	<i>Dependent variable: turnout</i>		
	Pooled	+ Seniority	+ Seniority (cont.)
Treated × Post	0.019*** (0.003)	0.017*** (0.003)	0.015*** (0.005)
Treated × Post × Senior (≥ 5)		-0.002 (0.006)	
Treated × Post × Seniority (1-7)			0.001 (0.002)
Num. Obs.	19,193,668	17,935,336	17,935,336
N treated workers	786,321	785,122	785,122
N control workers	2,840,527	2,836,955	2,836,955
N states	39	39	39
N ballot questions	303	290	290
N active firms	1617	1602	1602
Voter × Episode FE	Yes	Yes	Yes
Episode × Period FE	Yes	Yes	Yes
Clustering		Firm + Episode	

Notes: * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$. Each column adds a single interaction to the pooled stacked DiD specification. Seniority columns restrict to workers with Revelio seniority data. Column 2 splits at senior level ≥ 5 on the Revelio 1–7 scale. Column 3 uses the continuous 1–7 scale.

Table A4: Employee Mobilization and Voter Turnout by How the Measure Reached the Ballot

	<i>Dependent variable: turnout</i>
	Procedural origin
Treated × Post (citizen-initiated, 191 episodes)	0.019*** (0.004)
... × Legislatively or automatically referred (99 episodes)	-0.002 (0.006)
... × Veto referendum (15 episodes)	-0.005 (0.014)
Num. Obs.	17,457,154
N treated workers	778,921
N control workers	2,815,921
N states	39
N ballot questions	264
N active firms	1575
N episodes coded	305 of 344
Voter × Episode FE	Yes
Episode × Period FE	Yes
Clustering	Firm + Episode

Notes: * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$. Standard errors are clustered by firm and episode.

A.3 Event Study

Figure A3 replaces the post-period indicator of equation (1) with one indicator per relative election period, $\tau \in \{-3, \dots, +2\}$, with $\tau = -1$ as the reference period. The pre-period coefficients are -0.17 pp at $\tau = -3$ (95% CI $[-0.99, 0.65]$) and 0.14 pp at $\tau = -2$ (95% CI $[-0.59, 0.86]$). The treatment-period coefficient is 1.86 pp (95% CI $[1.28, 2.44]$). Under the relative-magnitude sensitivity analysis of Rambachan and Roth (2023), which bounds the post-period violation of parallel trends at $\bar{M}$ times the largest pre-period violation, the treatment-period confidence set is $[0.74, 2.89]$ at $\bar{M} = 1$ and $[0.33, 3.29]$ at $\bar{M} = 1.5$, and it first includes zero at $\bar{M} = 2$ ($[-0.10, 3.72]$). The coefficients at $\tau = +1$ (0.66 pp, 95% CI $[-0.01, 1.34]$) and $\tau = +2$ (0.91 pp, 95% CI $[0.12, 1.70]$) combine any persistence of the original campaign with renewed mobilization by employers that campaign again in later elections.

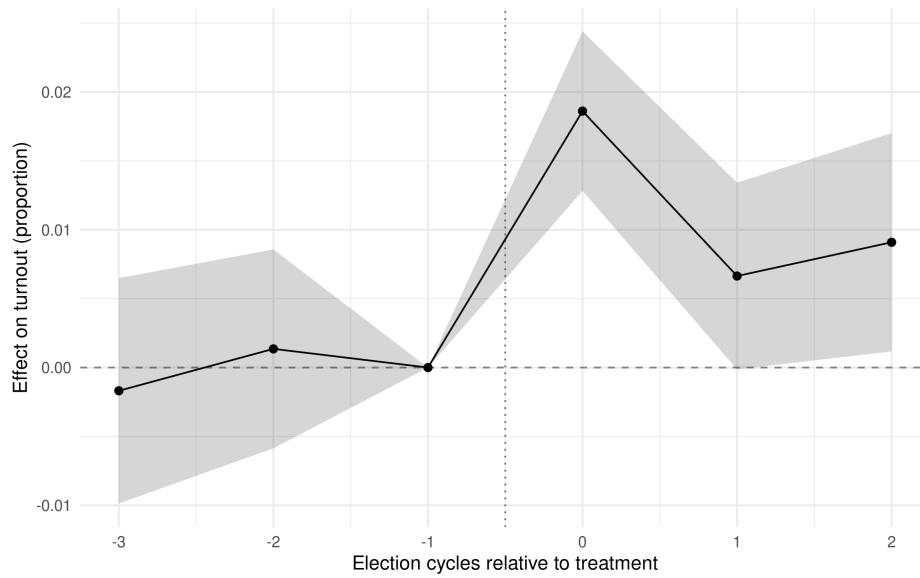


Figure A3: Event study of turnout around the mobilization election. Points are coefficients on treated $\times$ relative-period indicators from equation (1) with the post indicator replaced by period indicators; the reference period is $\tau = -1$. The shaded band is the 95% confidence interval, with standard errors clustered by firm and episode stack. Relative periods count elections of the same family. The vertical axis is on the 0–1 turnout scale.

A.4 Leave-One-State-Out

The estimation sample is unevenly distributed across states. Because of differences in state constitutions, ballot questions are far more common in western states. As a result, California, Washington, and Colorado supply 146 of the 344 episodes. To ensure that results are not driven by a single state, Figure A4 displays a “leave-one-state-out” analysis in which I refits the headline specification 39 times, each time dropping every episode in one state.

The estimate ranges from 1.62 to 2.04 pp against 1.86 pp in the full sample, and every interval excludes zero. Dropping the largest states (California, Washington, and Colorado) moves results upwards. The largest downward movement comes from dropping Maine, which has several large episodes related to the largest electrical utility in the state which had very high increases in employee turnout.

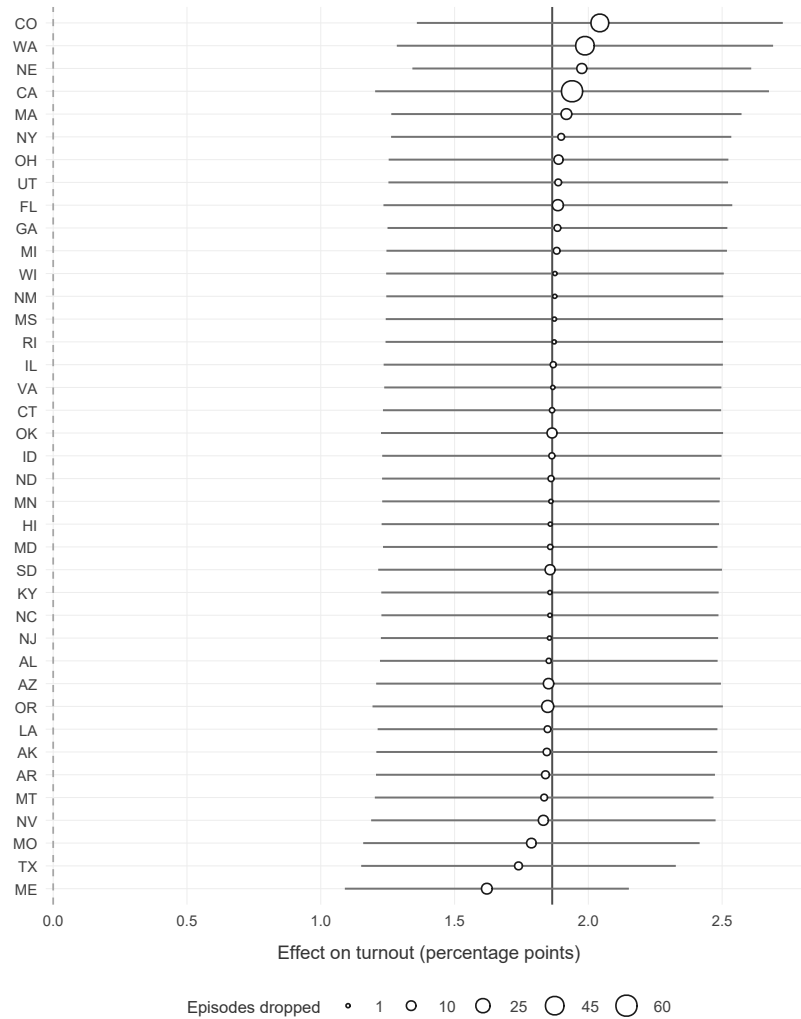


Figure A4: Leave-one-state-out refits of the headline specification. Each row drops every episode in the named state and refits; point area is the number of episodes dropped, and bars report 95% confidence intervals with firm- and episode-clustered standard errors. The solid vertical line marks the full-sample estimate of 1.86 pp.

B Ballot Questions: Direction of Vote (Precinct Analysis)

B.1 Variables

Precinct Share of Politically Active Workers For the precinct-level analysis, the treatment variable is continuous and defined by the number of politically active workers as a share of the total number ballots cast on the measure.

Precinct Vote Share For each measure and precinct, I define the outcome as the firm-preferred share of ballots cast on the measure. I use the affirmative share when the firm supports the measure and one minus that share when the firm opposes it. Both the affirmative and the total count come from the official returns in Table A16; the denominator is ballots cast on that measure. Because exposure and outcome are both shares, the estimated slope is in percentage points of firm-preferred vote share per percentage point of exposure.

B.2 Estimation Strategy

Table A5 reports three specifications.

My first specification estimates

$$y_{pm} = \beta x_{pm} + \lambda_m + \varepsilon_{pm} \quad (A1)$$

on 169,701 precinct $\times$ measure cells, where y_{pm} is the firm-preferred vote share in precinct p on measure m and x_{pm} is the share of ballots in precinct p cast by workers at politically active firms on measure m . Measure effects, λ_m , ensure that the slope is estimated from differences across precincts voting on the same measure rather than from differences in average support across measures.

Because this first specification A1 is cross-sectional, residential sorting and other districts in precinct composition could explain observed differences in vote results. The second specification replaces λ_m with a county $\times$ measure effect, so the comparison is between precincts in the same county voting on the same measure, to better account for potential residential sorting. It defines 4,746 county $\times$ measure groups, of which 1,833 contain the exposure variation that identifies the slope, covering 107,265 cells and 66.5% of ballot weight; 1,221 of the remaining 2,913 are singletons.

Finally, I fit an additional specification that limits comparisons to immediately adjoining precincts. Because precincts are fairly small (typically 1,000 to 2,000 people), adjoining precincts are likely to have similar populations. Figure A5 illustrates the adjoining-precinct design and the variation in workforce exposure across neighboring precincts.

This adjoining precinct specification estimates

$$\Delta y_{ijm} = \alpha_m + \beta \Delta x_{ijm} + \varepsilon_{ijm}, \quad (A2)$$

where

$$\Delta y_{ijm} = y_{im} - y_{jm} \quad \text{and} \quad \Delta x_{ijm} = x_{im} - x_{jm} \quad (A3)$$

and is based on 164,740 nonzero within-measure pair differences, drawn from the precinct adjacency graph of the relevant geometry layer. Each pair is oriented so that i is the higher-exposure precinct.

Standard errors are Conley spatial heteroskedasticity- and autocorrelation-consistent, computed at the precinct centroid. I report no clustered standard errors. The main table reports the 5 km Bartlett bandwidth. Table A6 reports 10 and 25 km under both Bartlett and uniform kernels for every specification. As a second check I resample spatial blocks with replacement, using a grid at the Conley bandwidths

rather than administrative units, and recompute the estimate on each draw. Grid blocks are used deliberately: blocking on counties would reintroduce the assumption that county boundaries track the spatial dependence, which is the assumption the move to Conley standard errors rejects. Table A7 reports the resulting intervals beside the Conley ones.

B.3 Results

In Column (1) the exposure slope is 4.13 (95% CI [3.202, 5.050]). Column (2) compares precincts in the same county voting on the same measure, and the slope falls to 0.48 (SE 0.24, $p = 0.046$). The adjoining-pair slope is 0.20 (95% CI [−0.003, 0.406]). The estimate is much smaller than the precinct-cell slope and falls just outside the conventional 5% significance threshold ($p = .054$); its Conley 95% confidence interval narrowly includes zero. The 10 and 25 km spatial block-bootstrap percentile intervals exclude zero, although the corresponding two-sided bootstrap p -values are .054 and .063. Appendix Table A6 reports alternative bandwidths for different Conley standard errors, and A7 reports spatial block bootstrap.

Table A5: Firm Workforce Exposure and Neighborhood Vote Direction

	Levels		Adjacent precinct pairs
	(1)	(2)	(3)
Mobilizing workers / ballots cast	4.13*** (0.47)	0.48** (0.24)	0.20* (0.10)
<i>Fixed effects</i>			
Measure	✓	✓	✓
County × measure	—	✓	—
Ballot measures	31	31	31
States	7	7	7
Observations	169,701	169,701	164,740

Notes: Standard errors in parentheses are Conley spatial-HAC at 5 km with a Bartlett kernel. Columns 1 and 2 are located at each precinct's centroid; column 3 is located at the higher-exposure member's centroid. Column 2 absorbs county-by-measure fixed effects. Its slope is identified by 107,265 cells in 1,833 county–measure groups with within-group exposure variation; the observation count also includes groups with no within-group exposure variation. Column 3 contains 164,740 nonzero within-measure pair differences. Appendix Table A6 reports 10 and 25 km under both kernels for every column. Exposure is scaled by ballots cast on the same measure in the same election; the House-race precinct tables scale dose by 2016 baseline ballots, so “per 100 ballots” is not one quantity across the two. * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$.

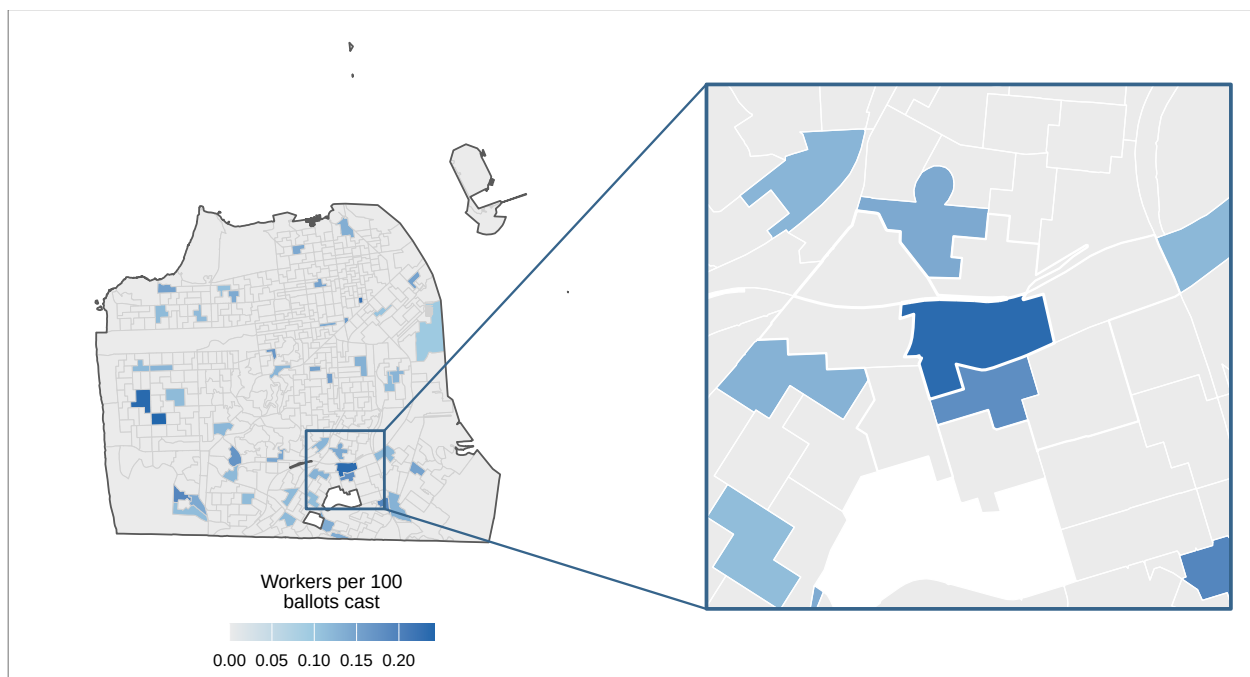


Figure A5: Illustration of the adjoining-precinct design. California's statewide Proposition 23 (2020) would have required dialysis clinics to maintain specified on-site physician coverage, report infection data, obtain state approval before closing or reducing services, and follow additional anti-discrimination rules. The left panel maps San Francisco precincts by mobilizing-firm workers per 100 official ballots cast. The precinct-cell analysis compares precincts voting on the same measure; the adjoining-precinct specification shown at right compares directly adjacent precincts, further reducing concerns about residential sorting.

Table A6: Conley Standard Errors at Alternative Bandwidths and Kernels

Column	Specification	Bartlett			Uniform		
		5 km	10 km	25 km	5 km	10 km	25 km
(1)	Precinct $\times$ measure, measure FE	0.472	0.627	0.826	0.653	0.815	1.031
(2)	Precinct $\times$ measure, county-by-measure FE	0.239	0.307	0.375	0.318	0.394	0.416
(3)	Adjacent pair, measure FE	0.104	0.106	0.108	0.104	0.111	0.111

Notes: Conley spatial heteroskedasticity- and autocorrelation-consistent standard errors for every column of Table A5, at three bandwidths under both kernels. Every reported specification includes measure fixed effects. County-by-measure fixed effects in column (2) restrict the levels comparison to precincts in the same county voting on the same measure. Reporting the full grid rather than one bandwidth makes each estimate's sensitivity to the assumed correlation range visible rather than a matter of choice. Point estimates are unchanged across columns; only the standard error varies.

Table A7: Spatial Block-Bootstrap Robustness

Specification	Estimate	10 km blocks		25 km blocks		Observations
		95% CI	<i>p</i>	95% CI	<i>p</i>	
Precinct cells, measure fixed effects	+4.126	[+3.025, +5.484]	< .001	[+2.617, +5.875]	.001	169,701
Precinct cells, county-by-measure fixed effects	+0.477	[-0.147, +1.179]	.158	[-0.288, +1.289]	.225	169,701
Adjacent pairs, measure fixed effects	+0.201	[+0.036, +0.454]	.055	[+0.022, +0.456]	.063	164,740

Notes: Each row resamples spatial grid blocks with replacement for 999 replications and refits its reported fixed effects in every draw. Rows correspond to columns (1)–(3), respectively, of Table A5.

C House Elections: Additional Analyses

C.1 Event Study: PAC Entries

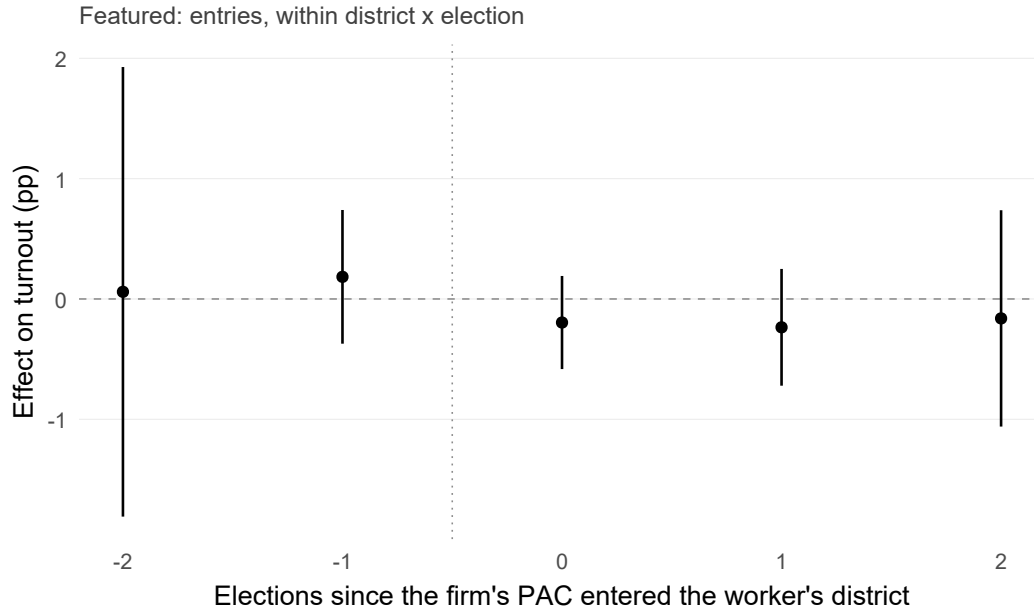


Figure A6: Turnout around a firm's PAC entering the worker's own House district. Coefficients are from the de Chaisemartin and D'Haultfœuille (2023) switching estimator, restricted to entries, comparing within district $\times$ election and within worker, as in Column (1) of Table 9. The horizontal axis counts elections since entry, so 0 is the election in which the firm's PAC began funding the district. The points at -1 and -2 are the estimator's pre-entry placebos rather than normalizations. Bars are 95 percent confidence intervals with standard errors clustered on the Compustat parent.

C.2 Alternative Specification: Triple Difference

The main specification described in Equation 2 compares workers at firms with PACs within the same district. Limiting comparisons to workers at different firms within the same district accounts for race-specific factors and other local dynamics. However, another potential concern may be firm-wide confounding factors which are not limited to a district. To attempt to control for firm-level factors, I fit an additional triple-difference style specification, which identifies variation across both firms and districts within the same state. To make the specification estimable, I fit the following specification

$$\tilde{y}_{fdt} = \beta D_{fdt} + \mu_{fd} + \lambda_{fst} + \varepsilon_{fdt}, \quad (\text{A4})$$

where

$$\tilde{y}_{fdt} = \bar{y}_{fdt} - \bar{y}_{-f,dt} \quad (\text{A5})$$

The outcome variable in Equation A4 is defined as the difference between $\bar{y}_{fdt}$, turnout rate of firm f 's workers in district d at election t , and $\bar{y}_{-f,dt}$ is the turnout rate of every other employer's workers in the same district and election. D_{fdt} is a treatment indicator defined as in Equation 2, μ_{fd} and λ_{fst} are once again firm $\times$ district and firm $\times$ state $\times$ election fixed effects.

As in Equation 2, the estimator is the de Chaisemartin and D'Haultfœuille (2023) switching estimator. In lieu of directly imposing λ_{fst} as a linear fixed effect, the model includes a nonparametric firm $\times$ state trend with cells weighted by their eligible workers.

Table A8: Main specification vs. within-state triple interaction

	<i>Dependent variable: turnout</i>	
	(1) Main specification	(2) Triple-interaction
Effect on turnout (pp)	0.57 (0.64)	0.07 (0.21)
Observations	7,075,505	167,324
Workers	2,108,563	8,750,483
House districts	376	376
Elections	5	5
States	49	49
Compustat parents	765	825
Switching units	461,285	5,886

Notes: All columns are estimated with the de Chaisemartin and D'Haultfœuille (2023) switching estimator and pool both entries and exits. Column (1) compares a firm's workers with other workers in the same district and election. Column (2) is estimated on firm $\times$ district $\times$ election cells, in which each firm's turnout rate is differenced against the other firms in the same district and election and compared only with the same firm's other districts in the same state. Standard errors are clustered at the Compustat parent company. * $p < 0.05$; ** $p < 0.01$; *** $p < 0.001$.

C.3 Senate Co-Funding and Incumbent Continuity

The main design may be confounded by firms which fund additional elections in a given state. While House elections are specific to a given district, PACs may also fund Senate candidates in statewide races. Another potential confounding factor may occur because of ordinary turnover when incumbent House candidates decline to run again, leading to an open race, which may have both different turnout and corporate funding dynamics. Table A9 restricts the estimation sample by (1) removing elections in which PACs funded a Senate race in the state and (2) restricting to districts–elections in which the incumbent candidate stood for re-election.

Table A9: Robustness to potential confounding factors

	<i>Dependent variable: turnout</i>	
	(1) Excluding Senate co-funding	(2) Same incumbent only
Average total effect (pp)	0.23 (0.42)	0.67 (0.75)
Switching units	108,407	392,311
Compustat parents	718	761
Districts	376	376
Workers	1,221,062	2,044,753
Elections	5	5
States	49	49

Notes: Both columns are estimated with the de Chaisemartin and D’Haultfoeuille (2023) switching estimator and pool both entries and exits. Column (1) drops worker-elections whose Compustat parent also funds an on-ballot Senate candidate in the same state and cycle. Column (2) keeps only district-elections whose sitting member stood for re-election. Standard errors are clustered at the Compustat parent company. * $p < 0.05$; ** $p < 0.01$; *** $p < 0.001$.

C.4 Event Studies by Mechanism

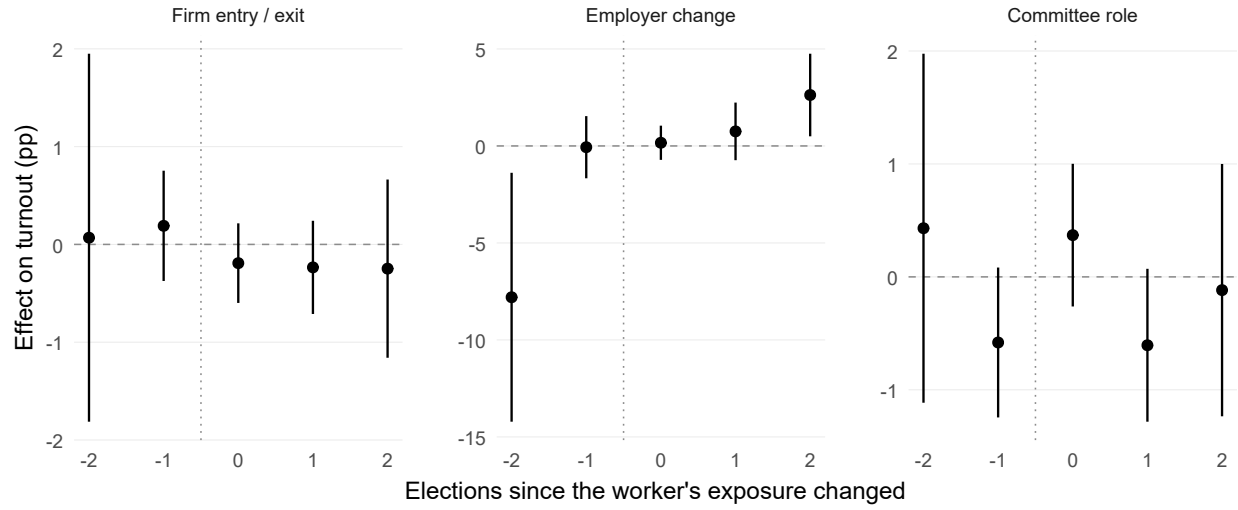


Figure A7: Turnout around an entry into exposure, by the mechanism that produced it. Each panel is the switching estimator's event-study path for one column of Table 11, in the same order, restricted to entries. The horizontal axis counts elections since the worker's exposure changed, so 0 is the election in which it changed and -1 is the estimator's pre-switch placebo rather than a normalization.

C.5 Changes in Committee Assignments

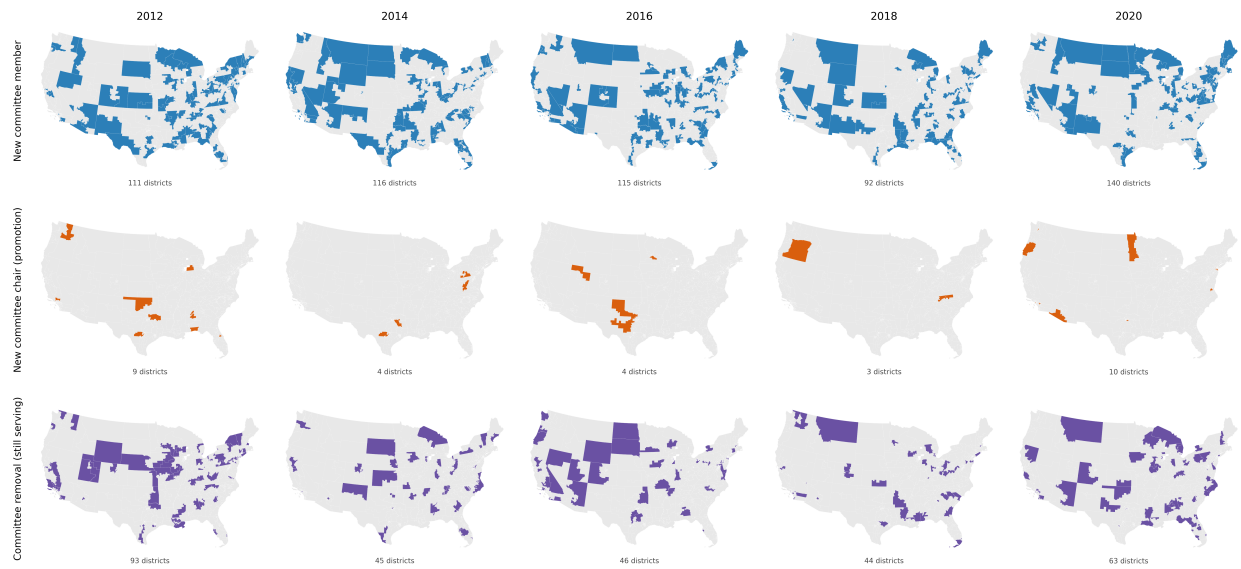


Figure A8: House districts carrying a committee-appointment event, by cycle and type. A district is shaded when at least one delegation member newly joined, newly chaired, or left a NAICS-crosswalked committee that cycle. Lower 48 only; Alaska, Hawaii and DC are dropped for the equal-area frame.

D Case and Company Identification

This appendix describes how I identified the ballot question campaigns and contributing companies that comprise the sample, and how I linked those contributors to employer records in the employment-voter panel.

D.1 Campaign Universe and Case Selection

During a typical election cycle, over 100 state-level ballot questions appear across 30 or more states. I consider all state-level ballot questions from 2016 through 2024, supplemented by selected municipal ballot questions in cities where employment data coverage is available. Using campaign finance data from the National Institute on Money in Politics (now OpenSecrets), I identify ballot question committees that received corporate contributions (OpenSecrets 2026). From the resulting set, I select campaigns where one or more specific companies contributed to a ballot question committee.

D.2 Contributor-to-Employer Matching

A central challenge is linking the names of ballot measure contributors—as they appear in campaign finance records—to the corresponding employer entities in the Revelio Labs employment database (Revelio Labs 2024). Contributor names in campaign finance filings are not standardized: the same company may appear as “BLUE CROSS BLUE SHIELD OF MASSACHUSETTS,” “BLUE CROSS & BLUE SHIELD OF MA,” or “BCBS MASSACHUSETTS.” Meanwhile, Revelio’s employment records use corporate legal names that may differ from the contributor’s filing name (e.g., “Health Care Service Corporation” for Blue Cross Blue Shield of Illinois). The matching procedure must handle these discrepancies systematically.

Starting universe The campaign finance data contains 11,111 unique contributor names across all ballot measures in the sample states and years. Most of these are not employers—the universe includes unions, political action committees, advocacy organizations, political parties, religious organizations, and government entities alongside corporate contributors.

D.2.1 Entity Classification

I first classify each contributor into one of ten entity types using keyword pattern matching on the contributor name. The classifier checks the uppercased name against an ordered list of substring patterns:

- **Union:** AFL-CIO, SEIU, IBEW, Teamsters, Steelworkers, and 40+ additional union identifiers including “WORKERS LOCAL,” “TRADE COUNCIL,” and “BROTHERHOOD OF.”
- **PAC:** “POLITICAL ACTION,” “BALLOT MEASURE COMMITTEE,” “INDEPENDENT EXPENDITURE.”
- **Campaign committee:** “YES ON,” “NO ON,” “COMMITTEE TO ELECT,” “CITIZENS FOR,” “FRIENDS OF,” “CAMPAIGN.”
- **Advocacy:** “PLANNED PARENTHOOD,” “SIERRA CLUB,” “ACLU,” “CONSERVATION,” “CONSERVANCY,” “COALITION,” and 20+ advocacy organization identifiers.
- **Party:** “DEMOCRATIC PARTY,” “REPUBLICAN PARTY,” and state/national party variants.

- **Association:** “CHAMBER OF COMMERCE,” “ASSOCIATION OF REALTORS,” “FARM BUREAU,” “ASSOCIATION,” “FOUNDATION.”
- **Government:** “CITY OF,” “COUNTY OF,” “SCHOOL DISTRICT,” “DEPARTMENT OF.”
- **Religious:** “DIOCESE,” “CHURCH OF,” “MINISTRY.”

Contributors matching none of these patterns are classified as corporations. This keyword classification identifies 7,156 entities as potential corporate contributors.

Manual curation The keyword classifier is supplemented by a hand-curated exclusion list of 1,389 entities confirmed through manual review to be non-employers despite passing the keyword filter (e.g., “FWD.US,” a political advocacy organization; “Represent.Us,” a governance reform nonprofit). Most of that list names entities the keyword classifier had already placed outside the corporate pool; 1,036 of the entries remove an entity the classifier had called a corporation. A smaller set of manual overrides preserves entities that contain exclusion keywords but are genuine employers—for example, “Tillamook County Creamery Association” (a dairy cooperative with 77 employees) and “Kaiser Foundation Health Plan” (the operating entity of Kaiser Permanente).

After classification and exclusions, 6,120 corporate entities remain for matching.

D.2.2 Name Normalization

Before matching, I normalize both contributor names and employer names using the following rules, applied in order:

1. Convert to uppercase
2. Strip corporate suffixes: Inc, LLC, Corp, Corporation, Company, Co, Ltd, Limited, LP, LLP, PLC, Holdings, Group, International, Enterprises, Industries, The
3. Replace punctuation (except & and whitespace) with spaces
4. Collapse multiple spaces to a single space

This normalization maps “Procter & Gamble Co.” and “PROCTER & GAMBLE COMPANY” to the same key (“PROCTER & GAMBLE”), enabling exact matching across stylistic differences.

D.2.3 Employer Lookup Table

The target for matching is a lookup table of employer names and employee counts by state, extracted from the Revelio employment records. For each of the 52 state partitions in the employment data, I extract all unique company names, their Revelio company identifiers (RCIDs), employee counts (defined as the number of linked voters with active employment at that company), and primary NAICS industry classification. The extraction uses DuckDB for memory-efficient per-state queries over the parquet-formatted employment data. The resulting lookup contains approximately 20 million (company, state) entries.

D.2.4 Four-Tier Matching Cascade

Each contributor entity is matched against the employer lookup using a four-tier cascade. The tiers are applied in order; the first match found is accepted.

Tier 1: Manual aliases A hand-curated mapping of 321 contributor names to their corresponding employer names. These handle cases where automated matching is impossible: corporate renamings (“Fiat Chrysler” → “Stellantis”), DBA names (“Amerco” → “U-Haul”), abbreviations (“BNSF” → “BNSF Railway”), and subsidiary-to-parent mappings (“21st Century Fox America” → “Fox Corp.”). The alias file was built iteratively across five review rounds, starting from known difficult cases and expanding as automated tiers revealed gaps.

Tier 2: Exact normalized match The contributor’s normalized name is compared to all employer names in the lookup for each state where the contributor is active. If the normalized strings are identical, the match is accepted. This tier captures the majority of matches—companies whose filing name, after suffix stripping, is the same as their employer record name.

Tier 3: Fuzzy matching For short names (≤ 2 tokens after normalization), I apply *containment matching*: the contributor name is accepted as a match if it appears as a substring of an employer name with at least 10 employees. For example, “BASS PRO” matches “BASS PRO SHOPS OUTDOOR WORLD.” The employee threshold prevents false positives from small entities with coincidentally similar names.

For longer names (≥ 3 tokens), I use token-level Jaccard similarity:

$$J(A, B) = \frac{|A \cap B|}{|A \cup B|}$$

where A and B are the token sets of the contributor and employer names, respectively. To account for the discrete nature of Jaccard scores at different token counts, I apply graduated thresholds: $J \geq 0.67$ for 3-token names, $J \geq 0.60$ for 4+ token names. I use an inverted token index to efficiently identify candidate pairs sharing at least one token, avoiding exhaustive pairwise comparison.

Tier 4: Semantic similarity Remaining unmatched entities are embedded using OpenAI’s text-embedding-3-small model and matched via approximate nearest neighbor search using FAISS (Johnson et al. 2021). The employer lookup names are embedded and indexed using FAISS’s inner-product index on L2-normalized vectors, which computes cosine similarity. A match is accepted if the cosine similarity exceeds 0.85. This tier captures semantic matches that token-level methods miss—for example, “Progressive Casualty Insurance” matching “Progressive Corp.” Queries are restricted to states where the contributor is active to prevent cross-state false matches.

D.2.5 Post-Match Filtering

Three filters are applied after matching:

1. **Match blacklist.** A set of 248 known false-positive (contributor, employer) pairs is removed. These arise when an employer name is superficially similar to the contributor but refers to a different entity (e.g., “WSI US LLC,” a staffing company, matched to “Wynn Resorts”; “Horizon Pharma PLC,” an Irish biopharmaceutical company, matched to “Horizon Pharmacies, Inc.,” a Texas pharmacy chain). The blacklist was compiled through iterative manual review across five matching rounds and a comprehensive LLM-assisted validation of all matches (described below).
2. **Industry filter.** Matches where the employer’s NAICS classification indicates a non-employer entity are removed. The filter excludes all six-digit NAICS codes from 813000 through 813999 (NAICS 813xxx).

3. **Employer size threshold.** An employer enters the registry only where the employment data record at least 10 employees for it, assessed on the firm in the state its coverage row was computed in. A separate and larger threshold applies later, at the episode level rather than the firm level: an episode is estimated only if at least 50 employees of the mobilizing firms appear on that state’s voter file at that election, pooled across every firm on that side of the measure. No filter at any stage removes an individual employer for having fewer than 50 linked voters.

D.2.6 Iterative Review

The matching pipeline was run five times, with manual review of all matches and high-contribution unmatched entities between rounds. Each review round produced three types of feedback: (a) new manual aliases for entities that should have matched, (b) additions to the entity exclusion list for contributors confirmed as non-employers, and (c) additions to the match blacklist for false-positive matches. The fourth round included a systematic investigation of all 1,743 unmatched entities with contributions of \$10,000 or more, using the employer lookup to identify candidate matches for manual verification.

D.2.7 LLM-Assisted Match Validation

After the iterative review, I conduct a comprehensive validation of all matched pairs using a large language model (Claude Opus 4.6, Anthropic). Each of the 2,480 matched contributor–employer pairs is evaluated for two properties: (a) whether the matched employer name plausibly refers to the same entity as the contributor name, considering subsidiaries, DBAs, and corporate renamings; and (b) the three most likely six-digit NAICS 2022 industry codes for the contributor company. The validation is performed by 12 parallel classification agents, each reviewing approximately 200 matches.

This validation identifies 157 false-positive matches (6.3% of the crosswalk), concentrated among Tier 3 fuzzy matches (39% invalid rate) rather than Tier 2 exact matches (1.9%).

The NAICS review reveals that Revelio’s industry classifications are unreliable: in a random 50-row spot-check, 34% of Revelio-assigned NAICS codes were incorrect at the six-digit level. Common errors include holding-company codes assigned to operating subsidiaries (e.g., a commercial bank coded as “Corporate Managing Offices”), cannabis companies assigned to pharmaceutical manufacturing (no cannabis-specific NAICS code exists), tribal casino operations classified as amusement parks, and private law firms coded under government legal services. I replace Revelio’s NAICS codes with the LLM’s top classification for all companies in the crosswalk, applying manual overrides for known problem categories: cannabis companies are assigned 111998 (“All Other Miscellaneous Crop Farming”), tribal casino operations 713210 (“Casinos”), and tribal governments 921150 (“American Indian and Alaska Native Tribal Governments”). The LLM-assigned codes are mapped to the official Census Bureau NAICS 2022 classification.

D.3 Matching Results

The final matching yields 2,819 accepted contributor–employer pairs covering 2,815 unique contributors, from 6,120 candidate corporate entities.

The unmatched entities are predominantly small local businesses below the employment data provider’s coverage threshold, entities with no U.S. workforce presence in the contributor’s state, or misclassified non-corporate entities that passed the keyword filter.

Table A10: Matching Results by Tier

Tier	Method	Matches
1	Manual aliases	249
2	Exact normalized	2,191
3	Fuzzy (Jaccard + containment)	323
4	Embedding similarity (FAISS, cosine ≥ 0.85)	56
Total		2,819

E Panel Construction

This appendix describes the data infrastructure underlying the analysis. The production backbone is a person-year pipeline that builds state-level November panels and enriches them with treatment metadata, partisanship measures, tenure, and spillover flags. For a subset of states where multiple relevant ballot dates fall in the same calendar year, a supplementary election-level pipeline resolves within-year timing ambiguity by constructing panels at the voter $\times$ election level.

E.1 Data Sources

Two primary datasets are linked to create the analysis panels.

Voter files Voter file data is publicly available from state and/or county officials but is difficult to collect. Like most scholars, I thus rely upon a commercial data vendor, L2 Data. L2 data are widely used in fields including management (Kagan et al. 2026; Frake et al. 2026; Raffiee et al. 2022) as well as other social sciences (Brown and Enos 2021; Chinoy and Koenen 2024). The L2 voter file contains administrative records for approximately 180 million registered voters across all 50 states and Washington, D.C. For each voter, the file includes a complete turnout history across all election types (general, primary, municipal), current and historical residential addresses, party registration where available, and demographic information (age, gender, and race/ethnicity).

Employment records Revelio Labs aggregates employment information from online professional profiles, covering over 100 million U.S. employment records. Each record includes the employer name, job title, start and end dates, seniority level, salary band, and NAICS industry classification. Revelio resolves employer names to a canonical company identifier and maps subsidiary relationships to ultimate parent companies.

Record linkage The two datasets share no common unique identifier. The Politics at Work project links them using a multi-stage approach. First, both datasets are partitioned by metropolitan statistical area (MSA) to reduce the scale of required comparisons while preserving plausible matches. Second, the project applies probabilistic record linkage following Enamorado et al. (2019), which weights multiple matching fields—name, gender, approximate age—by their discriminatory power. Third, it supplements these with machine learning approaches using large language model embeddings (Ornstein 2025) to capture name variations that string distance measures miss (e.g., transliterations, hyphenated surnames, nicknames). The resulting linked dataset covers approximately 40 million Americans with both employment histories and voter turnout records. More complete technical details of this merge, including replication code, are described in Frake et al. (2026) and Kagan et al. (2026).

E.2 Production Person-Year Pipeline

E.2.1 Step 1–2: Preprocessing

The linked employment-voter records are partitioned by state using the state code embedded in L2’s voter identifier (LALVOTERID). Separately, the raw L2 voter files are standardized: column names are harmonized across states, and election history columns are extracted for general, consolidated general, and local/municipal elections. Processed voter files are stored as state-level parquet files for efficient downstream access.

E.2.2 Step 3: Base November Panels

For each state, I construct a person-year panel covering November general elections from 2012 through 2024. The panel has one row per registered voter per election year.

Employment status is determined by creating snapshots as of November 1 of each year. A worker is considered employed at a given company if their employment record shows a start date before November 1 and no end date (or an end date after November 1). When a worker holds multiple active positions in the same snapshot, I retain a single primary job using a deterministic hierarchy: highest pos _seniority (Revelio’s 1–7 measure of job seniority, derived from job title and other fields), then highest pos _salary (Revelio’s estimated salary based upon geography, job titles, and other fields), then earliest pos _startdate, then lowest pos _pos _number. This rule is used for the production person-year panels so that each voter-year has at most one attached job record.

Turnout is derived from L2’s election history columns. A voter is coded as eligible if their registration date is on or before the election date and they have not been removed from the rolls. Among eligible voters, turnout is coded as 1 if the election history column indicates participation and 0 otherwise. I do not record voters as failing to turnout (i.e., a “0” value) for elections which occurred prior to their recorded registration date.

E.2.3 Treatment Assignment

Treatment is assigned by a flagging stage that reads the base panels of Step 3 directly, together with the firm–ballot-measure crosswalk, and writes a treatment-flagged panel for every state carrying an estimated episode. For each voter-year it records whether the voter was employed at a firm that contributed to a ballot-measure campaign in that state at that election, which measures that firm contributed to, and on which side. Firms are carried as company identifiers rather than as names, and each treated row stores parallel measure-identifier and stance arrays, so that a voter employed by a firm active on several measures is resolved per measure rather than collapsed to a single flag. The four-digit NAICS codes used as a matching stratum are inherited from each worker’s employment record in the base panel, for treated and control workers alike.

Treatment is evaluated *contemporaneously*: a voter is treated at a given election only if the employment snapshot for that election places them at a mobilizing firm, so workers who joined or left afterwards are not retroactively treated.

E.2.4 Enrichment: Partisanship Scores and Tenure

A separate enrichment chain adds company identifiers, voter-level treatment-group indicators, company partisanship scores, and employee tenure to the base panels. Company-level partisanship scores (VRscores) are merged from Revelio’s voter registration–based measures (Kagan et al. 2026). VRscores capture the partisan composition of each company’s workforce in a given year, ranging from 0 (entirely Democratic-registered) to 1 (entirely Republican-registered). Scores are loaded only for treatment years to avoid anachronistic measurement. Employee tenure is calculated as the duration of employment (in years) at the affected company as of the election date. I also merge same-MSA employer ideology from an external file by matching employer identifier, metropolitan statistical area, and year. The key Republican-share measure in that merge is pct _rep _imp, which captures the imputed two-party Republican share among workers in the same employer-by-MSA cell.

E.2.5 Local Election Panels

The Colorado and Washington local episodes are jurisdiction-restricted catalogs run against the ordinary statewide Colorado and Washington panels, subset to include only jurisdictions with local elections in my sample.

For the El Paso and Kansas City cases, a parallel pipeline constructs panels in person-election format (rather than person-year), with employment snapshots taken as of each local election date. This pipeline follows its own company-identifier and treatment-group steps, adapted for the municipal electoral calendar and geography-specific company lists.

E.3 Election-Level Pipeline for Multidate States

The person-year pipeline is sufficient for most states in the sample because the relevant ballot campaigns map cleanly to one November general-election observation per year. A subset of six states (AZ, CA, ME, MO, OH, OK), however, contains multiple relevant ballot dates in the same calendar year—for example, a May primary ballot measure and a November general-election measure in the same year. For these states, a year-level treatment indicator is too coarse: a voter can be untreated in one election and treated in another within the same calendar year.

The election-level pipeline addresses this by constructing panels at the voter $\times$ election level rather than voter $\times$ year. For each election family represented in the ballot-measure sample—even-year November general, odd-year November, primary, and residual other election types—the pipeline retains all available same-family elections back to approximately 2010, so that each treated election is anchored by multiple untreated periods for matching and trend assessment. Employment snapshots are taken as of each exact election date rather than November 1, and treatment is assigned using exact election dates and election families rather than panel_year.

The election-level pipeline produces treatment timing and matched estimation inputs for the affected states. The estimation code handles both panel grains through an election_key abstraction that maps to election_id for multidate states and panel_year for year-grain states, with sequence-based lag lookups replacing year arithmetic.

E.4 House Elections: L2 Snapshot Vintages

L2's standard data format includes a binary indicator of voters' turnout in historical elections. However, it does not indicate *where* a voter was registered to vote in past elections. To ensure record not only turnout but also the specific House district in which a voter was eligible to vote at each election, I go back in time and find the closest point-in-time “snapshot” to each election date in each state. Figure A9 shows the snapshot used for each state and election. In most cases, especially for recent elections, I am able to use a “snapshot” within only several weeks of the election, ensuring that voters are accurately recorded.

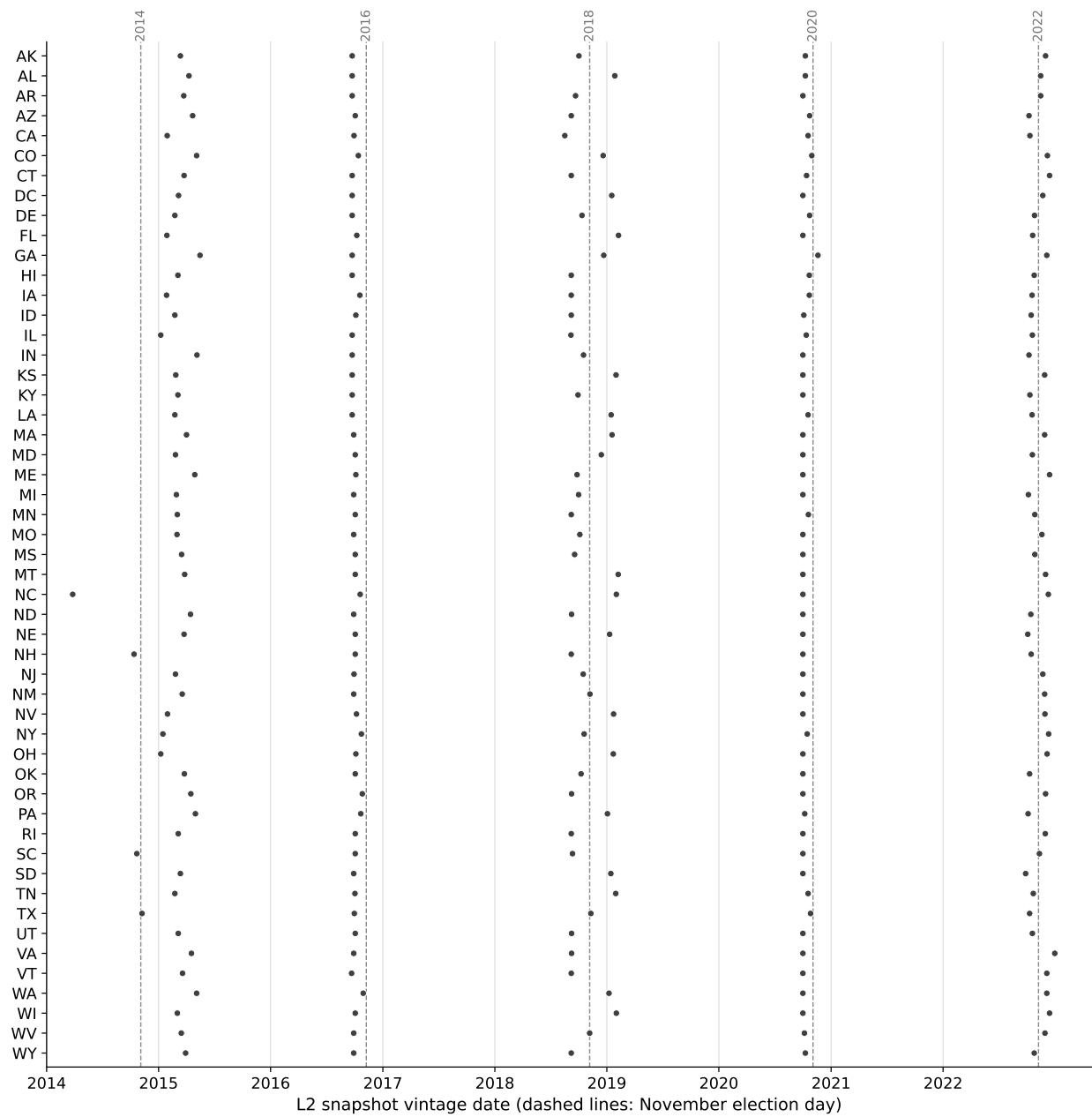


Figure A9: L2 snapshot vintages against the election calendar.

F Ballot Measure Classification

F.1 Material Stake Classification

For each firm $\times$ measure pair, I assess the *material stake* for workers—i.e., the extent to which the ballot measure affects employees jobs, income, or working conditions.

This classification is based upon two independent LLM raters (Claude Sonnet 5 and gpt-5.6-terra, both at high reasoning effort). Each rating agent received information about the specific employer (employer name, NAICS code, corporate parent, and workforce size), a detailed description of the ballot measure (based upon the information available from Ballotpedia), and the stance the firm took (support or oppose). Based upon this information, each rater assigns both a 0–10 material stake score, as well as a corresponding classification into “High” (score 8–10) “Medium” (4–7) or “Low” (1–3), based upon the detailed classification guide provided in Table A11. Each rating agent also provides a written explanation for its stance.

In cases where the two rating agents disagreed across categories (i.e., they do not agree whether the material stake is high, medium, or low), a third agent (Claude Opus 5), adjudicated between the two based upon the initial information provided as well as the written rationale provided by each rating agent. Of the 3,883 pairs, 3,006 resolved by consensus and 873 required adjudication. Table A12 reports inter-rater agreement statistics; over 92% of firm–measure pairs are within 2 score points of one another.

Table A13 reports the final distribution after adjudication.

Table A11: Material Stake Coding Guide

Category	Score	Criterion	Anchoring example
High	10	Employees lose their jobs if it passes/fails. Existential.	Coal-mining company opposing a ban on coal power (miners lose their jobs)
	9	Major workforce restructuring likely (lay-offs, closures, pay cuts).	Taxi company opposing rideshare legalization (workforce made obsolete)
	8	Employees’ core job functions or working conditions change substantially.	Hospital system opposing Medicaid expansion repeal (staffing levels change)
Medium	7	Meaningful impact on job security or compensation, not existential.	Trucking company opposing emissions rules requiring fleet replacement (costly adaptation)
	6	Some employees affected (one division), others not.	Pharmaceutical company opposing a drug-pricing measure (some sales roles affected, R&D not)
	5	Plausible but indirect—the firm cares, employees might notice.	Technology company opposing a data-privacy measure (compliance costs, daily work unchanged)
	4	Firm has a financial interest but employees’ daily work is unaffected.	Bank opposing a financial transaction tax (revenue hit, tellers’ jobs same)
Low	3	Marginal—industry-adjacent, employees keep jobs and conditions regardless.	Insurer opposing tort reform (industry-adjacent, employees unaffected)
	2	Firm takes a position on a policy tangential to its sector.	Oil company supporting a school-voucher initiative
	1	No connection to the firm’s business or employees’ work. Purely political, reputational, or ideological.	Software company weighing in on an animal-welfare ballot measure

This coding guide was dispatched to two rating agents (Claude Sonnet 5 and gpt-5.6-terra), alongside descriptions of each company and ballot question.

Table A12: Inter-Rater Agreement: Material Stake Classification

Statistic	Value
Firm–measure pairs scored by both raters	3,883
Category agreement (High/Medium/Low)	3,010 (77.5%)
Cohen’s κ (three categories)	0.625
Pearson r (1–10 scores)	0.875
Within 1 point	2,825 (72.8%)
Within 2 points	3,575 (92.1%)
Disagreements adjudicated (Opus 5)	873

Table A13: Material Stake Distribution

Material Stake	Statewide	Local	Total	%
High (8–10)	394	7	401	10.3
Medium (4–7)	1,416	283	1,699	43.8
Low (1–3)	1,523	260	1,783	45.9
Total	3,333	550	3,883	100.0

F.2 Policy Type Classification

I classify each ballot measure into one of ten policy type categories:

- **Industry Regulation:** measures that directly regulate a specific industry’s ability to operate, enter, or exit a market (e.g., cannabis legalization, gambling authorization)
- **Tax & Fiscal Policy:** measures that change tax rates, create or repeal taxes, or alter fiscal rules
- **Electoral & Governance:** measures affecting voting systems, redistricting, campaign finance, or government structure
- **Social & Civil Rights:** measures addressing abortion rights, gun control, criminal justice reform, or anti-discrimination
- **Labor & Employment:** measures on minimum wage, working conditions, paid leave, union rules, or occupational licensing
- **Education:** measures on school funding, vouchers, or teacher policy
- **Healthcare:** measures on health insurance, Medicaid, or drug pricing
- **Environment & Energy:** measures on emissions, clean energy mandates, or conservation
- **Housing & Land:** measures on rent control, property rights, or zoning
- **Other:** measures which do not fall into any of the above nine categories

This classification is based upon two independent LLM raters (Claude Sonnet 5 and gpt-5.6-terra, both at high reasoning effort). Each rating agent received information a detailed description of the ballot measure (based upon the information available from Ballotpedia). Based upon this information, each rater assigned the ballot question into a policy type category.

In cases where the two rating agents disagreed across categories (i.e., they do not agree whether the material stake is high, medium, or low), a third agent (Claude Opus 5) adjudicated between the two based upon the initial information provided as well as the written rationale provided by each rating agent. Table A14 reports agreement between the two coding agents after the initial run (prior to resolving disagreements).

Table A14: Inter-Rater Agreement: Ballot Measure Policy Type Classification

Statistic	All	Statewide	Local
Measures classified	409	370	39
Rated by both raters	409	370	39
Raw agreement	389 (95.1%)	350 (94.6%)	39 (100.0%)
Cohen’s κ	0.945	0.939	1.000
Disagreements adjudicated	20		
Resolved to Codex rater	16		
Resolved to Claude rater	4		

Table A15 reports the final policy type distribution after adjudication.

Table A15: Policy Type Distribution Across the Identified Statewide Measures

Policy Type	<i>N</i>	%
Industry Regulation	63	17.0
Electoral & Governance	56	15.1
Social & Civil Rights	55	14.9
Education	38	10.3
Tax & Fiscal Policy	38	10.3
Healthcare	35	9.5
Environment & Energy	34	9.2
Labor & Employment	24	6.5
Other	18	4.9
Housing & Land	9	2.4
Total	370	100.0

G Precinct Vote-Direction Construction

G.1 Precinct-Level Returns: Sources and Coverage

Precinct-level returns on ballot measures are harder to obtain than precinct-level returns on candidate races. The standardized academic collections—the MIT Election Data and Science Lab and the Voting and Election Science Team—publish precinct returns for *candidate* offices only. Neither publishes measure-level yes/no counts. Ballot-measure returns must therefore be obtained from each state’s own election authority, one state at a time, in whatever format that authority publishes. Although the turnout analysis spans 39 states, the vote-direction analysis is limited to seven that publish precinct-by-precinct ballot question results as well as contemporaneous precinct shapefile boundaries. Table A16 lists the source used for each. Precinct boundaries are redrawn between cycles, so geometry is vintage-specific: each measure is matched to the shapefile for its own state and year, and precinct identifiers are scoped to that layer. In addition to data restrictions, I also limit the estimation to districts in which corporate funders were only active on one side of a ballot question, as it is not theoretically clear how to treat precincts with workers employed at multiple opposing firms.

Table A16: Precinct-Level Ballot-Measure Returns: Source by State

State	Authority	Granularity	Format
California	Statewide Database (SWDB)	Precinct (SRPREC)	CSV/DBF
Georgia	Secretary of State (historical)	Precinct	Precinct files
Massachusetts	Secretary of the Commonwealth	Precinct	Searchable database
North Carolina	State Board of Elections	Precinct	Flat file
North Dakota	Secretary of State	Precinct	CSV/Excel
Nevada	Secretary of State	Precinct	CSV/Excel
Oklahoma	State Election Board	Precinct	CSV/ASCII

Notes: Precinct *geometry* comes from a different source: the Voting and Election Science Team and the Redistricting Data Hub publish precinct shapefiles by state and vintage, and California is matched to the Statewide Database’s own SRPREC shapefile. Returns and geometry are joined by precinct identifier, then workers are placed into the resulting polygons.

H Ballot Measure Inventory

H.1 State Ballot Measures

Table A18 lists the 264 statewide ballot measures identified by the case-identification pipeline—every measure that drew a contribution from a linkable corporate donor—spanning 39 states and election years 2016–2024. For each measure, the table reports total contributions for and against, the number of matched employer–voter firms contributing to the measure, and the electoral outcome. Measure descriptions were researched via Ballotpedia; contribution data are from OpenSecrets.

Table A17: Statewide Ballot Measures by State and Election Year

State	2016	2017	2018	2019	2020	2021	2022	2023	2024	Total
CA	14	—	11	—	10	—	7	—	9	51
CO	7	—	7	2	5	2	3	1	1	28
OR	4	—	6	—	1	—	3	—	1	15
WA	3	—	4	2	1	—	—	—	4	14
ME	2	1	1	—	2	1	—	3	2	12
MA	2	—	2	—	1	—	4	—	2	11
SD	3	—	2	—	1	—	2	—	3	11
AZ	1	—	1	—	2	—	1	—	5	10
FL	3	—	2	—	2	—	—	—	3	10
NV	3	—	1	—	1	—	1	—	3	9
OK	5	—	2	—	2	—	—	—	—	9
MO	1	—	2	—	2	—	1	—	2	8
NE	—	—	—	—	3	—	3	—	2	8
OH	—	—	2	—	—	—	1	3	1	7
AR	2	—	1	—	1	—	2	—	—	6
AK	1	—	1	—	2	—	1	—	—	5
TX	—	1	—	1	—	1	—	2	—	5
GA	2	—	1	—	—	—	1	—	—	4
LA	—	1	1	—	—	2	—	—	—	4
MT	1	—	3	—	—	—	—	—	—	4
ID	1	—	1	—	—	—	1	—	—	3
MI	—	—	1	—	1	—	1	—	—	3
ND	—	—	2	—	—	—	—	—	1	3
NY	—	1	—	—	—	—	1	—	1	3
UT	—	—	3	—	—	—	—	—	—	3
AL	1	—	—	—	1	—	—	—	—	2
CT	—	—	2	—	—	—	—	—	—	2
IL	1	—	—	—	1	—	—	—	—	2
MD	—	—	—	—	1	—	1	—	—	2
HI	—	—	1	—	—	—	—	—	—	1
KY	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	1	1
MN	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	1	1
MS	—	—	—	—	1	—	—	—	—	1
NC	1	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	1
NJ	—	—	—	—	1	—	—	—	—	1
NM	1	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	1
RI	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	1	1
VA	1	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	1
WI	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	1	1
Total	60	4	60	5	42	6	34	9	44	264

Notes: Counts are unique statewide ballot measures in the estimation sample (measures producing at least one matched firm-ballot-measure episode). Odd years include off-cycle state elections.

Table A18: Ballot Measures in the Estimation Sample. Table includes the 264 measures for which at least one firm–ballot-measure episode produced matched treated and control workers. “Firms” counts corporate contributors matched to Revelio Labs employer records. Dollar totals include all non-individual contributors, which includes contributors who do not appear in the empirical sample.

State	Measure	Year	Description	\$ For	\$ Against	Firms	Out
AK	MEASURE 001	2016	Allow voter registration via permanent fund dividend application.	\$1.2M	—	6	P
AK	MEASURE 001	2018	Establish stricter salmon habitat protections and environmental permits.	\$1.7M	\$12.0M	29	F
AK	MEASURE 001	2020	Increase taxes on North Slope oil production significantly.	\$1.5M	\$18.8M	7	F
AK	MEASURE 002	2020	Replace primaries with open top-four system and ranked-choice voting.	\$13.7M	\$553K	4	P
AK	BALLOT MEASURE 001	2022	Call a convention to amend Alaska’s constitution.	\$62K	\$4.6M	2	F
AL	AMENDMENT 002	2016	Protect state park funds from reallocation to general budget.	\$62K	—	2	P
AL	AMENDMENT 001 (PRIMARY)	2020	Change state board of education from elected to appointed.	\$476K	—	10	F
AR	ISSUE 003	2016	Remove 5% cap on state-issued economic development bonds.	\$386K	\$29K	28	P
AR	ISSUE 006	2016	Legalize marijuana for medical use with state regulation.	\$1.7M	\$426K	5	P
AR	ISSUE 005	2018	Raise minimum wage from \$8.50 to \$11.00 over three years.	\$1.5M	\$155K	3	P
AR	ISSUE 001	2020	Make permanent the temporary 0.5% sales tax for transportation.	\$2.3M	\$3K	33	P
AR	ISSUE 002	2022	Require 60% voter approval for constitutional amendments.	\$1.3M	\$2.0M	1	F
AR	ISSUE 004	2022	Legalize recreational marijuana for adults age 21+.	\$14.1M	\$2.8M	8	F
AZ	PROPOSITION 205	2016	Legalize marijuana for adults 21+; establish regulation system.	\$6.5M	\$8.4M	38	F
AZ	Proposition 127	2018	Increase renewable energy standards to 50% by 2030	\$25.3M	\$41.1M	6	F
AZ	Proposition 207	2020	Legalize recreational marijuana for adults 21+	\$6.0M	\$1.1M	28	P
AZ	Proposition 208	2020	3.5% income tax on earnings above \$250,000 for education	\$22.8M	\$4.3M	13	P
AZ	Proposition 310	2022	0.1% sales tax for 20 years to fund fire districts	\$563K	—	2	F
AZ	Proposition 134	2024	Require signature distribution across 30 legislative districts for initiatives	\$584K	—	1	F
AZ	Proposition 138	2024	Allow restaurants to pay tipped workers 25% below minimum wage	\$25K	\$5.8M	1	F
AZ	Proposition 139	2024	Constitutional right to abortion before fetal viability	\$35.3M	\$1.3M	3	P
AZ	Proposition 140	2024	Open primary with all candidates competing; possible ranked-choice voting	\$16.9M	\$150K	4	F
AZ	Proposition 312	2024	Property tax refunds for non-enforcement of public nuisance laws	\$1.1M	—	12	P
CA	Proposition 51	2016	\$9 billion bond for K-12 and community college facilities	\$11.3M	—	53	P
CA	Proposition 52	2016	Extend hospital fees for Medi-Cal indefinitely without regular reauthorization	\$15.3M	\$11.1M	5	P
CA	Proposition 53	2016	Require voter approval for revenue bonds over \$2 billion	\$5.0M	\$21.3M	40	F
CA	Proposition 55	2016	Extend income tax increase on earnings over \$250K for 12 years	\$61.1M	\$2K	5	P
CA	Proposition 56	2016	Increase excise tax on cigarettes and tobacco products	\$38.5M	\$71.2M	20	P
CA	Proposition 57	2016	Parole consideration for nonviolent felons; judges decide juvenile prosecutions	\$24.5M	\$1.9M	14	P

Continued on next page

Table A18 continued

State	Measure	Year	Description	\$ For	\$ Against	Firms	Out
CA	Proposition 58	2016	Allow multilingual education; repeal English-only immersion requirement	\$5.0M	—	13	P
CA	Proposition 60	2016	Mandate condoms in adult films; perform testing and licensing	\$4.7M	\$555K	7	F
CA	Proposition 61	2016	Limit state prescription drug purchases to VA pricing standards	\$19.2M	\$109.3M	32	F
CA	Proposition 62	2016	Repeal death penalty; convert to life without parole	\$15.6M	\$5.0M	15	F
CA	Proposition 63	2016	Background checks for ammo; ban large-capacity magazines over 10 rounds	\$4.1M	\$743K	2	P
CA	Proposition 64	2016	Legalize recreational cannabis for adults 21+	\$36.6M	\$2.5M	7	P
CA	Proposition 66	2016	Accelerated death penalty appeals procedures.	\$6.0M	\$10.0M	8	P
CA	Proposition 67	2016	Upheld 2014 statewide single-use plastic bag ban.	\$1.6M	\$2.9M	16	P
CA	Proposition 1	2018	\$4B housing and veterans' loans bond act.	\$9.3M	—	13	P
CA	Proposition 10	2018	Repeal Costa-Hawkins; allow local rent control.	\$25.8M	\$65.1M	43	F
CA	Proposition 11	2018	Allow ambulance firms to require on-call paid breaks.	\$30.0M	—	4	P
CA	Proposition 2	2018	\$2B homelessness prevention bonds from Prop 63.	\$6.8M	—	46	P
CA	Proposition 3	2018	\$8.9B water conservation and habitat bonds.	\$5.2M	—	29	F
CA	Proposition 4	2018	\$1.5B children's hospital construction bonds.	\$11.5M	—	7	P
CA	Proposition 6	2018	Repeal 2017 gas/vehicle tax increases; require voter approval for future.	\$4.1M	\$45.6M	51	F
CA	Proposition 68 (Primary)	2018	\$4B parks, environment, water, climate bond.	\$6.8M	—	46	P
CA	Proposition 69 (Primary)	2018	Lock SB 1 gas tax revenue to transportation only.	\$42.2M	—	52	P
CA	Proposition 72 (Primary)	2018	Exclude rainwater systems from property tax.	\$85K	—	11	P
CA	Proposition 8	2018	Cap dialysis clinic revenue; require refunds above 115% costs.	\$38.8M	\$111.5M	5	F
CA	Proposition 13 (Primary)	2020	\$15B K-12 and college facilities bond.	\$15.6M	—	27	F
CA	Proposition 15	2020	Tax commercial property at market value; fund schools/local govt.	\$81.7M	\$68.1M	44	F
CA	Proposition 16	2020	Repeal Prop 209; allow race/sex-based preferences.	\$26.6M	\$789K	22	F
CA	Proposition 17	2020	Restore voting rights for people on parole.	\$2.5M	—	22	P
CA	Proposition 18	2020	Allow 17-year-olds to vote in primaries.	\$1.3M	—	22	F
CA	Proposition 20	2020	Restrict parole; increase crime charges; mandate DNA collection.	—	\$21.9M	8	F
CA	Proposition 21	2020	Allow local rent control on 15+ year occupied units.	\$38.7M	\$78.2M	43	F
CA	Proposition 22	2020	Classify app drivers as contractors, not employees.	\$205.1M	\$19.4M	9	P
CA	Proposition 23	2020	Mandate dialysis clinic physician, infection reporting, closure permits.	\$11.7M	\$105.2M	5	F
CA	Proposition 25	2020	Repeal 2018 bail reform; restore risk assessment system.	\$2.1M	\$24.8M	5	F
CA	Proposition 1 - Right to Reproductive Freedom	2022	Constitutional amendment establishing right to abortion and contraceptives.	\$17.4M	\$237K	14	P
CA	Proposition 26 - Legalize Sports Betting on Tribal Lands	2022	Authorization for in-person sports betting at tribal casinos and racetracks.	\$120.7M	\$43.8M	29	F
CA	Proposition 27 - Legalize Online Sports Betting	2022	Legalization of online and mobile sports betting with homelessness funding.	\$169.6M	\$237.8M	24	F
CA	Proposition 28 - Arts and Music K-12 Education	2022	Annual 1% K-12 funding minimum for arts and music instruction.	\$10.5M	—	6	P
CA	Proposition 29 - Dialysis Clinic Requirements	2022	Physician staffing and reporting requirements for dialysis clinics.	\$16.2M	\$74.6M	5	F
CA	Proposition 30 - Electric Vehicle and Wildfire Tax	2022	1.75% income tax on earnings above \$2 million for green infrastructure.	\$50.9M	\$30.8M	6	F
CA	Proposition 31 - Flavored Tobacco Products Ban	2022	Referendum on 2020 law banning flavored tobacco, menthol, vape pods.	\$48.1M	\$2.2M	3	P

Continued on next page

Table A18 continued

State	Measure	Year	Description	\$ For	\$ Against	Firms	Out
CA	Proposition 1 - Behavioral Health Bond (March 2024)	2024	\$6.38 billion bond for mental health treatment and homeless housing.	\$23.6M	\$1.5M	35	P
CA	Proposition 2 - Public Education Facilities Bond	2024	\$10 billion bond for K-12 and community college facility improvements.	\$14.6M	—	39	P
CA	Proposition 3 - Right to Marry Amendment	2024	Constitutional amendment protecting right to marry regardless of gender.	\$3.9M	—	5	P
CA	Proposition 32 - \$18 Minimum Wage Initiative	2024	Phased increase of minimum wage to \$18 per hour by 2026.	\$1.0M	\$855K	3	F
CA	Proposition 33 - Local Rent Control Authority	2024	Allow cities and counties to enact rent control without state restrictions.	\$50.8M	\$124.4M	8	F
CA	Proposition 35 - Managed Care Organization Tax Authorization	2024	Permanent tax on health insurance plans for Medi-Cal services.	\$53.7M	—	17	P
CA	Proposition 36 - Drug and Theft Crime Penalties	2024	Increase penalties for drug possession and theft; add treatment-mandated felonies.	\$14.8M	\$7.9M	25	P
CA	Proposition 4 - Safe Drinking Water, Wildfire Prevention, and Climate Bond	2024	\$10 billion bond for water, wildfire, and climate infrastructure.	\$14.9M	—	6	P
CA	Proposition 5 - Lower Supermajority for Local Bonds to 55%	2024	Reduce local bond vote requirement from two-thirds to 55% for housing and infrastructure.	\$29.3M	\$28.7M	20	F
CO	Amendment 071	2016	Supermajority requirement and geographic signature distribution for constitutional amendments	\$24.8M	\$2.0M	40	P
CO	Amendment 072	2016	Tobacco tax increase by \$1.75 per pack of cigarettes	\$2.4M	\$11.9M	24	F
CO	Amendment 69 - ColoradoCare State Health Care System	2016	Proposed universal single-payer health care system for Colorado.	\$603K	\$5.1M	47	F
CO	Amendment 70 - \$12 Minimum Wage	2016	Phased increase of minimum wage to \$12 per hour by 2020.	\$5.3M	\$2.3M	28	P
CO	Proposition 106	2016	Legalize medical aid-in-dying for terminally ill patients	\$11.0M	\$2.8M	4	P
CO	Proposition 107	2016	Establish presidential primary elections and allow unaffiliated voter participation	\$6.0M	\$71K	24	P
CO	Proposition 108	2016	Open primary elections to unaffiliated voters	\$6.0M	\$71K	24	P
CO	Amendment 073	2018	Progressive income tax and corporate tax increase to fund K-12 education	\$1.5M	\$4.2M	20	F
CO	Amendment 074	2018	Require compensation for property value reductions from state regulation	\$11.2M	\$8.2M	7	F
CO	Amendment Y	2018	Create independent commission for congressional redistricting	\$6.6M	—	7	P
CO	Amendment Z	2018	Create independent commission for state legislative redistricting	\$6.6M	—	7	P
CO	Proposition 109	2018	\$3.5 billion transportation bond for roads and bridges	\$779K	\$7.2M	55	F
CO	Proposition 110	2018	Sales tax increase and bonds for multimodal transportation	\$7.2M	\$30K	54	F
CO	Proposition 112	2018	2,500-foot setback for new oil and gas development	\$1.5M	\$44.5M	55	F
CO	Proposition CC	2019	Allow state to retain revenue above TABOR limit	\$4.6M	\$1.1M	9	F
CO	Proposition DD	2019	Legalize and tax sports betting; fund water projects	\$3.9M	—	8	P
CO	Amendment 077	2020	Allow local voter approval to expand casino games and increase bet limits	\$4.6M	—	7	P
CO	Amendment B	2020	Repeal Gallagher Amendment; freeze residential property tax rate	\$7.8M	\$722K	11	P
CO	Proposition 114	2020	Require reintroduction and management of gray wolves	\$2.2M	\$1.0M	1	P
CO	Proposition 118	2020	Paid family and medical leave insurance program funded by payroll tax.	\$9.0M	\$800K	23	P
CO	Proposition EE	2020	Tax increase on cigarettes, tobacco, and nicotine products.	\$5.0M	\$4.5M	9	P
CO	Proposition 119	2021	LEAP program for out-of-school enrichment funded by marijuana sales tax increase.	\$3.0M	\$84K	4	F

Continued on next page

Table A18 continued

State	Measure	Year	Description	\$ For	\$ Against	Firms	Out
CO	Proposition 120	2021	Reduce property tax rates and retain \$25 million TABOR surplus.	\$1.6M	—	1	F
CO	Proposition 123	2022	Dedicate income tax revenue to affordable housing funding programs.	\$6.6M	\$10K	11	P
CO	Proposition 125	2022	Allow wine sales in grocery and convenience stores.	\$14.6M	\$903K	18	P
CO	Proposition 126	2022	Allow third-party alcohol delivery from retailers and restaurants.	\$14.6M	\$903K	18	F
CO	Proposition HH	2023	Property tax relief, backfill local governments, and new revenue cap.	\$3.4M	\$2.1M	7	F
CO	Proposition 131	2024	All-candidate primary and ranked-choice voting for general elections.	\$19.1M	\$650K	1	F
CT	Amendment 001	2018	Lockbox restricting Special Transportation Fund to transportation uses.	\$85K	—	5	P
CT	Amendment 002	2018	Require two-thirds legislative vote to transfer state properties.	\$180K	—	1	P
FL	Amendment 001	2016	Consumer protections for solar energy ownership and rooftop systems.	\$26.4M	\$514K	6	F
FL	Amendment 002	2016	Medical marijuana legalization with patient/caregiver regulations.	\$5.7M	\$3.5M	6	P
FL	Amendment 004	2016	Property tax exemption for solar and renewable energy devices.	\$2.6M	—	7	P
FL	Amendment 002	2018	Cap nonhomestead property tax assessment increases at 10%.	\$11.0M	\$110K	1	P
FL	Amendment 003	2018	Voter approval required for casino gambling authorization.	\$46.2M	\$16.7M	12	P
FL	Amendment 002	2020	Raise minimum wage to \$15 per hour over six years.	\$6.2M	\$686K	18	P
FL	Amendment 003	2020	Replace closed primaries with top-two open primaries for state offices.	\$7.7M	—	1	F
FL	AMENDMENT 003	2024	Marijuana legalization for adults 21+	\$133.2M	\$33.2M	27	F
FL	AMENDMENT 004	2024	Right to abortion before fetal viability	\$109.8M	\$11.0M	13	F
FL	Amendment 002	2024	Constitutional right to hunt and fish using traditional methods.	\$1.2M	\$131K	17	P
GA	AMENDMENT 001	2016	State intervention in failing public schools	\$3.4M	\$5.2M	1	F
GA	AMENDMENT 002	2016	Safe Harbor for sexually exploited children fund	\$531K	—	18	P
GA	AMENDMENT 001	2018	Outdoor recreation sales tax to land conservation	\$609K	—	8	P
GA	REFERENDUM A	2022	Timber equipment exempt from property taxes	\$461K	—	8	P
HI	SB 2922	2018	Surcharge on residential investment properties for education	\$888K	\$1.3M	9	P*
ID	HJR 005	2016	Veto-proof legislative oversight of administrative rules	\$107K	—	8	P
ID	PROPOSITION 002	2018	Medicaid expansion to 133% federal poverty level	\$1.7M	\$60K	8	P
ID	SJR 102	2022	Legislature authority to call special session amendment	—	\$794K	14	P
IL	HJRCA 036	2016	Transportation funds lockbox amendment	\$3.8M	—	36	P
IL	SJR 001	2020	Allow graduated income tax rates	\$62.3M	\$61.3M	11	F
KY	AMENDMENT 002	2024	Allow state funding for non-public education	\$5.2M	\$10.3M	2	F
LA	AMENDMENT 001	2017	No property tax on properties under construction	\$533K	—	6	P
LA	AMENDMENT 002	2018	Require unanimous jury verdicts for felonies	\$2.1M	—	3	P
LA	AMENDMENT 001	2021	State and local streamlined sales tax commission	\$69K	—	6	F
LA	AMENDMENT 002	2021	Reduce maximum individual income tax rate	\$69K	—	6	P
MA	QUESTION 002	2016	Charter school enrollment cap expansion proposal	\$27.0M	\$17.2M	5	F
MA	QUESTION 004	2016	Legalize and regulate recreational marijuana	\$6.8M	\$3.1M	17	P

Continued on next page

Table A18 continued

State	Measure	Year	Description	\$ For	\$ Against	Firms	Out
MA	QUESTION 001	2018	Establish maximum patient assignments per nurse	\$12.0M	\$25.0M	3	F
MA	QUESTION 003	2018	Uphold law protecting transgender people in public accommodations	\$4.5M	\$442K	33	P
MA	QUESTION 001	2020	Vehicle data access for independent repair shops	\$25.0M	\$26.6M	30	P
MA	QUESTION 001	2022	4% tax on income over \$1 million for education/transport	\$31.9M	\$14.0M	12	P
MA	QUESTION 002	2022	Require dental insurers spend 83% on patient care	\$10.0M	\$9.5M	6	P
MA	QUESTION 003	2022	Increase statewide alcohol retail license limits	\$983K	—	12	F
MA	QUESTION 004	2022	Allow driver licenses without citizenship verification	\$3.5M	\$187K	10	P
MA	QUESTION 002	2024	Eliminate MCAS test as graduation requirement	\$15.4M	\$5.4M	3	P
MA	QUESTION 005	2024	Eliminate tipped minimum wage; phase in full minimum	\$1.8M	\$3.1M	42	F
MD	QUESTION 002	2020	Legalize sports betting for education funding	\$5.5M	—	7	P
MD	QUESTION 004	2022	Legalize recreational marijuana for adults 21+	\$450K	—	10	P
ME	QUESTION 002	2016	3% income tax surcharge on incomes over \$200k	\$3.9M	\$505K	11	P
ME	QUESTION 004	2016	Raise minimum wage to \$12 by 2020	\$4.0M	\$183K	14	P
ME	QUESTION 001	2017	Allow casino or slot machines in York County	\$13.5M	\$723K	4	F
ME	QUESTION 001	2018	Tax payroll/non-wage income for universal home care	\$1.7M	\$1.5M	27	F
ME	QUESTION 001 (JULY PRIMARY)	2020	High-speed internet infrastructure bond.	\$134K	—	10	P
ME	QUESTION 001 (MARCH PRIMARY)	2020	Religious and philosophical vaccination exemptions referendum.	\$461K	\$943K	7	F
ME	QUESTION 001	2021	Stop the New England Clean Energy Connect transmission line.	\$27.7M	\$79.5M	5	P
ME	QUESTION 001	2023	Voter approval required for state borrowing above \$1 billion.	\$662K	—	1	P
ME	QUESTION 003	2023	Create consumer-owned Pine Tree Power Company utility.	\$715K	\$28.4M	4	F
ME	QUESTION 004	2023	Right to repair for vehicles; require diagnostic data access.	\$4.9M	\$117K	9	P
ME	QUESTION 002	2024	\$25 million research and development bond for science/tech.	\$109K	—	15	P
ME	QUESTION 004	2024	\$30 million bond for trail design, development, maintenance.	\$143K	—	5	P
MI	PROPOSAL 18-1	2018	Legalizes recreational marijuana for adults 21+.	\$4.0M	\$2.7M	11	P
MI	PROPOSAL 001	2020	Expand state and local park fund usage.	\$905K	—	2	P
MI	PROPOSAL 001	2022	Limit legislature to 12 combined years; require financial disclosures.	\$1.3M	\$142K	11	P
MN	AMENDMENT 001	2024	Extend lottery revenue dedication for environment through 2050.	\$1.4M	—	1	P
MO	CONSTITUTIONAL AMENDMENT 003	2016	Increase cigarette tax 60 cents over 4 years for early childhood.	\$13.9M	—	10	F
MO	PROPOSITION A (PRIMARY)	2018	Right-to-work law veto referendum.	\$6.6M	\$29.3M	12	F
MO	Proposition D	2018	Gas tax increase and transportation infrastructure funding.	\$4.9M	—	41	F
MO	Amendment 002 (August Primary)	2020	Medicaid expansion to adults earning up to 138% of poverty.	\$14.3M	\$112K	20	P
MO	Amendment 003	2020	Redistricting, lobbying, and campaign finance reforms.	\$158K	\$7.4M	5	P
MO	Question 3	2022	Legalized recreational marijuana for adults age 21+.	\$8.4M	—	20	P
MO	Amendment 002	2024	Legalized sports betting statewide with 10% wagering tax.	\$45.6M	\$14.2M	10	P

Continued on next page

Table A18 continued

State	Measure	Year	Description	\$ For	\$ Against	Firms	Out
MO	Amendment 006	2024	Court fees to fund law enforcement salaries and benefits.	\$247K	—	1	F
MS	Ballot Measure 001	2020	Medical marijuana amendment (Initiative 65/Alternative 65A).	\$7.6M	\$338K	5	P*
MT	I-181	2016	Biomedical research bonds for brain disease cures.	\$420K	\$732K	7	F
MT	I-185	2018	Tobacco tax increase funding Medicaid expansion.	\$9.8M	\$17.5M	10	F
MT	I-186	2018	Denied permits for hard rock mines requiring perpetual water treatment.	\$1.8M	\$5.6M	6	F
MT	LR-128	2018	6-mill property tax for Montana University System.	\$1.9M	\$4K	12	P
NC	HB 943 (Primary)	2016	\$2 billion bond issuance for infrastructure and economic development.	\$1.7M	\$3K	35	P
ND	Initiated Constitutional Measure 001	2018	Ethics commission, transparency, conflicts of interest, foreign contribution ban.	\$836K	\$457K	5	P
ND	Initiated Constitutional Measure 003	2018	Legalized recreational marijuana for adults 21+.	\$94K	\$344K	2	F
ND	Initiated Measure 004	2024	Prohibited property taxes on assessed real property value.	\$198K	\$2.0M	9	F
NE	Initiative 429	2020	Constitutional amendment authorizing race-track gambling	\$7.3M	\$3.5M	6	P
NE	Initiative 430	2020	Authorize gambling operations at licensed racetracks	\$7.3M	\$3.5M	6	P
NE	Initiative 431	2020	20% tax on racetrack gambling revenue	\$7.3M	\$3.5M	6	P
NE	Amendment 001	2022	Allow local governments to develop commercial air service	\$284K	—	21	P
NE	Initiative 432	2022	Require photo ID for voting	\$2.2M	\$77K	3	P
NE	Initiative 433	2022	Increase state minimum wage to \$15/hour	\$3.1M	\$51K	5	P
NE	Initiative 436	2024	Require employers to provide paid sick leave	\$3.5M	—	5	P
NE	Referendum 435	2024	Repeal education scholarship/school choice program	\$1.5M	\$7.6M	5	P
NJ	Public Question 001	2020	Legalize recreational marijuana	\$2.0M	\$10K	5	P
NM	Bond Measure C	2016	\$141 million in higher education bonds	\$300K	—	3	P
NV	Question 001	2016	Require background checks for firearm purchases	\$17.4M	\$6.7M	7	P
NV	Question 002	2016	Legalize recreational marijuana	\$3.6M	—	13	P
NV	Question 003	2016	Open electricity markets; eliminate utility monopoly	\$3.4M	\$910K	3	P
NV	Question 003	2018	Prohibit state-sanctioned electric utility monopolies	\$34.2M	\$64.0M	7	F
NV	Question 001	2020	Remove Board of Regents from state constitution	\$1.3M	—	2	F
NV	Question 003	2022	Implement top-five ranked-choice voting	\$23.0M	\$2.4M	2	P
NV	QUESTION 003	2024	Top-Five Ranked-Choice Voting and Open Primaries	\$29.0M	\$3.3M	2	F
NV	QUESTION 006	2024	Right to Abortion until Fetal Viability	\$13.1M	—	2	P
NV	QUESTION 007	2024	Voter Identification Requirement for Voting	\$1.8M	\$60K	2	P
NY	PROPOSAL 001	2017	Constitutional Convention Automatic Referendum	\$1.0M	\$4.1M	15	F
NY	PROPOSAL 001	2022	Environmental Bond Act for Climate Investment	\$4.6M	—	6	P
NY	PROPOSAL 001	2024	Equal Protection Amendment Expanding Anti-Discrimination Protections	\$7.3M	\$8.6M	2	P
OH	ISSUE 001	2018	Drug and Criminal Justice Sentencing Reductions	\$17.6M	\$1.7M	8	F
OH	ISSUE 001 (PRIMARY)	2018	Congressional Redistricting Procedures Amendment	\$231K	—	4	P
OH	ISSUE 001	2022	Bail Determination Based on Public Safety Amendment	\$466K	—	3	P
OH	ISSUE 001	2023	Right to Reproductive Freedom Including Abortion	\$62.2M	\$57.9M	4	P

Continued on next page

Table A18 continued

State	Measure	Year	Description	\$ For	\$ Against	Firms	Out
OH	ISSUE 001 (SPECIAL)	2023	60% Vote Requirement for Constitutional Amendments	\$36.8M	\$22.0M	9	F
OH	ISSUE 002	2023	Legalization of Recreational Marijuana	\$5.4M	\$920K	18	P
OH	ISSUE 001	2024	Citizens Redistricting Commission for Fair Maps	\$43.0M	\$7.4M	8	F
OK	STATE QUESTION 777	2016	Right to Farm and Ranch Constitutional Amendment	\$1.6M	\$2.5M	8	F
OK	STATE QUESTION 779	2016	One Percent Sales Tax Increase for Education	\$7.2M	\$896K	21	F
OK	STATE QUESTION 780	2016	Drug and Property Crime Reclassification to Misdemeanors	\$4.7M	\$4K	4	P
OK	STATE QUESTION 781	2016	Rehabilitative Programs Fund from Prison Cost Savings	\$4.7M	—	4	P
OK	STATE QUESTION 792	2016	Beer and Wine Sales in Retail Stores Amendment	\$5.3M	\$12K	5	P
OK	STATE QUESTION 788 (PRIMARY)	2018	Medical Marijuana Legalization and Regulation	\$305K	\$1.3M	22	P
OK	STATE QUESTION 793	2018	Optometrists and Opticians in Retail Establishments	\$4.6M	\$2.4M	4	F
OK	QUESTION 802 (PRIMARY)	2020	Medicaid Expansion to 133% Federal Poverty Level	\$3.0M	\$311K	4	P
OK	QUESTION 805	2020	Criminal History Sentencing Enhancement Prohibition	\$2.5M	\$303K	2	F
OR	MEASURE 097	2016	Corporate Minimum Tax Increase on Large Businesses	\$18.6M	\$22.3M	80	F
OR	MEASURE 098	2016	State Funding for Dropout Prevention and College Readiness	\$10.5M	—	9	P
OR	MEASURE 099	2016	Outdoor School Education Fund	\$2.3M	—	6	P
OR	MEASURE 100	2016	Ban on wildlife trafficking and endangered species sales	\$3.2M	—	4	P
OR	MEASURE 101 (SPECIAL)	2018	Tax on hospital and insurer premiums for Medicaid expansion	\$9.4M	\$393K	14	P
OR	MEASURE 102	2018	Allow municipal bonds for private affordable housing development	\$11.4M	—	18	P
OR	MEASURE 103	2018	Constitutional prohibition on future grocery taxes	\$6.3M	\$14.3M	14	F
OR	MEASURE 104	2018	Require three-fifths vote for revenue through tax changes	\$2.8M	\$11.7M	23	F
OR	MEASURE 105	2018	Repeal state law barring immigration enforcement aid	\$235K	\$14.2M	11	F
OR	MEASURE 106	2018	Constitutional ban on public funding for abortion	\$608K	\$14.8M	4	F
OR	MEASURE 108	2020	Increase tobacco/e-cigarette taxes for health treatment	\$10.7M	\$56K	17	P
OR	MEASURE 111	2022	First state constitutional right to healthcare	\$2.4M	—	2	P
OR	MEASURE 112	2022	Remove slavery exception from criminal punishment	\$2.6M	—	5	P
OR	MEASURE 114	2022	Firearm permit requirement and magazine capacity limits	\$4.7M	\$190K	2	P
OR	MEASURE 118	2024	Corporate sales tax with resident rebate distribution	\$830K	\$15.0M	65	F
RI	QUESTION 004	2024	\$53 million environmental and recreational infrastructure	\$216K	—	6	P
SD	AMENDMENT R	2016	Governing boards for higher education institutions	\$486K	—	21	P
SD	INITIATED MEASURE 022	2016	Creates ethics commission and publicly funded campaigns	\$1.7M	\$739K	6	P
SD	INITIATED MEASURE 023	2016	Right-to-work modification for non-union fees	\$991K	\$332K	10	F
SD	CONSTITUTIONAL AMENDMENT W	2018	Campaign finance and lobbying governance amendment	\$1.0M	\$231K	1	F
SD	INITIATED MEASURE 025	2018	Tobacco tax increase funds technical education	\$1.0M	\$6.0M	28	F

Continued on next page

Table A18 continued

State	Measure	Year	Description	\$ For	\$ Against	Firms	Out
SD	CONSTITUTIONAL AMENDMENT A	2020	Marijuana legalization amendment (overturned)	\$2.4M	\$249K	2	P*
SD	CONSTITUTIONAL AMENDMENT C (PRIMARY)	2022	Supermajority vote requirement for tax measures	\$906K	\$2.8M	5	F
SD	CONSTITUTIONAL AMENDMENT D	2022	Medicaid expansion to 138% of poverty level	\$5.0M	—	5	P
SD	CONSTITUTIONAL AMENDMENT H	2024	Top-two primary elections system	\$1.6M	\$136K	1	F
SD	INITIATED MEASURE 028	2024	Prohibit food and grocery sales taxes	\$71K	\$262K	3	F
SD	REFERRED LAW 021	2024	CO2 pipelines regulation referendum	\$2.9M	\$264K	2	F
TX	PROPOSITION 002	2017	Home equity loan regulations amendment	\$1.6M	—	11	P
TX	PROPOSITION 005	2019	Sporting goods tax revenue for parks and wildlife	\$753K	—	2	P
TX	PROPOSITION 002	2021	Infrastructure bonds for blighted areas	\$520K	\$5K	1	P
TX	PROPOSITION 001	2023	Right to farming and ranching agriculture	\$1.1M	—	4	P
TX	PROPOSITION 005	2023	Rename and fund Texas University research	\$1.5M	—	4	P
UT	PROPOSITION 002	2018	Medical marijuana legalization	\$945K	\$1.1M	7	P
UT	PROPOSITION 004	2018	Independent redistricting commission	\$2.4M	—	5	P
UT	QUESTION 001	2018	10-cent gas tax for education and roads	\$2.7M	—	16	F
VA	QUESTION 001	2016	Constitutionalize state right-to-work protections	\$37K	—	2	F
WA	INITIATIVE 1464	2016	Public campaign financing via democracy credits	\$4.2M	\$28K	2	F
WA	INITIATIVE 1491	2016	Court orders preventing firearm access for high-risk persons	\$3.3M	—	2	P
WA	INITIATIVE 732	2016	Nation's first carbon tax; reduce sales tax 1%	\$2.9M	\$1.5M	22	F
WA	INITIATIVE 1631	2018	Carbon emissions fee with environmental funding	\$15.2M	\$31.6M	19	F
WA	INITIATIVE 1634	2018	Ban local taxes on groceries; corporate-backed	\$22.4M	\$113K	6	P
WA	INITIATIVE 1639	2018	Raise minimum age and add restrictions for semiautomatic rifles	\$5.4M	\$656K	3	P
WA	INITIATIVE 940	2018	Require de-escalation training; reform deadly force standards	\$3.2M	\$289K	8	P
WA	INITIATIVE 976	2019	Cap vehicle licenses at \$30; eliminate transport taxes	\$66K	\$4.8M	47	P*
WA	REFERENDUM 088	2019	Vote on legislature's affirmative action authorization	\$408K	\$649K	12	F
WA	REFERENDUM 090	2020	Approve comprehensive sexual health education mandate	\$1.7M	\$315K	4	P
WA	INITIATIVE 2066	2024	Prevent restrictions on natural gas; protect consumer choice	\$9.5M	\$6.0M	7	P
WA	INITIATIVE 2109	2024	Eliminate 7% capital gains excise tax on investments	\$9.5M	\$10.1M	7	F
WA	INITIATIVE 2117	2024	Repeal Climate Commitment Act; ban cap-and-trade	\$9.5M	\$22.0M	18	F
WA	INITIATIVE 2124	2024	Allow opt-out from WA Cares insurance program	\$9.5M	\$19.5M	6	F
WI	QUESTION 001 (PRIMARY)	2024	Prohibit legislature delegation of appropriation authority	\$17K	\$4.8M	2	F

Notes: "\$ For" and "\$ Against" report total contributions from all donors (not limited to firms in our sample) as recorded in OpenSecrets ballot measure contribution data. "Firms" is the number of companies in our matched employer-voter sample that contributed to this measure. Outcome codes: P = Passed, F = Failed, W = Withdrawn, P* = Passed but later overturned by court. Contribution data sourced from OpenSecrets (formerly FollowTheMoney). Measure descriptions researched via Ballotpedia.

H.2 Local Ballot Measures

Table A19 lists all 39 local ballot measure episodes included in the estimation sample, spanning Washington cities, counties and school districts, Colorado counties, El Paso TX, and Kansas City MO. The identification procedure follows three stages: (1) scraping campaign finance records, (2) verifying committee–ballot-question linkages, and (3) filtering to estimable episodes.

Campaign finance scraping Local ballot measure committees and their corporate contributors were identified from state campaign finance databases: Colorado’s TRACER system (Secretary of State bulk CSV downloads) and Washington’s PDC (Public Disclosure Commission Socrata API). In these two programmatic crosswalks, contributors were filtered to corporate entities, matched to Revelio Labs employment records, and required to have at least 10 linked employees and a contribution of at least \$1,000. Colorado applies the employee screen to the firm’s linked Colorado workforce; Washington applies it to the firm’s linked total across states. Industries classified as advocacy organizations (NAICS 813xxx) and campaign service vendors (advertising, PR, management consulting) were excluded. The El Paso and Kansas City cases use separately verified, hand-assembled company lists rather than the Colorado or Washington crosswalk rules.

Committee-to-ballot-question verification Unlike statewide ballot measures—where campaign finance records link directly to specific propositions—local campaign committees are often standing organizations that fundraise continuously across election cycles. A committee’s presence in a given year’s campaign finance records does not guarantee that a ballot question appeared on the ballot that year. To address this, each committee–year pair was independently verified against county election records, Ballotpedia, the Colorado Secretary of State’s election results archive, and local news coverage. For each entry, I confirmed: (a) the specific ballot question number, (b) a description of the measure, and (c) the election outcome. Committee–year pairs that could not be linked to a specific ballot question were excluded.

Episode construction After treated and control voters were restricted to the measure’s jurisdiction, Colorado and Washington candidate episodes with fewer than 20 treated voters were not sent to estimation. This preliminary catalog screen did not replace the estimator’s common pre-matching rule: local and statewide episodes alike required at least 50 treated voters with valid employment records before coarsened exact matching against employed controls whose employers do not mobilize on any measure in the state.

Table A19: Local Ballot Measure Episodes with Matched Corporate Contributors. Each row is one estimated episode (ballot measure campaign × stance). “Firms” counts corporate contributors matched to Revelio Labs employer records. “Treated” is the number of matched employees at contributing firms. Episodes require ≥50 treated voters; treated employees are retained when coarsened exact matching finds an employed control at a non-contributing firm in their cell.

Jurisdiction	Committee	Year	Stance	\$ Contrib	Firms	Treated
Adams, CO	SUPPORT ANYTHINK LIBRARIES	2018	Support	\$24K	7	125
Arapahoe, CO	SAFER ARAPAHOE COUNTY	2019	Support	\$86K	17	68
Jefferson, CO	KEEP JEFFCO SAFE	2019	Support	\$4K	2	271
Weld, CO	GROWING GREAT SCHOOLS	2019	Support	\$59K	10	194
El Paso, CO	PRIORITIES COS	2020	Support	\$34K	8	49
Arapahoe, CO	PRESERVE ARAPAHOE’S OPEN SPACES	2021	Support	\$34K	7	789
Mesa, CO	CITIZENS FOR D51 SCHOOLS	2021	Support	\$92K	17	83
Douglas, CO	INVEST IN DCSD	2023	Support	\$159K	22	85
Arapahoe, CO	CITIZENS FOR CHERRY CREEK SCHOOLS FUTURE	2024	Support	\$356K	19	100
Douglas, CO	INVEST IN DCSD	2024	Support	\$208K	32	505
Mesa, CO	CITIZENS FOR D51 SCHOOLS	2024	Support	\$50K	11	212
Kansas City, MO	Kansas City Sports Stadium Sales Tax (Question 1)	2024	Support	\$6.0M	2	156
El Paso, TX	El Paso Proposition K	2023	Oppose	\$589K	6	454
Spokane County, WA	YES FOR SPOKANE COUNTY LIBRARIES	2019	Support	\$1K	1	405
King County, WA	Harborview Health for All	2020	Support	\$188K	16	17,166
Seattle, WA	Yes for Transit	2020	Support	\$128K	15	1,485
King County, WA	Best Starts for Kids	2021	Support	\$592K	27	17,138
Seattle, WA	A Better Seattle	2021	Support	\$6K	6	65
Seattle, WA	Compassion Seattle	2021	Support	\$760K	41	209
Spokane, WA	Avista Employees FOR Proposition 1	2021	Support	\$224K	1	293
Spokane SD 081, WA	Citizens for Spokane Schools (CFSS)	2021	Support	\$19K	9	53
Bellevue, WA	Livability Bellevue	2022	Support	\$37K	5	1,843
Highline SD 401, WA	Yes For Highline	2022	Support	\$22K	9	142
King County, WA	Conserve Our Future (Yes on KC Prop 1)	2022	Support	\$82K	8	16,781
Olympia, WA	COMMITTEE TO INSPIRE OLYMPIA!	2022	Support	\$20K	3	146
Redmond, WA	Yes for Redmond Safety: Sponsored by Tanika Pad...	2022	Support	\$22K	3	2,222
Seattle, WA	Seattle for Election Simplicity	2022	Oppose	\$6K	4	67
Seattle SD 001, WA	Schools First Coalition	2022	Support	\$50K	12	72
Tacoma SD 010, WA	Tacoma Citizens for Schools	2022	Support	\$86K	23	585
Whatcom County, WA	Yes for Whatcom Kids!	2022	Support	\$34K	4	661

Continued on next page

Table A19 continued

Jurisdiction	Committee	Year	Stance	\$ Contrib	Firms	Treated
King County, WA	Building Behavioral Health	2023	Support	\$132K	12	18,939
King County, WA	Yes for Vets & Seniors	2023	Support	\$68K	9	18,183
Seattle, WA	Yes for Homes	2023	Support	\$387K	43	5,932
Vancouver, WA	Bring Vancouver Home	2023	Support	\$73K	8	553
Seattle, WA	Keep Seattle Moving 2024	2024	Support	\$338K	44	5,932
Snohomish County, WA	Safe Snohomish County	2024	Support	\$6K	3	259
Spokane, WA	Yes, Safe Spokane	2024	Support	\$5K	1	323
Tacoma SD 010, WA	Tacoma Citizens for Schools 2024	2024	Support	\$130K	32	606
Whatcom County, WA	Washingtonians for a Sound Economy	2024	Support	\$50K	23	101

H.3 Measures in the Precinct-Level Sample

The precinct-level analyses includes a much smaller subset of the ballot questions used in the main analysis. Many states do not provide precinct-level results for ballot questions, which limits the sample; other states (Idaho, Maryland, Montana, North Dakota, Nevada, Oklahoma, and Virginia) have precinct results but I was unable to locate contemporaneous precinct geography maps (shapefiles) to assign voters to precincts. Additionally, it is not clear how to interpret precincts which include employees of different firms which mobilized in different directions on the same ballot question, so I exclude 12 ballot measures in which firms mobilized both in support of and against the measure. Table A20 lists the included measures, grouped by state.

Table A20: Ballot measures in the precinct vote-direction analysis

State	Year	Measure	Corporate side	Precinct cells
CA	2020	Proposition 14	Support (yes)	17,572
CA	2020	Proposition 17	Support (yes)	17,572
CA	2020	Proposition 18	Support (yes)	17,569
CA	2020	Proposition 19	Support (yes)	17,563
CA	2020	Proposition 20	Oppose (no)	17,556
CA	2020	Proposition 23	Oppose (no)	17,564
CA	2020	Proposition 25	Oppose (no)	17,556
GA	2016	Amendment 2	Support (yes)	2,549
GA	2018	Amendment 1	Support (yes)	2,557
GA	2022	Referendum A	Support (yes)	2,704
MA	2016	Question 1	Oppose (no)	2,173
MA	2016	Question 2	Support (yes)	2,173
MA	2018	Question 1	Oppose (no)	2,172
MA	2018	Question 3	Support (yes)	2,172
MA	2022	Question 3	Support (yes)	2,320
MA	2022	Question 4	Support (yes)	2,320
MA	2024	Question 1	Support (yes)	2,321
MA	2024	Question 2	Oppose (no)	2,321
MA	2024	Question 4	Support (yes)	2,321
MA	2024	Question 5	Oppose (no)	2,321
NC	2016	HB 943 (primary)	Support (yes)	2,696
NV	2016	Question 2	Support (yes)	1,588
NV	2016	Question 3	Support (yes)	1,587
NV	2020	Question 1	Support (yes)	1,729
NV	2022	Question 3	Support (yes)	1,511
NV	2024	Question 6	Support (yes)	1,283
NV	2024	Question 7	Support (yes)	1,282
OK	2016	State Question 780	Support (yes)	1,782
OK	2016	State Question 781	Support (yes)	1,782
OK	2016	State Question 792	Support (yes)	1,782